

CVT System Model Derivation

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Abstract

This work develops a first-principles dynamic model for a mechanically actuated dry rubber V-belt continuously variable transmission (CVT) and its coupling to the vehicle drivetrain. The model is motivated by a persistent gap in the available literature: while quasi-static Baja-oriented models are common and detailed dynamic models exist for hydraulically actuated metal-belt CVTs, publicly available formulations for mechanically actuated rubber belt CVTs do not generally combine sheave inertia, flyweight actuation, torque-reactive secondary clamping, belt centrifugal effects, traction-limited torque transmission, and vehicle longitudinal dynamics within a single unified framework.

Starting from pulley geometry and belt-length closure, the derivation develops the kinematic ratio relation, rotational dynamics of the primary and secondary pulleys, and the axial equation of motion governing shift. The primary clutch model includes centrifugal flyweight actuation and spring preload, while the secondary model includes helix-generated torque feedback together with spring forces. A centrifugal belt correction is derived to account for the reduction in effective normal force at speed, and an analytical stick-slip switching law is introduced to distinguish no-slip operation from traction-limited torque transmission. These elements are assembled into a closed nonlinear state-space model suitable for direct numerical time integration.

The resulting formulation is intended both as a simulation model and as a derivation document that makes each modeling step physically interpretable. The simulation section is structured to verify recovery of expected quasi-static equilibria, illustrate the importance of the belt centrifugal correction, demonstrate transient slip behavior, and show coupled launch dynamics of the complete drivetrain. TODO: add the key quantitative result highlights once the final simulation figures and numerical comparisons are completed. TODO: add the final concluding implications and summary statement after the conclusion section is finalized.

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1 Introduction

1.1 Background and Context

The continuously variable transmission (CVT) is a mechanical power transmission device capable of producing a continuously variable speed ratio between an input and output shaft, in contrast to the fixed discrete ratios of a conventional stepped gearbox. In the class of CVTs relevant to this work — dry rubber V-belt CVTs with mechanically actuated conical sheave pairs — the transmission ratio is not commanded by an external actuator or electronic controller. Instead, it is an emergent dynamic response: the equilibrium of axial forces acting on the primary and secondary sheave pairs, arising from centrifugal flyweight mechanisms, torque-reactive helix and ramp assemblies, and return springs, determines the radial position at which the belt seats within each sheave groove, and therefore the effective pitch radii and transmission ratio at every instant.

This self-regulating character is simultaneously the CVT’s greatest practical asset and the primary source of difficulty in modeling it rigorously. Because no actuator explicitly commands the ratio, the ratio trajectory at any instant is the output of a coupled mechanical system whose state depends on engine speed, load torque, belt clamping geometry, and the prior history of the shift position — all evolving together in time.

This class of CVT is found throughout small-displacement powersport and utility vehicles. It is the mandated transmission in the SAE Baja competition series, where a 10 hp engine is paired with a CVT that must be designed, selected, and tuned entirely by student engineering teams from first principles. Beyond Baja, mechanically actuated rubber V-belt CVTs are standard equipment in snowmobiles, all-terrain vehicles (ATVs), utility task vehicles (UTVs), and small agricultural and industrial machinery. Despite their prevalence and the practical engineering importance of understanding their behavior, the quality of publicly available engineering models for these systems is strikingly uneven. The present work was motivated directly by this gap.

1.2 Motivation and Literature Review

1.2.1 Overview of the Modeling Landscape

A thorough review of CVT modeling literature reveals a consistent pattern: each body of work captures some aspects of the physics carefully while leaving equally important aspects absent, empiricized, or explicitly assumed away.

A comprehensive survey of CVT dynamics and control research through 2009 is provided by Srivastava and Haque in their review article “*A Review on Belt and Chain Continuously Variable Transmissions: Dynamics and Control*” [Srivastava and Haque \(2009\)](#).

Their review systematically covers the major CVT types — rubber V-belt, metal pushing V-belt, and chain CVT — across static, quasi-static, and fully dynamic formulations, and surveys both the physical models and the control strategies built upon them. Crucially, it emphasizes that rubber belt CVTs are mechanically and dynamically distinct from metal pushing belt CVTs in their actuation mechanisms, belt compliance, and contact mechanics, and that the two should not be treated interchangeably in modeling.

Their central conclusion — that there exists “*considerable disparity in the type of CVT models that have been used*” across the literature, and that fully dynamic, experimentally validated models remain scarce for several CVT classes — indicates that the field has developed in fragments rather than converging toward a unified framework.

The present section builds on that survey, focusing specifically on the subset of literature relevant to the mechanically actuated rubber V-belt CVT considered in this work.

1.2.2 Metal Pushing V-Belt CVT Models

The most analytically complete CVT dynamic models in the literature concern the Van Doorne-type metal pushing V-belt CVT used in automotive applications.

In this class of transmission, clamping force is imposed hydraulically through electronically controlled oil pressure rather than through centrifugal flyweights and spring mechanisms. The belt itself consists of a series of compressive steel elements rather than a flexible rubber belt operating primarily in tension.

Carbone, Mangialardi, and Mantriota [Carbone et al. \(2005\)](#) derive a dynamic model for the shifting behavior of the metal V-belt CVT and identify two distinct operating regimes governing ratio change. In the first regime, micro-slip redistribution within the contact arc governs the shift process, producing relatively slow ratio evolution. In the second regime, macro-slip occurs and rapid ratio change becomes possible.

Srivastava and Haque extend this class of modeling by incorporating dynamic effects associated with belt element inertia and transient force redistribution within the belt system [Srivastava and Haque \(2006\)](#). These studies represent some of the most detailed dynamic analyses of CVT behavior available in the literature.

Experimental characterization of the slip–torque relationship in metal belt CVTs has also been reported by Bonsen et al. [Bonsen et al. \(2004\)](#). Their results show that transmitted torque varies nonlinearly with slip ratio, increasing through a micro-slip region before reaching a maximum near the transition to macro-slip.

While these models achieve a high degree of dynamic fidelity, they describe a fundamentally different system class from the mechanically actuated rubber belt CVT considered here. The actuation mechanisms, belt mechanics, and contact physics differ substantially, limiting the direct applicability of these formulations.

1.2.3 Rubber Belt Mechanical CVT Models

For the mechanically actuated rubber V-belt CVT, the literature is considerably thinner.

The most detailed dynamic model in the open literature appears to be that of Julio and Plante [Julio and Plante \(2011\)](#). Their formulation discretizes the belt into nodal elements and applies Newton’s second law to each node individually. Local friction forces are computed from the normal force at each contact point, allowing the torque transmission capacity of the belt to emerge from the cumulative tangential friction forces acting along the wrap arc.

This nodal formulation has several advantages. The belt tension distribution arises naturally from the equilibrium of individual elements rather than being imposed through the classical capstan relationship. The wedging behavior of the belt in the conical groove is captured directly through the element geometry, and centrifugal effects acting on belt elements are included through fictitious forces in the rotating reference frame.

However, two important limitations remain.

First, the inertia of the movable sheaves is neglected. The axial position of the sheaves is determined through instantaneous force balance rather than through an inertial equation of motion, meaning the model cannot capture the finite time required for sheave motion to respond to changing forces.

Second, the authors report difficulty obtaining stable predictions during the transition between clutching and shifting operation. Since mechanically actuated rubber belt CVTs use the belt clamping mechanism itself as the start-up clutch, the clutching regime forms an essential part of the system operating envelope.

Another related effort is presented in SAE technical paper “*Development of CVT Shift Dynamic Simulation Model with Elastic Rubber V-Belt*” [Yi et al. \(2011\)](#). This work develops a dynamic simulation model incorporating belt elasticity and derives a shift motion relationship based on axial force balance between pulleys. Because the full derivation is not publicly accessible, the detailed structure of the dynamic model cannot be evaluated fully from the available abstract and secondary descriptions.

1.2.4 Quasi-Static Baja-Specific Models

Within the SAE Baja community, most CVT modeling work follows a quasi-static force balance approach.

In these models the operating point of the transmission is obtained by solving the condition that the net axial force acting on the sheave assembly is zero. The shift position is therefore treated as an instantaneous function of operating conditions rather than as a dynamic state evolving over time.

A widely cited example is the thesis by Skinner [Skinner \(2020\)](#), which develops a quasi-static model of the flyweight-actuated primary and ramp-actuated secondary and investigates how parameters such as flyweight mass, spring preload, and ramp angle affect engagement speed and operating RPM.

While such models are useful for design tuning and steady-state analysis, they contain no explicit equation of motion for the shift coordinate, no sheave inertia, and no explicit treatment of belt slip. Consequently they cannot simulate transient behavior or predict the dynamic evolution of the transmission ratio.

1.2.5 The Persistent Gap

The literature survey above reveals a consistent pattern. For mechanically actuated dry rubber V-belt CVTs, no publicly available model simultaneously provides

1. an explicit inertial equation of motion for the axial shift coordinate,
2. first-principles modeling of flyweight actuation,
3. a torque-reactive secondary helix force derived from geometry,
4. centrifugal belt mass correction to effective clamping force,
5. an analytical traction-limit slip criterion, and
6. coupling to vehicle longitudinal dynamics.

Metal pushing-belt CVT models such as those of [Carbone et al. \(2005\)](#), [Srivastava and Haque \(2006\)](#), and [Bonsen et al. \(2004\)](#) achieve high levels of dynamic fidelity but describe a different

transmission architecture under hydraulic actuation.

Rubber belt models such as [Julio and Plante \(2011\)](#) capture detailed belt mechanics but omit sheave inertia and encounter difficulties during clutching transitions.

Quasi-static Baja models such as [Skinner \(2020\)](#) provide useful design intuition but cannot capture transient behavior.

The absence of a unified dynamic treatment incorporating both mechanical actuation physics and traction-limited torque transmission motivates the development presented in this work.

Reference	Belt	Actuation	Shift ODE	Sheave Inertia	Clutching Mode	Slip Model	Vehicle Dyn.
Carbone et al. (2005)	Metal	Hydraulic	Yes	Yes	No	Yes	No
Srivastava and Haque (2006)	Metal	Hydraulic	Yes	Yes	No	Yes	No
Bonsen et al. (2004)	Metal	Hydraulic	Partial	Yes	No	Yes	No
Julio and Plante (2011)	Rubber	Mechanical	Partial	No	Unstable	Implicit	No
Yi et al. (2011)	Rubber	Mechanical	Partial	Unknown	Unknown	Not explicit	No
Skinner (2020)	Rubber	Mechanical	No	No	No	No	No
Present Work	Rubber	Mechanical	Yes	Yes	Yes	Analytical	Yes

Table 1: Comparison of representative CVT modeling approaches

1.3 Objectives and Scope

This work has two parallel objectives.

The first is technical: to derive a complete, coupled system of nonlinear ordinary differential equations governing the CVT from engine input shaft to vehicle wheel, suitable for direct numerical integration in time.

The second is pedagogical: to make each step of the derivation explicit and physically interpretable, allowing the reader to develop intuition for the mechanisms governing CVT behavior.

The model includes:

- Primary sheave axial shift dynamics
- Secondary helix and spring force model
- Belt geometry and kinematics
- Belt traction and slip-state model
- Rotational equations of motion for both pulleys
- Vehicle longitudinal dynamics

The model intentionally excludes thermal effects, belt wear, detailed tribological contact mechanics, and multi-body vehicle dynamics beyond one-dimensional longitudinal motion.

1.4 Contribution Statement

The primary technical contributions of this work are:

1. A unified nonlinear state-space model for the mechanically actuated rubber V-belt CVT.
2. First-principles derivation of the primary axial shift equation of motion including sheave inertia and centrifugal flyweight actuation.

3. First-principles derivation of the torque-reactive secondary helix force.
4. Derivation of the centrifugal belt mass correction to effective clamping force.
5. An analytical slip-state switching criterion separating no-slip and traction-limited regimes.
6. Full coupling of the CVT dynamics to vehicle longitudinal motion.

1.5 Document Organization

The remainder of this document is organized as follows.

Section 2 introduces the fundamental operating principles of a belt-sheave CVT and describes the specific drivetrain architecture considered in this work.

Section 3 defines notation, coordinate conventions, and symbol definitions used throughout.

Section 4 states the modeling assumptions that scope the analysis.

Section 5 presents the governing physical principles underlying the model.

Section 6 defines the dynamic state variables.

Section 7 through **Section 11** contain the core derivations: pulley geometry (**Section 7**), axial force models (**Section 8**), torque transmission mechanics (**Section 9**), traction limits (**Section 10**), and slip-state formulation (**Section 11**).

Section 12 assembles the complete dynamic system.

Appendices provide supplementary material: belt length approximation validation (**Appendix A**), common ramp profile designs (**Appendix B**), numerical methods (**Appendix C**), and secondary capacity closure (**Appendix D**).

2 Conceptual Overview of a Continuously Variable Transmission

This section introduces the fundamental operating principles of a continuously variable transmission (CVT) and then presents the specific CVT and drivetrain architecture considered in this work.

The goal is to establish clear mechanical intuition before developing the mathematical model in later sections.

2.1 Geometric Principle of a Belt-Sheave CVT

A belt-type CVT consists of two pulleys connected by a flexible belt. Each pulley is formed by two opposing conical faces (sheaves). The axial separation between these sheaves determines the effective radius at which the belt rides.

When the sheaves move closer together, the belt is forced outward to a larger radius. When the sheaves move apart, the belt settles at a smaller radius. Because the belt length remains approximately constant, an increase in effective radius on one pulley necessarily causes a corresponding decrease on the other.

As a result, the transmission ratio changes continuously as the pulley geometries change. Unlike a traditional gearbox, there are no discrete gear steps; the ratio evolves smoothly between its minimum and maximum values.

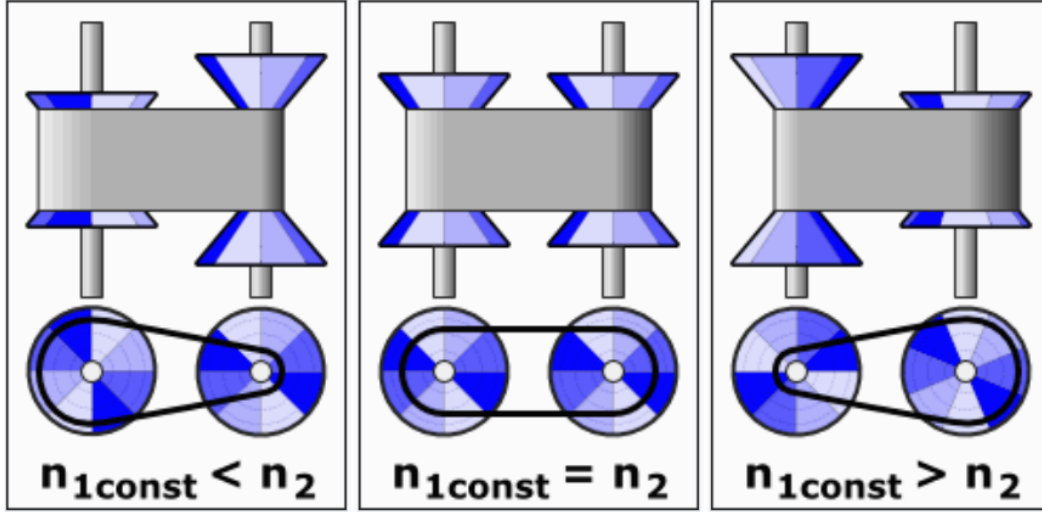


Figure 1: Conceptual illustration of a belt-sheave CVT at three different ratios. Changing the axial separation of the conical sheaves alters the effective belt radius, thereby modifying the transmission ratio continuously.

2.2 Continuous Ratio Versus Discrete Gearing

The defining feature of a CVT is that its transmission ratio can vary smoothly rather than in discrete steps. To understand why this matters, it is useful to first consider how a conventional transmission behaves.

In a stepped gearbox, each gear pair imposes a fixed relationship between engine speed and wheel speed. When vehicle speed increases beyond the useful range of one gear, the transmission must shift to another. This produces an abrupt change in engine speed for the same vehicle speed. As a result, the engine repeatedly accelerates and decelerates as the vehicle progresses through the gears.

A belt-sheave CVT operates differently. Because the effective pulley radii change continuously, the speed relationship between the engine and drivetrain can be adjusted smoothly at any instant. There are no fixed gear pairs that constrain the system to specific ratios. Instead, the ratio can evolve gradually as operating conditions change.

This continuous adjustability allows the engine to operate near a preferred speed while the vehicle accelerates. For example, if an engine produces its peak power within a narrow speed band, a CVT can maintain the engine near that region while vehicle speed increases steadily. Rather than stepping through gears, the transmission adapts its ratio to match the engine's most effective operating condition.

The result is smoother acceleration, improved power utilization, and greater flexibility in matching engine behavior to load demands.

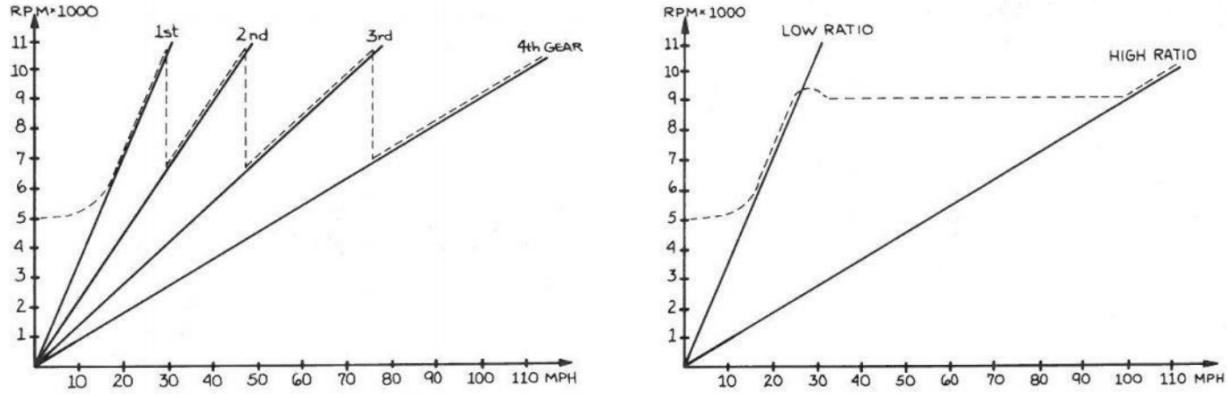


Figure 2: Illustrative comparison of engine speed versus vehicle speed. Left: stepped transmission showing discrete shifts. Right: continuously variable transmission showing smooth ratio evolution.

2.3 Traction-Based Torque Transmission

While the geometric adjustment of pulley radii determines the speed ratio, torque is transmitted through frictional interaction between the belt and the sheave faces.

When a pulley attempts to rotate, it applies a tangential force to the belt. For that force to be transmitted without relative motion, sufficient normal clamping force must press the belt against the conical surfaces. The greater the normal force, the greater the tangential force that can be supported before slip occurs.

This requirement arises directly from the nature of friction. The belt does not contain rigid gear teeth that mechanically lock the pulleys together. Instead, torque transfer depends on traction generated by contact pressure and surface friction. If the transmitted torque exceeds the available traction capacity, the belt will begin to slip relative to the sheave faces.

Slip reduces efficiency, generates heat, and can accelerate component wear. For this reason, CVT designs incorporate mechanisms that actively regulate clamping force in response to operating conditions.

It is therefore useful to distinguish between two interacting aspects of CVT behavior:

- The **geometric ratio**, which determines relative speeds,
- The **traction capacity**, which determines how much torque can be transmitted without slip.

Both must be considered to fully understand performance.

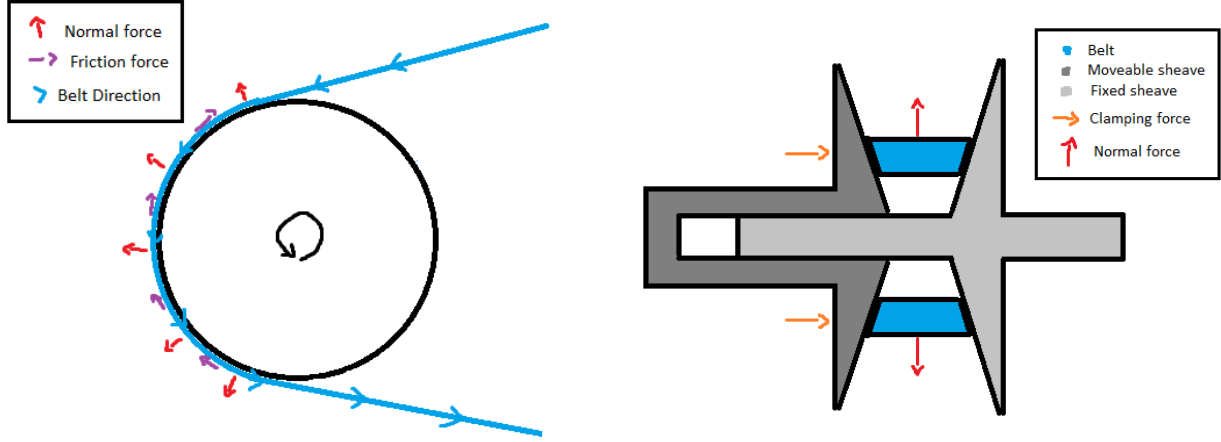


Figure 3: Belt-pulley contact mechanics and force transmission. Left: belt wrapped around a pulley showing normal forces (pressing belt against sheave surface) and tangential friction forces (transmitting torque through traction). Right: cross-sectional view of a CVT pulley assembly showing how axial clamping force between opposing sheaves generates the normal force required for friction and torque transmission.

2.4 Actuation Mechanisms in the Present CVT

While the geometric principles described above apply to all belt-type CVTs, the manner in which axial motion and clamping forces are generated depends on the specific hardware implementation.

The CVT considered in this work employs:

- A **centrifugal flyweight and ramp mechanism** on the primary pulley,
- A **torque-feedback helix mechanism** on the secondary pulley,
- Compression and torsional springs that regulate axial clamping forces.

On the primary side, rotating flyweights move outward under centrifugal effects. Through a ramped interface, this outward motion generates axial force, which adjusts the sheave separation and alters the effective radius.

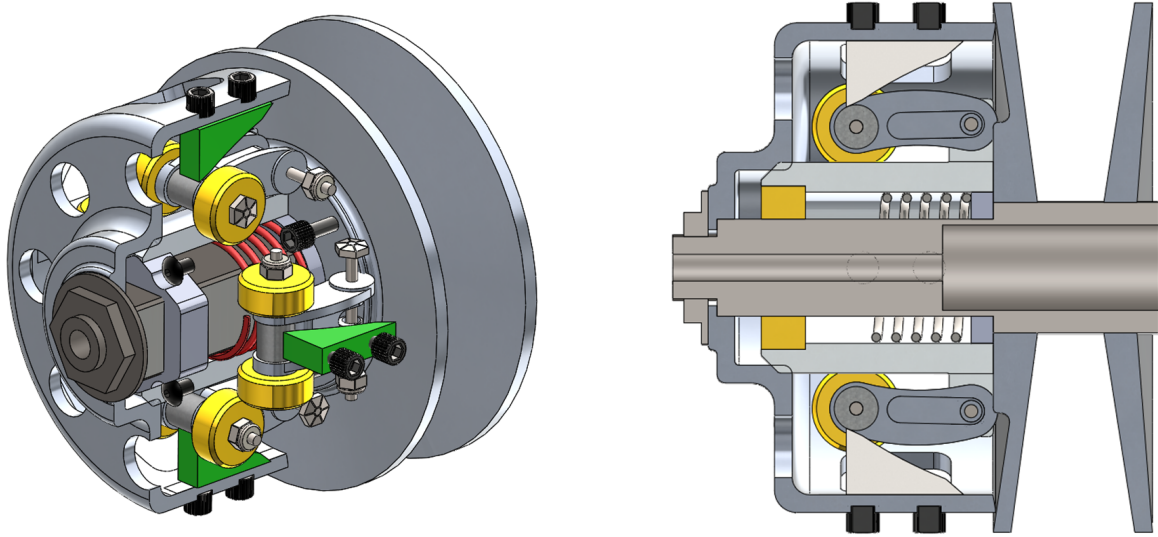


Figure 4: Primary CVT pulley assembly. Left: exterior view. Right: cross-sectional view showing centrifugal flyweights (yellow), ramps (green), and compression spring (red). As engine speed increases, centrifugal force drives the flyweights outward along the ramps, generating axial clamping force.

On the secondary side, transmitted torque produces a rotational reaction within a helical interface. This interaction generates axial force that increases clamping in response to torque demand. Springs supplement this mechanism to regulate baseline clamping and system stability.

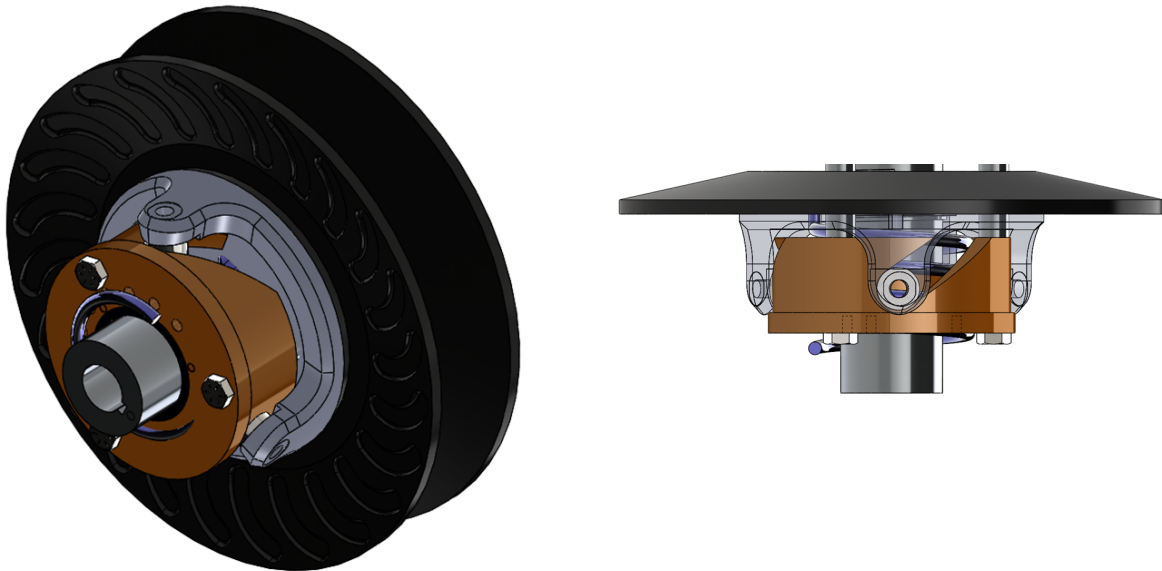


Figure 5: Secondary CVT pulley assembly. Left: exterior view. Right: cross-sectional view showing torque-feedback helix mechanism (bronze) and torsional spring (black). Transmitted torque generates a rotational reaction in the helix, which produces axial clamping force proportional to load.

2.5 Full Drivetrain Architecture

- An internal combustion engine,
- The primary CVT pulley,
- A belt connecting to the secondary CVT pulley,
- A fixed-ratio gearbox,
- Final drive components and driven wheels,
- Tire-ground interaction generating tractive forces.

The interaction between engine dynamics, CVT ratio evolution, drivetrain inertia, and external load forces governs overall vehicle performance.



3 Reference Material

This section records any information for easy reference.

3.1 Coordinate and Sign Conventions

A consistent set of coordinate directions and sign conventions is adopted throughout this document. All equations follow these conventions.

3.1.1 Vehicle Longitudinal Coordinate and Incline Angle

The vehicle is modeled as moving along a single straight line aligned with the road surface.

The positive longitudinal direction, denoted $+x$, is defined as the forward direction of travel along the surface of the road.

The road may be inclined relative to horizontal. The incline angle is denoted by α and is measured between the road surface and the horizontal reference line. An incline with $\alpha > 0$ corresponds to the vehicle facing uphill in the positive x direction.

Importantly, the $+x$ axis is *tangent to the road surface* and rotates with the road inclination. The $+x$ direction is not fixed in space but rather follows the path of the road, changing orientation as the incline angle α changes.

Because the $+x$ axis remains parallel to the road surface regardless of incline, the coordinate system rotates through angle α relative to a horizontal reference frame.

A vehicle with velocity $v > 0$ is therefore moving forward along the road in the $+x$ direction. If $v < 0$, the vehicle is moving in the opposite direction.

These definitions establish the geometric orientation of vehicle motion and the road surface.

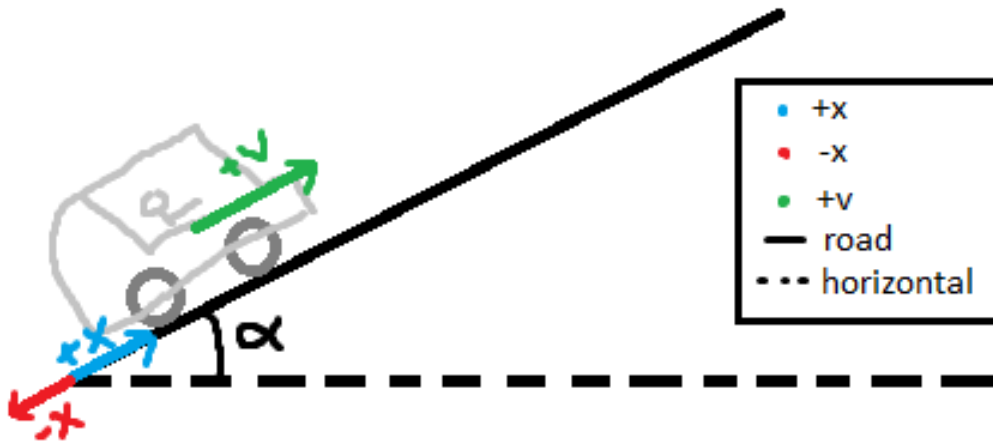


Figure 7: Definition of the longitudinal coordinate and incline angle. The positive x direction follows the road surface. Velocity v is positive when directed uphill along $+x$. The incline angle α is measured between the road and the horizontal.

3.1.2 Rotational Sign Convention

All rotating components in the drivetrain follow a consistent angular sign convention.

The primary pulley, secondary pulley, and engine crankshaft are each assigned a positive direction of rotation. This positive rotational direction is defined such that it produces forward belt motion and, consequently, forward vehicle motion along the $+x$ direction defined previously.

Angular velocities are therefore interpreted as follows:

- $\omega_p > 0$ corresponds to the primary pulley rotating in the direction that drives the belt forward.
- $\omega_s > 0$ corresponds to the secondary pulley rotating in the direction consistent with forward belt travel.
- Engine angular velocity is positive when rotating in the direction that drives the primary pulley forward.

Torque follows the same convention. A torque is considered positive if it acts in the defined positive direction of rotation and tends to increase the corresponding angular velocity. A torque acting opposite to the defined rotational direction is negative.

These definitions establish a consistent orientation for all rotational quantities in the drivetrain.

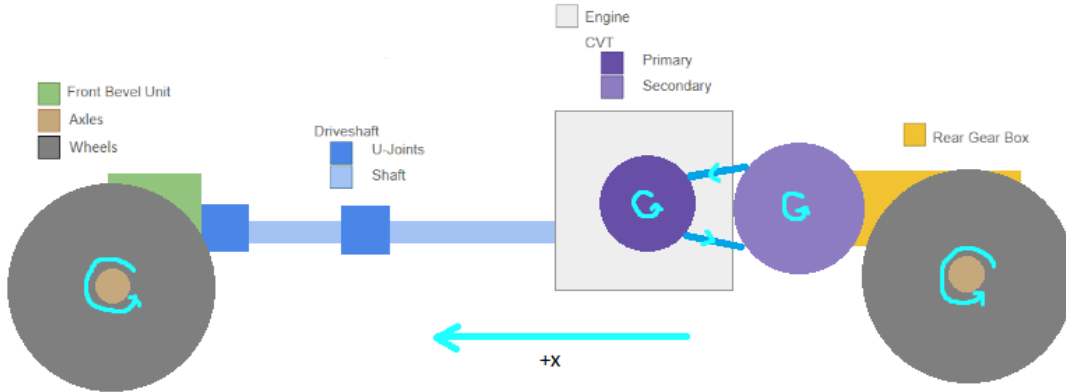


Figure 8: Rotational sign convention for the drivetrain. Positive angular velocities (ω_p , ω_s) correspond to rotation that drives the belt in the $+x$ direction, producing forward vehicle motion. Positive torque acts in the same rotational direction.

3.1.3 CVT Axial Direction

The axial direction of the primary pulley is defined along the axis of its shaft. This direction is parallel to the pulley centerline and perpendicular to the belt's plane of rotation.

The primary pulley is initially in an open configuration, meaning there is a finite gap between the fixed and movable sheaves. The axial coordinate s does not represent the total gap distance. Instead, it measures how much the movable sheave has translated from this initial open position.

A positive axial displacement, $s > 0$, corresponds to the movable sheave moving toward the fixed sheave, thereby reducing the gap. In other words, increasing s represents additional closure relative to the initial open state.

As the sheaves move closer together, the belt is forced outward along the conical faces, increasing the effective belt radius on the primary pulley. Thus, increasing s corresponds to increasing primary effective radius and produces an upshift.

A change in s also affects the secondary pulley. Because the belt length remains constrained, motion of the primary sheaves is coupled to motion of the secondary sheaves. In general terms, an increase in s on the primary corresponds to the secondary sheaves moving apart. The precise relationship between these motions depends on belt geometry and will be established later; here it is sufficient to recognize that the two axial motions are linked.

Axial velocity follows the same sign convention: $\dot{s} > 0$ corresponds to the movable sheave translating in the defined positive axial direction.

These definitions establish the orientation and meaning of axial motion for the CVT.

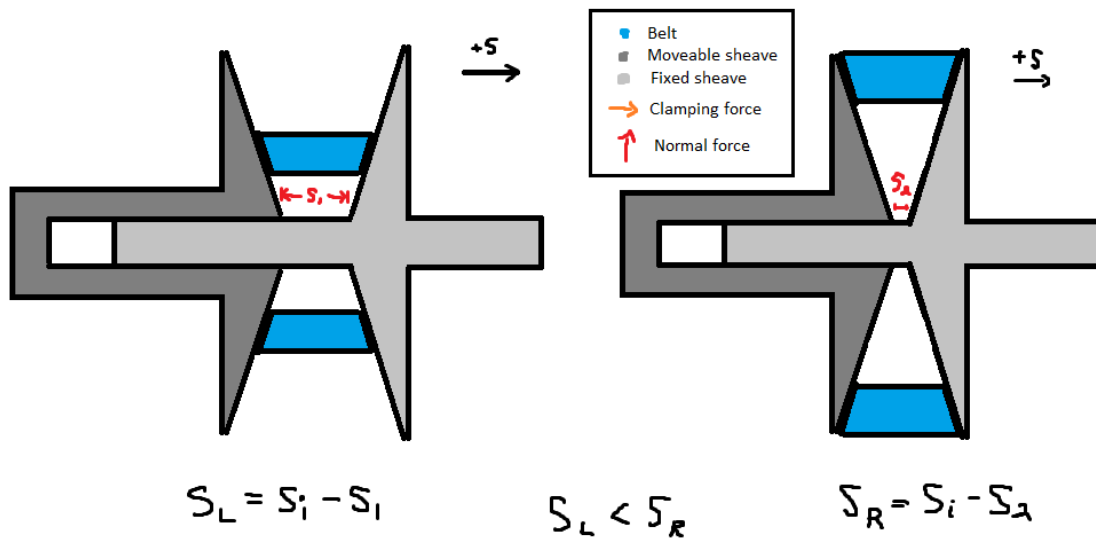


Figure 9: Definition of the primary axial coordinate. The system begins in an open configuration. The axial displacement s measures how much the movable sheave has closed from this initial position. Increasing s increases primary effective radius and is coupled to secondary axial motion.

3.1.4 Radial and Tangential Directions

Within the plane of pulley rotation, directions are defined using the standard polar (radial–tangential) convention commonly used in rotational mechanics.

The radial direction is defined perpendicular to the shaft axis and measured outward from the center of rotation. At any point on the pulley, the radial direction points directly away from the center toward the belt contact surface.

A radial force is defined as positive when it acts outward from the center of the pulley. Thus, $F_r > 0$ corresponds to a force directed away from the center.

The tangential direction lies in the plane of rotation and is perpendicular to the radial direction at each point. The positive tangential direction is defined to be consistent with the previously defined positive angular rotation. In other words, positive tangential direction corresponds to the direction of motion produced by positive angular velocity defined in [Section 3.1.2](#).

Together, the radial and tangential directions form the standard local coordinate basis for forces and motion in the rotating pulley.

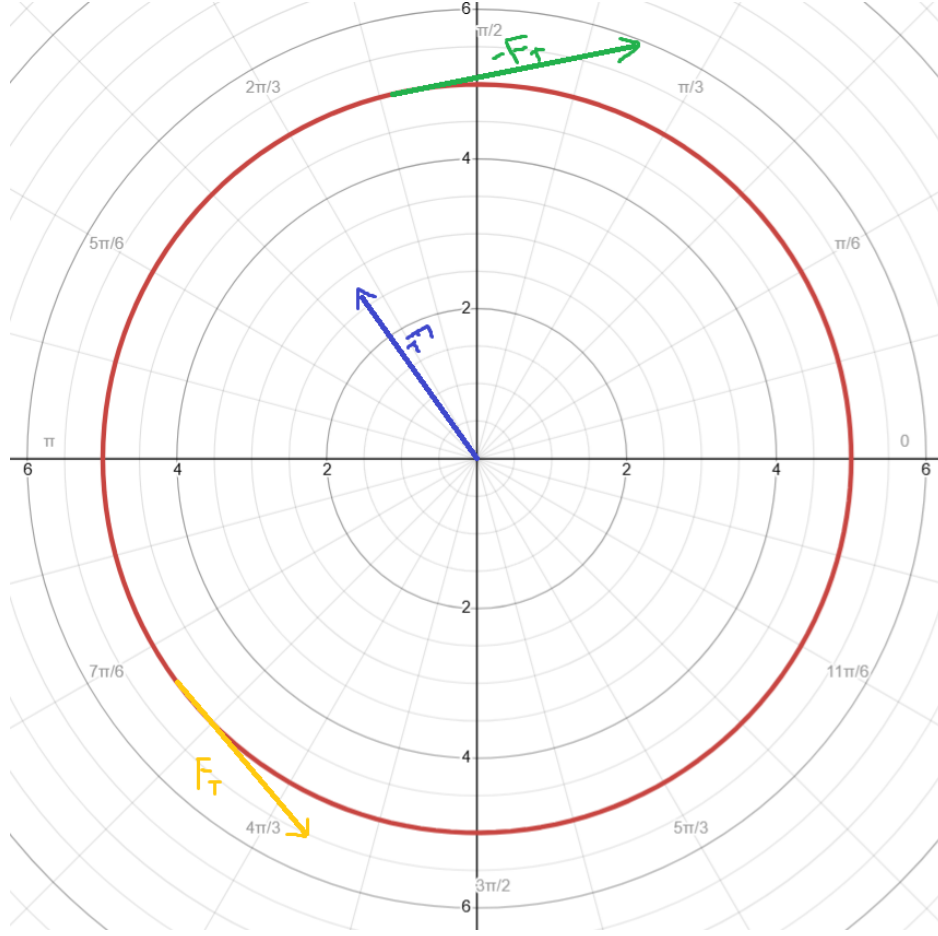


Figure 10: Definition of radial and tangential directions in the plane of rotation. The radial direction points outward from the center. The tangential direction is perpendicular to the radial direction and aligned with positive rotation.

3.2 Symbol Summary

Symbol	Meaning
State and kinematics	
$\mathbf{x}(t)$	state vector
t	time
ω_p, ω_s	primary and secondary angular speed
α_p, α_s	primary and secondary angular acceleration
$s, \dot{s}, \ddot{s}$	shift position, velocity, and acceleration
$R, \dot{R}$	CVT ratio and ratio rate
v_{rel}	relative slip speed at belt–pulley interface
Geometry	
$r_{p,\text{outer}}(s), r_{s,\text{outer}}(s)$	primary and secondary outer radius
$r_{p,\text{eff}}(s), r_{s,\text{eff}}(s)$	primary and secondary effective torque radius

Symbol	Meaning
$r_{p,\text{outer,min}}$	minimum primary outer radius
$r_{s,\text{outer,max}}$	maximum secondary outer radius
$s_{\text{dz}}, s_{\text{max}}$	deadzone threshold and maximum shift
β	sheave face half-angle (radial reference)
C	pulley center distance
L_b	total belt length
ϕ	belt wrap angle used in distributed contact model
$r, \dot{r}$	local bConceptual Overview of Variable Geoelt path radius and its time derivative
r_{cm}	belt element center-of-mass radius
Constraint and mapping functions	
$f(r_p, r_s, C)$	belt-length compatibility root function ($f = 0$)
$\text{root}_{r_s}(\cdot)$	numerical root solve for secondary radius
$r_f(s), \frac{dr_f}{ds}$	primary flyweight radius map and gradient
$\theta_s(s), \frac{d\theta_s}{ds}$	secondary helix angle map and gradient
Forces and torques	
$F_{p,\text{ax}}, F_{s,\text{ax}}$	primary and secondary axial mechanism force
$F_{c,p}, F_{c,s}$	primary and secondary belt centrifugal axial contribution
F_{ax}	generic axial clamp force at one pulley contact
$\tau_{\text{eng}}, \tau_{\text{load}}$	engine input torque and reflected load torque
τ_p, τ_s	coupling torque seen at primary and secondary
τ, τ_c	generic interface torque and applied coupling/friction torque
τ_{ns}	no-slip requested coupling torque
τ_{max}	traction-limited torque capacity
Mass/inertia and material parameters	
I_p, I_s	primary and secondary rotational inertia
m_f	effective flyweight mass
$m_{p,m}, m_{s,m}$	equivalent primary and secondary translating mechanism mass
ρ_b	belt material density
A_b	belt cross-sectional area
μ	belt-pulley traction coefficient
$k_p, x_{p,0}$	primary spring stiffness and preload displacement
$k_{s,\theta}, \theta_{s,0}$	secondary torsional stiffness and preload angle
$k_{s,x}, x_{s,0}$	secondary axial stiffness and preload displacement

Table 2: Core symbols used throughout the derivation.

3.3 Base Units

All quantities in this document are expressed in SI units unless otherwise stated.

Quantity	Unit	Symbol
Length	meter	m
Mass	kilogram	kg
Time	second	s
Plane angle	radian	rad

Table 3: Base SI units used by the model variables and parameters.

3.4 Common Derived Units

Quantity	Unit	Symbol
Velocity	meter per second	m/s
Acceleration	meter per second squared	m/s ²
Angular velocity	radian per second	rad/s
Angular acceleration	radian per second squared	rad/s ²
Area	square meter	m ²
Volume	cubic meter	m ³
Density	kilogram per cubic meter	kg/m ³
Linear spring stiffness	newton per meter	N/m
Torsional spring stiffness	newton meter per radian	N m/rad
Force	newton (kg m/s ²)	N
Torque	newton meter (kg m ² /s ²)	N m
Moment of inertia	kilogram meter squared	kg m ²
Power	watt (kg m ² /s ³)	W
Dimensionless ratios/coeffs.	unitless	1

Table 4: Derived units and unitless groups used throughout the CVT model.

3.5 Constants and Parameters

All non-varying model parameters are centralized below as the canonical reference. Unless explicitly treated as inputs or state-dependent maps, symbols listed here are held constant during simulation.

Symbol	Name	Nominal value	Unit	Description
Geometry and belt				
L_b	Belt length	—	m	Fixed total belt length
C	Center distance	—	m	Primary–secondary shaft center distance (fixed after initialization)
β	Sheave half-angle	—	rad	Cone half-angle used for radial/axial conversion
h_b	Belt thickness	—	m	Radial belt thickness
b_{out}	Belt outer width	—	m	Belt width at outer face
b_{in}	Belt inner width	—	m	Belt width at inner face
A_b	Belt cross-sectional area	—	m ²	Trapezoid area from h_b , b_{out} , b_{in}
$r_{p,\text{outer,min}}$	Primary minimum outer radius	—	m	Radius at fully open primary

Symbol	Name	Nominal value	Unit	Description
$r_{s,\text{outer,max}}$	Secondary maximum outer radius	—	m	Radius at fully closed secondary
s_{dz}	Shift deadzone threshold	—	m	Onset of effective radial motion
s_{max}	Maximum shift	—	m	Physical upper travel bound
Primary/secondary actuation				
m_f	Flyweight mass	—	kg	Effective flyweight mass
$r_{f,0}$	Initial flyweight radius	—	m	Flyweight radius offset at $s = 0$
k_p	Primary spring stiffness	—	N/m	Primary compression spring rate
$x_{p,0}$	Primary spring preload	—	m	Initial compression of primary spring
$k_{s,\theta}$	Secondary torsional stiffness	—	N m/rad	Torsional spring rate in helix assembly
$\theta_{s,0}$	Secondary torsional preload	—	rad	Initial torsional deflection preload
r_h	Helix reference radius	—	m	Effective cylindrical radius in helix kinematics
$k_{s,x}$	Secondary axial stiffness	—	N/m	Secondary axial compression spring rate
$x_{s,0}$	Secondary axial preload	—	m	Initial compression of secondary axial spring
Inertia and drivetrain				
I_{eng}	Engine inertia	—	kg m ²	Engine rotational inertia
I_{prim}	Primary pulley inertia	—	kg m ²	Primary CVT pulley inertia
I_p	Effective primary inertia	—	kg m ²	$I_p = I_{\text{eng}} + I_{\text{prim}}$
I_{sec}	Secondary pulley inertia	—	kg m ²	Secondary CVT pulley inertia
I_{gb}	Gearbox inertia	—	kg m ²	Gearbox/intermediate shaft inertia
I_{wheel}	Wheel inertia	—	kg m ²	Wheel/hub inertia about wheel axis
I_s	Effective secondary inertia	—	kg m ²	Lumped secondary-side inertia about secondary axis
G	Final drive ratio	—	1	Fixed ratio defined by $\omega_s = G \omega_w$
m	Vehicle mass	—	kg	Total vehicle mass
r_w	Wheel rolling radius	—	m	Effective tire rolling radius
Contact and environment				
ρ_b	Belt density	—	kg/m ³	Belt material density
μ	Belt-pulley friction coefficient	—	1	Effective Coulomb traction coefficient
C_{rr}	Rolling resistance coefficient	—	1	Tire-road rolling resistance coefficient
C_d	Drag coefficient	—	1	Aerodynamic drag coefficient
A_f	Frontal area	—	m ²	Vehicle aerodynamic reference area
ρ	Air density	—	kg/m ³	Ambient air density used in drag model

g

Gravitational acceleration

 m/s^2

Gravity constant

Table 5: Canonical non-varying parameters used by the CVT model equations.

4 Modeling Assumptions

The following assumptions define the modeling scope and physical idealizations used in the CVT dynamic formulation. These assumptions establish the limits within which the derived equations remain valid.

4.1 Material and Structural Idealizations

Assumption 1 (Constant Material Properties)

Material properties of structural components are treated as constant. No temperature-dependent material variation is modeled. Thermal effects are not solved as part of this system.

Assumption 2 (Rigid Structural Components)

All structural components (pulleys, shafts, housing) are modeled as rigid bodies. Elastic deformation under operational loading is neglected. The belt is assumed axially rigid (no longitudinal stretch), while still conforming geometrically around pulleys.

Assumption 3 (Negligible Wear and Surface Evolution)

Component wear, belt degradation, and pulley surface evolution are neglected. The model represents short-term operational behavior.

4.2 Contact and Friction Modeling

Assumption 4 (Idealized Belt–Pulley Friction Law)

Belt traction is modeled using a simplified friction law (e.g., Coulomb friction with a capstan formulation and an explicit stick–slip transition rule). Microscopic contact mechanics, rubber hysteresis, lubrication films, and detailed Stribeck effects are not explicitly modeled.

Assumption 5 (Constant Effective Friction Coefficient)

The belt–pulley coefficient of friction is treated as constant. It does not evolve with temperature, wear, or surface conditioning.

Assumption 6 (Uniform Contact Distribution)

Contact pressure and traction over the pulley wrap angle are treated as effectively uniform or averaged. Localized edge loading and non-uniform stress distributions are neglected.

4.3 Geometric and Kinematic Idealizations

Assumption 7 (Perfect Axis Alignment)

Primary and secondary pulley axes are assumed perfectly aligned. Misalignment, shaft eccentricity, and geometric runout are neglected.

Assumption 8 (Constant Belt Length)

The belt length is treated as constant. Permanent creep and progressive elongation are not modeled. Effective pulley radii are determined solely from geometry and belt-length constraints.

Assumption 9 (Uniform Contact Radius Around Wrap)

At any given instant, the belt contacts each pulley at a single, uniform effective radius throughout the entire wrap angle. The contact radius is constant around the circumference of contact, with no spiral or progressive radial variation along the wrap. While the effective radius may evolve with axial shift position, it remains spatially uniform at each time instant.

4.4 Dynamic and Inertial Modeling

Assumption 10 (Lumped Inertia Representation)

Rotational inertias of the engine, pulleys, drivetrain, and wheels are represented as lumped equivalent inertias. Distributed shaft flex and torsional compliance are neglected.

Assumption 11 (Negligible Vibrational Effects)

High-frequency vibrational effects, structural resonances, and drivetrain oscillations are neglected. The model captures dominant rigid-body dynamics only.

Assumption 12 (Negligible Parasitic Friction)

Frictional losses in non-critical components (e.g., bearings, seals, auxiliary shafts) are neglected. Only friction directly relevant to belt traction and CVT torque transfer is modeled.

Assumption 13 (Ideal CVT Power Transmission)

Power transmission through the CVT is modeled as ideal (i.e., no internal dissipation). Although belt slip is explicitly modeled and affects torque capacity and shift dynamics, the associated power loss P_{loss} is neglected.

4.5 Environmental and Operational Scope

Assumption 14 (Negligible Gravitational Influence on CVT Internals)

Gravitational forces acting on CVT internal components are negligible relative to centrifugal and contact forces at operating speeds.

Assumption 15 (Full-Throttle Engine Model)

The engine is modeled using a prescribed full-throttle torque curve. Load feedback modifies engine speed dynamically, but part-throttle dynamics and throttle transients are not explicitly modeled.

5 Governing Principles

Theory 1: Newton's Second Law (Translation)

Equation

$$\sum F = ma$$

Description

- $\sum F$ is the net force (N)
- m is mass (kg)
- a is acceleration (m/s²)

Source

Classical mechanics (textbook / lecture notes).

Derivation

From the definition of acceleration and empirical laws of motion; used here as a governing relationship.

Theory 2: Newton's Second Law (Rotation)

Equation

$$\sum \tau = I\alpha$$

Description

- $\sum \tau$ is net torque (N m)
- I is moment of inertia (kg m²)
- α is angular acceleration (rad/s²)

Source

Classical rigid body dynamics (textbook / lecture notes).

Derivation

Standard rigid-body rotational dynamics relationship.

Theory 3: Torque Definition

Equation

$$\tau = Fr$$

Description

- τ is torque (N m)
- F is tangential force (N)
- r is moment arm radius (m)

Source

Classical mechanics (textbook / lecture notes).

Derivation

Defines torque as the product of tangential force and moment arm. Equivalently, $F = \tau/r$ gives the tangential force from a known torque.

Theory 4: Kinetic Energy (Translational)

Equation

$$T = \frac{1}{2}mv^2$$

Description

- T is kinetic energy (J)
- m is mass (kg)
- v is velocity (m/s)

Source

Classical mechanics (textbook / lecture notes).

Derivation

Translational kinetic energy of a point mass or rigid body moving with velocity v .

Theory 5: Centrifugal Force

Equation

$$F_c = m\omega^2 r$$

Description

- F_c is centrifugal force (N)
- m is mass (kg)
- ω is angular velocity (rad/s)
- r is radius from the axis of rotation (m)

Source

[Bogna Szyk and Steven Wooding \(2024\)](#).

Derivation

Derived from circular motion kinematics where $a_c = \omega^2 r$, then applying $F = ma$.

Theory 6: Hooke's Law (Compressional)

Equation

$$F = k\Delta x$$

Description

- F is force (N)
- k is spring constant (N/m)
- Δx is displacement (m)

Source

[Encyclopaedia Britannica \(2024\)](#).

Derivation

Linear spring constitutive relationship in the elastic regime.

Theory 7: Hooke's Law (Torsional)

Equation

$$F = \frac{k\Delta\theta}{r}$$

Description

- F is force (N)
- k is torsional spring constant (N m/rad)
- $\Delta\theta$ is angular deflection (rad)
- r is torque arm radius (m)

Source

[Dr. Templeman \(2024\)](#).

Derivation

Starting from $\tau = k\Delta\theta$ and $\tau = Fr$, then $F = \frac{k\Delta\theta}{r}$.

Theory 8: Engine Torque from Power

Equation

$$\tau = \frac{P}{\omega}$$

Description

- τ is torque (N m)
- P is power (W)
- ω is angular velocity (rad/s)

Source

[2024 Power Test, LLC \(2024\)](#).

Derivation

From the rotational power relationship $P = \tau\omega$.

Theory 9: Gearing (Torque Scaling)

Equation

$$\tau_{\text{out}} = \tau_{\text{in}} R_{\text{gear}}$$

Description

- τ_{out} is output torque (N m)
- τ_{in} is input torque (N m)
- R_{gear} is gear reduction ratio (unitless)

Source

[Brain \(2023\)](#).

Derivation

Ideal gear relationship assuming no losses; power balance implies inverse scaling of speed.

Theory 10: Coulomb Friction

Equation

$$F_f = \mu_s F_n$$

Description

- F_f is friction force (N)
- μ_s is coefficient of static friction (unitless)
- F_n is normal force (N)

Source

[Wikipedia contributors \(2024\)](#).

Derivation

Coulomb friction model for impending slip.

Theory 11: Capstan Equation

Equation

$$T_1 = T_2 e^{\mu\theta}$$

Description

- T_1 is tight-side belt tension (N)
- T_2 is slack-side belt tension (N)
- μ is belt–pulley friction coefficient (unitless)
- θ is wrap angle (rad)

Source

[Hackaday \(2021\)](#).

Derivation

Differential force balance on an infinitesimal belt element on a pulley yields $\frac{dT}{T} = \mu d\theta$, then integrate over wrap.

Theory 12: Density

Equation

$$\rho = \frac{m}{V}$$

Description

- ρ is density (kg/m³)
- m is mass (kg)
- V is volume (m³)

Source

[The Editors of Encyclopaedia Britannica \(2024\)](#).

Derivation

Definition of density.

Theory 13: Air Resistance (Quadratic Drag)

Equation

$$F_d = \frac{1}{2}\rho v^2 C_d A$$

Description

- F_d is drag force (N)
- ρ is fluid density (kg/m³)
- v is object speed relative to fluid (m/s)
- C_d is drag coefficient (unitless)
- A is reference area (m²)

Source

[SoftSchools](#) (2020).

Derivation

Standard empirical/derived quadratic drag model; applicable at moderate to high Reynolds number.

Theory 14: Rolling Resistance

Equation

$$F_r = C_r N$$

Description

- F_r is rolling resistance force (N)
- C_r is coefficient of rolling resistance (unitless)
- N is normal force (N)

Source

?

Derivation

Rolling resistance arises from deformation of contact surfaces (tire and road). For a vehicle on level ground, $N = mg$ where m is vehicle mass and g is gravitational acceleration.

Theory 15: Gravitational Force

Equation

$$F_g = mg$$

Description

- F_g is gravitational force (N)
- m is mass (kg)
- g is gravitational acceleration (m/s²)

Source

?

Derivation

Near Earth's surface, $g \approx 9.81$ m/s². On an incline with angle θ , the component parallel to the surface is $F_g \sin \theta$.

6 System State Definition

The dynamic behavior of the CVT system is described using a set of *state variables*. A state variable is a quantity whose future evolution is determined by its current value and the governing differential equations of the system.

In numerical simulation, state variables are the quantities that are explicitly integrated forward in time. All other model quantities — such as torque transfer, transmission ratio, belt forces, and contact conditions — are computed algebraically from these states.

6.1 State Vector

State Vector

(6.1)

$$\mathbf{x}(t) = \begin{bmatrix} \omega_p \\ \omega_s \\ s \\ \dot{s} \end{bmatrix}$$

where:

- ω_p is the angular speed of the primary pulley (rad/s),
- ω_s is the angular speed of the secondary pulley (rad/s),
- s is the axial shift position of the primary sheave (m),
- $\dot{s}$ is the axial shift velocity (m/s).

6.2 Independent Dynamic Degrees of Freedom

These four quantities represent the independent dynamic motions of the CVT system.

The primary pulley can rotate independently under engine input and belt interaction. Its angular speed ω_p therefore represents one rotational degree of freedom.

The secondary pulley also rotates and interacts with both the belt and the external drivetrain load. Its angular speed ω_s represents a second independent rotational degree of freedom.

In addition to rotation, the CVT includes axial motion of the primary sheave. This axial displacement s determines the effective pulley geometry and therefore the transmission ratio. The axial motion is mechanically independent of pure rotation and must be modeled explicitly.

Because axial motion follows second-order dynamics, both the axial position s and its rate $\dot{s}$ are required to fully describe its evolution.

Together, these variables capture the complete rotational and axial motion of the system. Removing any one of them would eliminate an independent dynamic degree of freedom from the model.

6.3 Time Integration Perspective

During numerical simulation, the state vector is advanced forward in time.

At each timestep Δt :

- The angular speeds ω_p and ω_s are updated according to their angular accelerations.
- The axial position s is updated using its current velocity $\dot{s}$.
- The axial velocity $\dot{s}$ is updated according to the axial acceleration.

The angular and axial accelerations are determined from the governing equations derived in subsequent sections. Once the state vector has been updated, all other quantities in the model are computed directly from the current values of ω_p , ω_s , s , and $\dot{s}$.

7 Pulley Geometry

This section establishes the geometric relationships that govern how axial shift modifies the effective pulley radii and therefore the transmission ratio.

The analysis presented here is purely kinematic. No force balances or dynamic effects are considered. The goal is to describe how pulley geometry alone determines belt position and ratio evolution.

The objective is to derive explicit expressions for:

- Primary outer radius as a function of shift,
- Secondary outer radius as a function of shift,
- Center-to-center distance,
- CVT ratio and its rate of change.

Radius Definitions Used in This Section Because the belt has finite radial height, two geometric radii are used here: the *outer radius* (belt outer surface/contact geometry) and the *inner radius* (belt inner surface). Let h_b denote the belt height (belt radial thickness). Then,

$$r_{\text{inner}} = r_{\text{outer}} - h_b,$$

The effective torque radius used in torque and ratio relations is introduced later in [Section 7.8](#).

7.1 Conceptual Overview of Variable Geometry

As introduced in [Section 2](#), each pulley consists of two opposing conical sheaves. One sheave is fixed axially, while the other translates along the shaft.

The key controllable motion in the system is this *axial separation* between the sheaves. When the movable sheave translates toward the fixed sheave, the gap narrows and the belt is forced outward along the conical faces. When the sheaves separate, the belt settles deeper between them.

This axial motion does not directly change the pulley radius. Instead, the effective radius arises geometrically from where the belt sits within the sheave gap. In other words, axial displacement determines the belt's radial position, and therefore the effective pulley radius. The precise relationship between these quantities will be derived in the following subsection.

Because the belt length remains constrained, the effective radii of the primary and secondary pulleys cannot vary independently. An increase in the primary effective radius must therefore be accompanied by a corresponding decrease in the secondary effective radius. This geometric coupling is fundamental to CVT operation and forms the basis of the ratio model derived below.

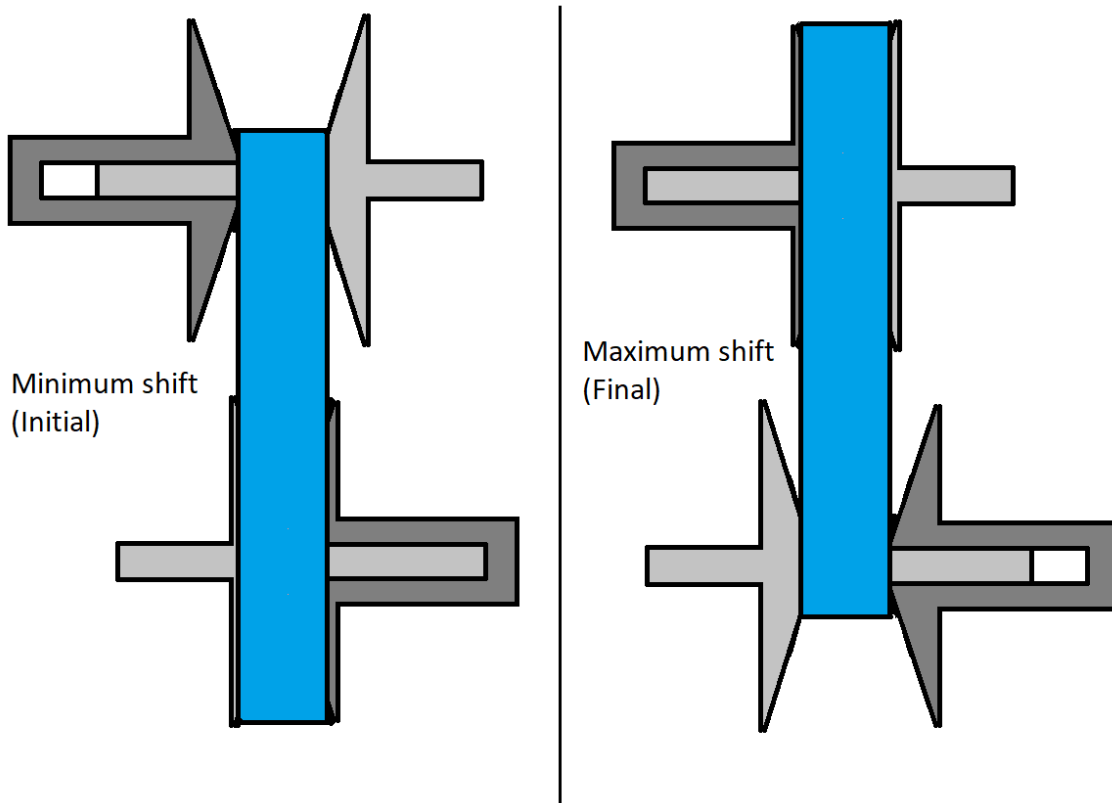


Figure 11: Conceptual illustration of variable pulley geometry. Changes in axial separation alter effective radii. Because belt length is constrained, an increase in primary effective radius corresponds to a decrease in secondary effective radius.

7.2 Definition of Axial Shift Variable

Let s denote the axial displacement of the movable primary sheave, defined according to the sign convention in [Section 3.1.3](#).

At $s = 0$, the primary pulley is in its fully open configuration. The sheaves are at their maximum axial separation, and the belt rests at its minimum effective radius.

The shift coordinate s measures the amount of closure relative to this initial configuration. Increasing s corresponds to the movable sheave translating toward the fixed sheave, reducing the axial gap.

Deadzone and Travel Limits In practice, the initial sheave gap at $s = 0$ is larger than the belt width. As a result, small axial motion does not immediately alter the belt's contact position on the conical faces.

The interval

$$0 \leq s < s_{\text{dz}}$$

defines this *deadzone*. Within this region, the movable sheave translates axially but does not yet sufficiently compress the belt to change its effective contact radius. The belt remains at the same radial position despite the reduction in gap.

Once the sheave gap becomes small enough to fully engage the belt, further axial motion alters the belt position. For

$$s_{\text{dz}} \leq s \leq s_{\text{max}},$$

additional closure forces the belt outward along the conical faces, producing a proportional change in primary effective radius.

The shift coordinate is therefore bounded as

$$0 \leq s \leq s_{\text{max}}.$$

The upper limit s_{max} corresponds to the physical travel limit of the sheave assembly. At this position, the sheaves are fully closed and mechanically contact one another, forming a hard geometric boundary beyond which further axial motion is not possible.

7.3 Primary Outer Radius as a Function of Shift

When the primary sheaves close beyond the deadzone, the belt is forced outward along the conical faces. The relationship between axial closure and radial expansion follows directly from the cone geometry.

As shown in [Figure 12](#), the sheave face forms a straight line in cross-section. The cone half-angle β is defined as the angle between the sheave face and the *radial direction* (As defined in [Section 3.1.4](#)).

For a small axial displacement Δs beyond the deadzone, the total closure is shared symmetrically between the two opposing sheaves, so each sheave contributes $\Delta s/2$.

From the right triangle formed by the sheave face,

$$\tan \beta = \frac{\Delta s/2}{\Delta r},$$

which gives

$$\Delta r = \frac{\Delta s}{2 \tan \beta}. \quad (7.1)$$

Thus, the cone angle determines how axial motion is converted into radial growth: smaller β produces greater radial change for the same axial displacement.

Taking the infinitesimal limit of Equation (7.1) yields the local geometric relationship between axial shift and effective radius,

$$\frac{dr}{ds} = \frac{1}{2 \tan \beta}. \quad (7.2)$$

Because the sheave face is straight, this derivative is constant, meaning that radial position varies linearly with axial displacement.

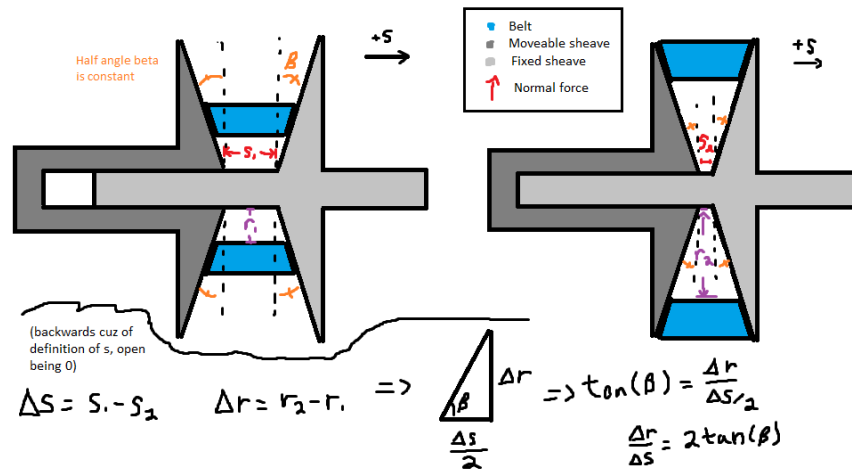


Figure 12: Axial-radial relationship for opposing conical sheaves. The angle β is defined between the sheave face and the radial direction.

Piecewise Radius Model Let $r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}}$ denote the minimum primary outer radius, corresponding to the fully open configuration ($s = 0$).

Within the deadzone, axial motion does not alter belt position. Once $s \geq s_{\text{dz}}$, only the displacement *beyond the deadzone* contributes to radial growth.

Primary Outer Radius

(7.3)

$$r_{p,\text{outer}}(s) = \begin{cases} r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}}, & 0 \leq s < s_{\text{dz}}, \\ r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}} + \frac{s - s_{\text{dz}}}{2 \tan \beta}, & s_{\text{dz}} \leq s \leq s_{\text{max}}. \end{cases}$$

7.4 Belt Length Constraint

In the previous subsection, the primary effective radius was expressed as a function of axial shift. The secondary radius, however, cannot be chosen independently. The belt has a fixed total length,

and therefore any change in primary radius must be accompanied by a corresponding geometric adjustment of the secondary radius.

This section derives the geometric compatibility constraint imposed by constant belt length. By expressing the total belt length in terms of the primary radius r_p , secondary radius r_s , and center-to-center distance C , we obtain an implicit relationship that couples the two pulley radii.

The derivation follows directly from the belt path geometry shown in **Figure 13**. The geometric quantities used in the derivation are

- r_p — radius of the primary pulley
- r_s — radius of the secondary pulley
- C — center-to-center distance between pulley shafts
- ϕ_p — belt wrap angle on the primary pulley
- ϕ_s — belt wrap angle on the secondary pulley
- ℓ — length of a single straight tangent span

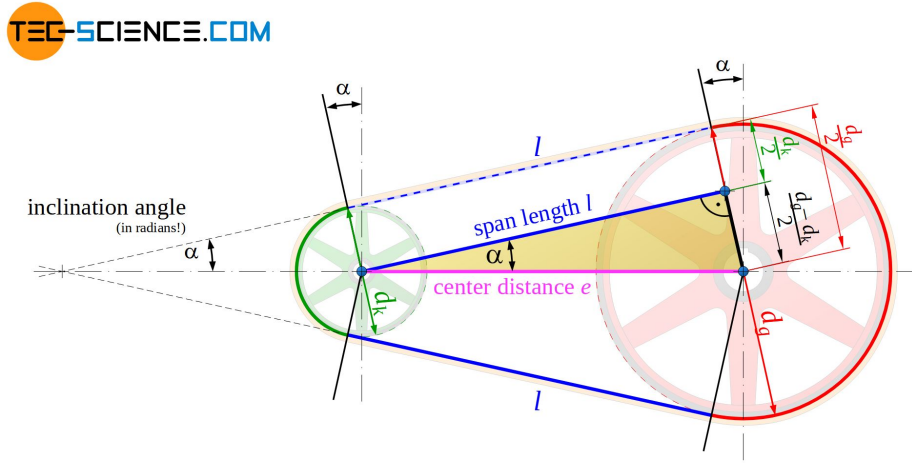


Figure 13: Belt geometry for two pulleys of radii r_p and r_s separated by center distance C . The belt wraps the pulleys with angles ϕ_p and ϕ_s and connects via two straight tangent spans ℓ .

Belt Length Decomposition The total belt length L_b is the sum of: (i) wrapped arc length on the primary pulley, (ii) wrapped arc length on the secondary pulley, and (iii) two straight tangent spans. Therefore,

$$L_b = r_p \phi_p + r_s \phi_s + 2\ell, \quad (7.4)$$

where ℓ is the length of a single straight tangent span segment.

Straight Span Length From the right-triangle geometry formed by the pulley centers and tangent points,

$$\ell = \sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}. \quad (7.5)$$

Wrap Angles The wrap angles on the primary and secondary pulleys are

$$\phi_p = \pi - 2\lambda, \quad (7.6)$$

$$\phi_s = \pi + 2\lambda. \quad (7.7)$$

If $\lambda < 0$, these expressions automatically redistribute wrap between pulleys while preserving total belt length.

Tangency Angle (Signed Convention) Let λ denote the signed angle between the line of centers and the straight tangent belt segment (as defined in [Figure 13](#)). We define

$$\sin \lambda = \frac{r_s - r_p}{C}, \quad (7.8)$$

and equivalently,

$$\lambda = \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right). \quad (7.9)$$

Under this convention, λ may be negative when $r_p > r_s$. This signed definition ensures the wrap distribution automatically adjusts when the pulley ordering reverses.

Closed Form Belt-Length Expression Substituting [Equation \(7.5\)](#) and [Equation \(7.6\)](#)–[Equation \(7.7\)](#) into [Equation \(7.4\)](#) yields

$$\begin{aligned} L_b &= r_p(\pi - 2\lambda) + r_s(\pi + 2\lambda) + 2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2} \\ &= \pi(r_p + r_s) + 2\lambda(r_s - r_p) + 2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}. \end{aligned} \quad (7.10)$$

Finally, substituting [Equation \(7.9\)](#) gives

$$L_b = \pi(r_p + r_s) + 2(r_s - r_p) \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) + 2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}. \quad (7.11)$$

Root Form (Geometric Compatibility Constraint) Rearranging [Equation \(7.11\)](#) yields

Belt Length Constraint Root Function (7.12) $f(r_p, r_s, C) = \pi(r_p + r_s) + 2(r_s - r_p) \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) + 2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2} - L_b.$

The belt-length constraint is therefore

$$f(r_p, r_s, C) = 0. \quad (7.13)$$

The form of Equation (7.13) is unchanged if radii are defined at the belt outer surface, inner surface, or effective mid-height radius, provided all terms are referenced consistently. In particular, L_b must correspond to the same reference as r_p and r_s (e.g., outer-length with outer radii, inner-length with inner radii, or effective-length with effective radii).

Remark (Transcendental Nature and Approximation)

Equation (7.12) is transcendental due to the inverse-sine and square-root terms and therefore does not admit a closed-form solution.

In this work, the constraint is solved numerically using a bracketed root-finding method (e.g., bisection or Brent's method), which is deterministic and robust over the physically admissible interval.

It is common in simplified treatments to assume

$$\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \approx 0,$$

which implies $\lambda \approx 0$ and therefore

$$\sin^{-1}\left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C}\right) \approx 0.$$

Under this small-angle assumption, the belt-length equation reduces to a much simpler approximate form.

However, this approximation can introduce substantial geometric error when $\frac{r_s - r_p}{C}$ is not small. Appendix A quantifies this deviation and demonstrates that the approximation is not acceptable under realistic operating conditions.

7.5 Center-to-Center Distance Determination

In-order to make use of the belt-length constraint derived in Section 7.4, the center-to-center distance C must be determined.

The center-to-center distance C is a fixed geometric parameter of the assembled CVT system. Once the transmission is constructed, C does not vary during operation.

To determine C , we evaluate the belt-length constraint Equation (7.13) at the *known* initial configuration of the system.

Initial Geometric Configuration At startup, the CVT is assumed to be in its lowest ratio configuration:

- The primary pulley is at its minimum outer radius,

$$r_p = r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}}.$$

- The secondary pulley is at its maximum outer radius,

$$r_s = r_{s,\text{outer},\text{max}}.$$

These values are determined by the physical geometry of the sheaves and represent the fully separated primary and fully closed secondary configuration.

Center Distance from Belt-Length Compatibility Substituting these known radii into Equation (7.12) yields

$$f(r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}}, r_{s,\text{outer},\text{max}}, C) = 0. \quad (7.14)$$

This equation contains a single unknown, C , and is solved numerically to determine the fixed center-to-center distance consistent with the specified belt length L_b .

$$C = \text{root}_C f(r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}}, r_{s,\text{outer},\text{max}}, C). \quad (7.15)$$

Remark (One-Time Geometric Solve)

The center distance C is determined once during model initialization. Thereafter, C is treated as a constant in all subsequent geometric and dynamic calculations.

7.6 Secondary Outer Radius as a Function of Shift

With the center-to-center distance C determined from Section 7.5, and the primary radius $r_{p,\text{outer}}(s)$ defined by Equation (7.3), the secondary outer radius is obtained by enforcing the belt-length compatibility constraint.

Geometric Coupling At any shift position s , the primary radius $r_{p,\text{outer}}(s)$ is known. The secondary radius r_s must therefore satisfy

$$f(r_{p,\text{outer}}(s), r_s, C) = 0, \quad (7.16)$$

where $f(\cdot)$ is defined in Equation (7.12).

Numerical Determination of $r_s(s)$ Because Equation (7.16) is transcendental in r_s , the secondary radius is obtained numerically for each value of s :

Secondary Outer Radius	(7.17)
$r_{s,\text{outer}}(s) = \text{root}_{r_s} f(r_{p,\text{outer}}(s), r_s, C).$	

Remark (Dynamic Root Solve)

Unlike the center-distance calculation in Section 7.5, which is performed once during initialization, this root solve is performed repeatedly as the shift coordinate s evolves during simulation. Because the physically admissible interval for r_s is bounded, a bracketed solver (e.g., Brent's method) converges rapidly.

With both $r_{p,\text{outer}}(s)$ and $r_{s,\text{outer}}(s)$ determined, all geometric quantities describing the belt path can now be expressed explicitly as functions of the shift coordinate s .

7.7 Wrap Angles as Functions of Shift

The wrap angles on the primary and secondary pulleys vary as the pulley radii change. Using the geometric relations from [Section 7.4](#), the tangency angle becomes

$$\lambda(s) = \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_{s,\text{outer}}(s) - r_{p,\text{outer}}(s)}{C} \right). \quad (7.18)$$

Substitution into the wrap-angle definitions yields

$$\phi_p(s) = \pi - 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_{s,\text{outer}}(s) - r_{p,\text{outer}}(s)}{C} \right), \quad (7.19)$$

$$\phi_s(s) = \pi + 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_{s,\text{outer}}(s) - r_{p,\text{outer}}(s)}{C} \right). \quad (7.20)$$

7.8 Effective Torque Radius

All geometric relations derived thus far use the outer surface of the belt as the reference radius. This simplifies the belt-length formulation and pulley geometry.

Torque transmission, however, occurs through the belt cross-section. The appropriate moment arm for torque is therefore located approximately at the mid-height of the belt, as illustrated in [Figure 14](#).

The effective torque radius for each pulley is defined as

$$r_{p,\text{eff}} = r_{p,\text{outer}} - \frac{h_b}{2}, \quad (7.21)$$

$$r_{s,\text{eff}} = r_{s,\text{outer}} - \frac{h_b}{2}. \quad (7.22)$$

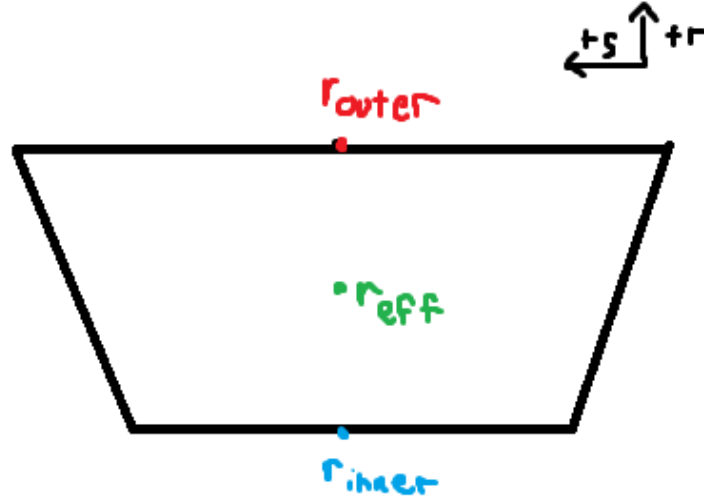


Figure 14: Belt cross-section showing the outer radius r_{outer} , inner radius r_{inner} , and effective torque radius r_{eff} located at the belt mid-height. The effective radius is used for all torque and power transmission calculations.

7.9 CVT Ratio Definition

The instantaneous transmission ratio is determined purely by pulley geometry. It is defined as the ratio of secondary to primary effective radii:

CVT Ratio	(7.23)
$R(s) = \frac{r_{s,\text{eff}}(s)}{r_{p,\text{eff}}(s)}.$	

Because both effective radii are functions of the shift coordinate s , the transmission ratio is likewise a function of s alone.

As the primary sheaves close, $r_{p,\text{eff}}(s)$ increases. By belt-length compatibility, the secondary radius decreases. Consequently, the ratio $R(s)$ decreases with increasing s .

Thus:

- Small s (minimum primary radius) corresponds to high ratio.
- Large s (maximum primary radius) corresponds to low ratio.

The CVT ratio is therefore a purely geometric quantity determined by the axial shift position.

7.10 Ratio Rate of Change

The CVT ratio is not only a function of shift position, but also changes in time whenever the sheaves are moving. This time variation matters because a changing ratio introduces additional kinematic coupling between the primary and secondary rotations. In other words, it is not sufficient to know the instantaneous ratio $R(s)$; the model also requires how quickly the ratio is changing.

This section derives an explicit expression for $\dot{R}$ in terms of the shift velocity $\dot{s}$ and geometric derivatives.

7.10.1 Start from the Ratio Definition

The ratio is defined by the effective radii as

$$R(s) = \frac{r_{s,\text{eff}}(s)}{r_{p,\text{eff}}(s)}. \quad (7.24)$$

Because R depends on time only through $s(t)$, the chain rule gives

$$\dot{R} = \frac{dR}{ds} \dot{s}. \quad (7.25)$$

Thus, the objective is to compute dR/ds .

7.10.2 Differentiate R with Respect to s

Differentiating Equation (7.24) with respect to s (quotient rule) gives

$$\frac{dR}{ds} = \frac{d}{ds} \left(\frac{r_{s,\text{eff}}}{r_{p,\text{eff}}} \right) = \frac{\left(\frac{dr_{s,\text{eff}}}{ds} \right) r_{p,\text{eff}} - r_{s,\text{eff}} \left(\frac{dr_{p,\text{eff}}}{ds} \right)}{r_{p,\text{eff}}^2}. \quad (7.26)$$

Rearranging into a form that exposes the required components:

$$\frac{dR}{ds} = \frac{1}{r_{p,\text{eff}}} \frac{dr_{s,\text{eff}}}{ds} - \frac{r_{s,\text{eff}}}{r_{p,\text{eff}}^2} \frac{dr_{p,\text{eff}}}{ds}. \quad (7.27)$$

At this point, the remaining task is to express the two derivatives $dr_{p,\text{eff}}/ds$ and $dr_{s,\text{eff}}/ds$ in computable form.

7.10.3 Eliminating dr_s/ds Using the Belt-Length Constraint

The secondary radius $r_s(s)$ is defined implicitly through the belt-length constraint and does not admit a closed-form expression in terms of r_p . Direct differentiation of $r_s(s)$ is therefore not practical.

Instead, we differentiate the belt-length compatibility constraint derived in Section 7.4, which is written as

$$f(r_p, r_s, C) = 0, \quad (7.28)$$

with $f(\cdot)$ defined explicitly in Equation (7.12) and C constant.

For the implicit-differentiation step below, we use the compact notation $r_p, r_s, dr_p/ds$, and dr_s/ds . Because this derivation is based on rate relationships, any constant radial offset between radius references vanishes directly under differentiation ($d(\text{constant})/ds = 0$), so the same derivative form

is obtained. Since $r_p = r_p(s)$ and $r_s = r_s(s)$, differentiating Equation (7.28) with respect to s gives (multivariable chain rule)

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial r_p} \frac{dr_p}{ds} + \frac{\partial f}{\partial r_s} \frac{dr_s}{ds} = 0. \quad (7.29)$$

Solving Equation (7.29) for dr_s/ds yields

$$\frac{dr_s}{ds} = -\frac{\frac{\partial f}{\partial r_p} \frac{dr_p}{ds}}{\frac{\partial f}{\partial r_s}}. \quad (7.30)$$

7.10.4 Single Expression for dR/ds in Terms of Remaining Unknowns

Substituting Equation (7.30) into Equation (7.27) eliminates dr_s/ds and gives a single expression for dR/ds in terms of the belt constraint partial derivatives and the primary geometric derivative:

$$\frac{dR}{ds} = -\frac{1}{r_{p,\text{eff}}} \frac{\frac{\partial f}{\partial r_p} \frac{dr_p}{ds}}{\frac{\partial f}{\partial r_s}} - \frac{r_{s,\text{eff}}}{r_{p,\text{eff}}^2} \frac{dr_{p,\text{eff}}}{ds}. \quad (7.31)$$

Equation (7.31) makes the remaining requirements explicit. To evaluate dR/ds (and therefore $\dot{R}$ via Equation (7.25)), three quantities are required:

1. $\frac{\partial f}{\partial r_p}$,
2. $\frac{\partial f}{\partial r_s}$,
3. $\frac{dr_p}{ds}$ (and the associated $\frac{dr_{p,\text{eff}}}{ds}$).

The following subsections derive these three quantities for the specific belt-length function f defined in Equation (7.12) and for the primary geometry defined in Equation (7.3).

7.10.5 Partial Derivatives of the Belt Constraint

Recall the belt-length constraint written in root form as

$$f(r_p, r_s, C) = \pi(r_p + r_s) + 2(r_s - r_p) \sin^{-1}\left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C}\right) + 2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2} - L_b = 0. \quad (7.32)$$

We now compute the two partial derivatives required in Equation (7.30), differentiating term-by-term and applying the product rule directly to the inverse-sine term.

Product rule for the inverse-sine factor Consider the factor

$$(r_s - r_p) \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right).$$

Differentiating with respect to r_p (product rule) gives

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial r_p} \left[(r_s - r_p) \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) \right] = \underbrace{\frac{\partial}{\partial r_p} (r_s - r_p)}_{(1)} \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) + (r_s - r_p) \underbrace{\frac{\partial}{\partial r_p} \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right)}_{(2)}. \quad (7.33)$$

We therefore compute the two sub-derivatives.

Derivative (1)

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial r_p} (r_s - r_p) = -1. \quad (7.34)$$

Derivative (2) Using the chain rule,

$$\frac{d}{dx} \sin^{-1}(x) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1-x^2}},$$

let

$$u = \frac{r_s - r_p}{C}.$$

Then

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial r_p} = -\frac{1}{C}.$$

Therefore,

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial r_p} \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1-u^2}} \left(-\frac{1}{C} \right). \quad (7.35)$$

Now simplify the denominator:

$$\sqrt{1-u^2} = \sqrt{1 - \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right)^2} = \frac{\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}}{C}.$$

Substituting into [Equation \(7.35\)](#) yields

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial r_p} \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) = -\frac{1}{\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}}. \quad (7.36)$$

Substitute into the product rule Substituting [Equation \(7.34\)](#) and [Equation \(7.36\)](#) into [Equation \(7.33\)](#) gives

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial}{\partial r_p} \left[(r_s - r_p) \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) \right] &= (-1) \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) + (r_s - r_p) \left(-\frac{1}{\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}} \right) \\ &= -\sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) - \frac{r_s - r_p}{\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}}. \end{aligned} \quad (7.37)$$

Derivative of the square-root term For the straight-span contribution,

$$2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2},$$

we apply the chain rule:

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial r_p} \left[2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2} \right] = \frac{2(r_s - r_p)}{\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}}. \quad (7.38)$$

Assemble $\partial f / \partial r_p$ Differentiating Equation (7.32) term-by-term gives

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial f}{\partial r_p} &= \pi + 2 \left(-\sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) - \frac{r_s - r_p}{\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}} \right) + \frac{2(r_s - r_p)}{\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}} \\ &= \pi - 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right). \end{aligned} \quad (7.39)$$

The square-root contributions cancel exactly.

Derivative with respect to r_s The same procedure yields

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial r_s} \left[(r_s - r_p) \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) \right] = \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) + \frac{r_s - r_p}{\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}}, \quad (7.40)$$

and

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial r_s} \left[2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2} \right] = -\frac{2(r_s - r_p)}{\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}}. \quad (7.41)$$

Assembling terms gives

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial f}{\partial r_s} &= \pi + 2 \left(\sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right) + \frac{r_s - r_p}{\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}} \right) - \frac{2(r_s - r_p)}{\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}} \\ &= \pi + 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right). \end{aligned} \quad (7.42)$$

Summary of Belt Constraint Partial Derivatives From the derivations above, the partial derivatives of the belt-length constraint Equation (7.32) are

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial r_p} = \pi - 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right), \quad (7.43)$$

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial r_s} = \pi + 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right). \quad (7.44)$$

These expressions are globally valid under the geometric definition of λ given in Equation (7.9) and require no piecewise case distinction.

7.10.6 Primary Radius Derivative

From the piecewise primary radius model Equation (7.3), the primary outer radius satisfies

$$r_{p,\text{outer}}(s) = \begin{cases} r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}}, & 0 \leq s < s_{\text{dz}}, \\ r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}} + \frac{s - s_{\text{dz}}}{2 \tan \beta}, & s_{\text{dz}} \leq s \leq s_{\text{max}}. \end{cases}$$

Differentiating with respect to s gives

$$\frac{dr_p}{ds} = \frac{dr_{p,\text{outer}}}{ds} = \begin{cases} 0, & 0 \leq s < s_{\text{dz}}, \\ \frac{1}{2 \tan \beta}, & s_{\text{dz}} \leq s \leq s_{\text{max}}. \end{cases} \quad (7.45)$$

Because $r_{p,\text{eff}} = r_{p,\text{outer}} - h_b/2$ and h_b is constant, the same derivative applies:

$$\frac{dr_{p,\text{eff}}}{ds} = \frac{dr_p}{ds}. \quad (7.46)$$

Remark (At the Travel Limit)

If the model clamps s at the physical limit s_{max} , then $r_{p,\text{outer}}$ (and thus $r_{p,\text{eff}}$) is constant beyond this point and the derivative is zero for $s > s_{\text{max}}$. In this document we restrict to the admissible domain $0 \leq s \leq s_{\text{max}}$.

7.10.7 Final Expression for dR/ds and $\dot{R}$

Equation (7.31) expresses dR/ds in terms of three quantities: (i) the belt-constraint partial derivatives $\partial f/\partial r_p$ and $\partial f/\partial r_s$, and (ii) the primary geometric derivatives dr_p/ds and $dr_{p,\text{eff}}/ds$.

From Section 7.10.5, the partial derivatives of the belt-length constraint Equation (7.12) are

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial r_p} = \pi - 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right), \quad (7.47)$$

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial r_s} = \pi + 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right). \quad (7.48)$$

From Section 7.10.6, the primary outer-radius derivative is Equation (7.45), and since $r_{p,\text{eff}} = r_{p,\text{outer}} - h_b/2$ with h_b constant, Equation (7.46) gives $dr_{p,\text{eff}}/ds = dr_p/ds$.

Substituting Equation (7.47)–Equation (7.48) and Equation (7.46) into Equation (7.31) yields

$$\frac{dR}{ds} = \left[-\frac{1}{r_{p,\text{eff}}} \frac{\pi - 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right)}{\pi + 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right)} - \frac{r_{s,\text{eff}}}{r_{p,\text{eff}}^2} \right] \frac{dr_p}{ds}. \quad (7.49)$$

Finally, substituting the piecewise primary derivative Equation (7.45) gives the fully expanded result

$$\frac{dR}{ds} = \begin{cases} 0, & 0 \leq s < s_{dz}, \\ \frac{1}{2 \tan \beta} \left[-\frac{1}{r_{p,\text{eff}}} \frac{\pi - 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right)}{\pi + 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right)} - \frac{r_{s,\text{eff}}}{r_{p,\text{eff}}^2} \right], & s_{dz} \leq s \leq s_{\text{max}}. \end{cases} \quad (7.50)$$

Using the chain rule Equation (7.25), $\dot{R} = (dR/ds)\dot{s}$. Substituting Equation (7.50) and rearranging gives

Rate of Change of Transmission Ratio	(7.51)
$\dot{R} = \begin{cases} 0, & 0 \leq s < s_{dz}, \\ -\frac{\dot{s}}{2 \tan \beta r_{p,\text{eff}}} \left[\frac{\pi - 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right)}{\pi + 2 \sin^{-1} \left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \right)} + \frac{r_{s,\text{eff}}}{r_{p,\text{eff}}} \right], & s_{dz} \leq s \leq s_{\text{max}}. \end{cases}$	

Summary Equations Equation (7.50) and Equation (7.51) give the geometric sensitivity of the ratio to axial motion and its time rate of change. The deadzone behavior is explicit: when $0 \leq s < s_{dz}$, the ratio is constant and $\dot{R} = 0$. In the active region, $s_{dz} \leq s \leq s_{\text{max}}$, the ratio evolves according to geometry and the shift rate $\dot{s}$.

7.11 Section Summary and Forward Connection

This section established the complete *geometric foundation* of the CVT model. The development was intentionally kinematic: the objective was to derive a closed, computable mapping from axial shift to pulley geometry and transmission ratio, without introducing force balance, slip behavior, or torque relations.

At a high level, the geometry defines the chain

$$s(t) \longrightarrow r_{p,\text{eff}}(s), r_{s,\text{eff}}(s) \longrightarrow R(s) \longrightarrow \dot{R}(s, \dot{s}),$$

with each intermediate relationship derived explicitly from pulley and belt geometry.

Key Results Established The following geometric components are now defined and ready for use in subsequent modeling:

1. **Primary radius law.** Equation (7.3) provides the piecewise relationship between axial shift s and primary outer radius, including deadzone behavior and cone-angle dependence.
2. **Belt-length compatibility constraint.** Equation (7.13) enforces constant belt length and defines the implicit, nonlinear coupling between r_p , r_s , and the center distance C .

3. **Center distance determination.** Section 7.5 fixes the assembled center-to-center distance C by evaluating the belt constraint at a known geometric configuration. This solve is performed once during initialization.
4. **Secondary radius as a function of shift.** Section 7.6 defines $r_s(s)$ implicitly by solving the belt constraint at each shift position, producing the required redistribution of belt radius between pulleys.
5. **Wrap angles as functions of shift.** Section 7.7 defines the wrap angles $\phi_p(s)$ and $\phi_s(s)$ follow directly from the tangency geometry and are available for later contact, work, and belt-distribution calculations.
6. **Effective torque radii.** Section 7.8 corrects outer radii to effective radii using belt thickness, ensuring subsequent torque relations use an appropriate moment arm.
7. **Ratio and ratio rate.** Equation (7.23) defines the geometric ratio $R(s)$, and Section 7.10 provides $\frac{dR}{ds}$ and $\dot{R}$ via Equation (7.50) and Equation (7.51), including the deadzone condition where R is constant.

Structural Role in the Full Model These results form the geometric backbone of the CVT simulation. All subsequent sections treat the relationships derived here as fixed mappings. In particular, later torque and force models will use $r_{p,\text{eff}}(s)$ and $r_{s,\text{eff}}(s)$ as inputs, and shifting kinematics will use $R(s)$ and $\dot{R}(s, \dot{s})$ to relate primary and secondary motion during ratio change.

Several key properties are now clear: (i) the geometric coupling is inherently nonlinear (through the belt-length constraint), (ii) the deadzone is explicitly represented, and (iii) within the admissible travel range the mappings are differentiable and suitable for continuous-time simulation.

Transition to Dynamics With the geometry fully specified, the next objective is to determine how the shift coordinate evolves in time. Subsequent sections introduce axial force generation (from pulley mechanisms and belt interaction) to determine $\dot{s}$ and $\ddot{s}$. Once $\dot{s}$ is known, the ratio-rate expression Equation (7.51) provides the corresponding ratio evolution and the required kinematic coupling between rotating components during shifting.

8 Pulley Axial Force Models

The geometric relations developed in the previous section define how the transmission ratio varies with axial shift. What remains is to determine *why* the shift coordinate $s(t)$ changes in time.

Axial motion of the sheaves is driven by clamping forces generated within the primary and secondary assemblies. On the primary side, centrifugal flyweights and springs produce an inward axial force that tends to close the sheaves and increase radius. On the secondary side, torque reaction and spring preload generate an opposing axial force.

The evolution of the shift coordinate is governed by the net axial force acting on the movable sheave assembly. Applying Newton's second law in the axial direction (Theory 1 (Newton's Second Law (Translation))) gives

$$m \ddot{s} = F_{p,ax} - F_{s,ax}, \quad (8.1)$$

where $F_{p,ax}$ and $F_{s,ax}$ denote the axial forces generated by the primary and secondary mechanisms, respectively, and m is the effective axial inertia of the moving components.

The purpose of this section is to derive expressions for $F_{p,ax}$ and $F_{s,ax}$ as functions of the current system state. Once these force models are established, the shift acceleration $\ddot{s}$ follows directly, completing the dynamic description of axial motion.

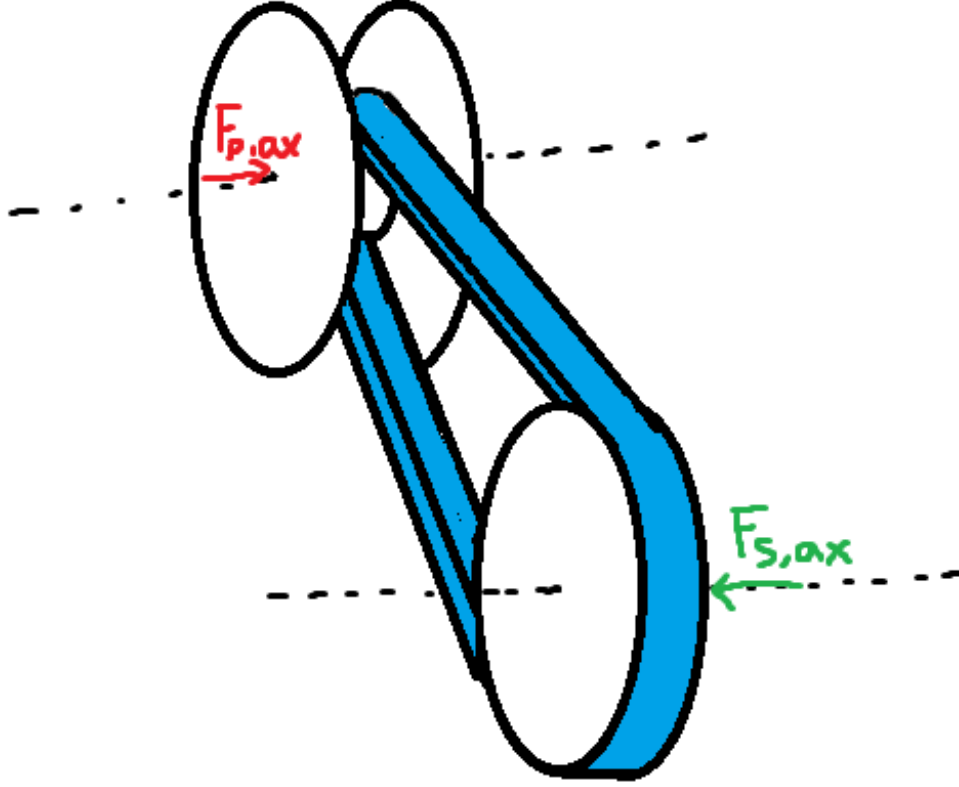


Figure 15: Axial force balance governing sheave motion. Primary and secondary mechanisms generate opposing axial forces. The net force determines the shift acceleration $\ddot{s}$.

Although the specific actuator mechanisms modeled here correspond to a flyweight-driven primary and a torque-reactive helix secondary, the formulation is modular: any actuator model may be substituted provided it returns the net axial force as a function of state.

8.1 Ramp Geometry Parameterization

Both pulley actuators redirect forces through inclined contact surfaces. As the shift coordinate s evolves, mechanical elements slide along these surfaces, converting radial or circumferential forces into axial clamping force.

To keep the formulation general and modular, the ramp geometries are parameterized directly as functions of the axial shift coordinate s . Any actuator profile may therefore be substituted provided it supplies the appropriate geometric mapping and derivative.

Primary Ramp Geometry (Axial-to-Radial Mapping) On the primary pulley, centrifugal force acting on the flyweights is redirected into axial closing force through a ramp surface (see [Figure 16](#)). As the movable sheave translates axially, the flyweight slides along this ramp.

We represent the ramp by an axial-to-radial profile

$$r_f = r_f(s), \quad (8.2)$$

where $r_f(s)$ is the effective flyweight radius.

An incremental axial displacement ds produces a radial displacement dr_f . The local slope of the ramp is therefore dr_f/ds . The instantaneous primary ramp angle is denoted by $\alpha_p(s)$ and is defined with respect to the axial direction as

$$\tan \alpha_p(s) = \frac{dr_f}{ds}, \quad \alpha_p(s) = \tan^{-1} \left(\frac{dr_f}{ds} \right). \quad (8.3)$$

This definition follows directly from the geometry of the sliding motion: a steeper ramp (larger dr_f/ds) produces greater radial change per unit axial travel and therefore greater axial gain when radial force is redirected through the surface.

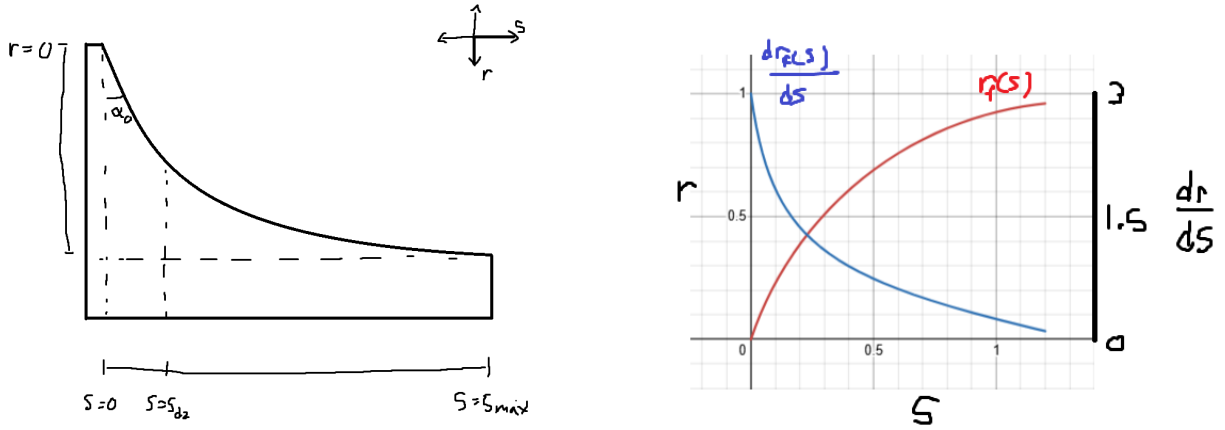


Figure 16: Primary ramp geometry. **Left:** As axial displacement s increases, the flyweight slides along the ramp, producing radial change dr_f . The instantaneous ramp angle satisfies $\tan \alpha_p = dr_f/ds$. **Right:** Example profiles of $r_f(s)$ and its slope dr_f/ds .

Primary Admissibility Conditions In order to be a valid primary ramp profile $r_f(s)$, it must satisfy:

1. $r_f(s) \in C^1([0, s_{\max}])$ (continuously differentiable),
2. $\frac{dr_f}{ds} \geq 0$ over $[0, s_{\max}]$,
3. $\frac{dr_f}{ds}$ is finite over $[0, s_{\max}]$.

Condition (1) ensures the ramp angle $\alpha_p(s)$ is well-defined and continuous. Condition (2) guarantees that increasing axial displacement does not reduce flyweight radius. Condition (3) ensures the ramp angle remains strictly below $\pi/2$ and the axial gain $\tan \alpha_p$ remains finite.

Secondary Helix Geometry (Axial-to-Rotation Mapping) On the secondary pulley, axial travel produces relative rotation of a helical ramp mechanism, loading a torsional spring and generating torque-reactive clamping (see [Figure 17](#)).

We parameterize this kinematically as

$$\theta_s = \theta_s(s), \quad (8.4)$$

where $\theta_s(s)$ is the helix-induced rotation.

An incremental rotation $d\theta_s$ corresponds to a circumferential displacement $r_h d\theta_s$ along a cylindrical surface of effective radius r_h . The instantaneous secondary helix angle is denoted by $\alpha_s(s)$ and is defined from the local slope of the ramp surface:

$$\tan \alpha_s = \frac{\text{axial rise}}{\text{circumferential run}} = \frac{ds}{r_h d\theta_s}.$$

Rewriting in differential form gives

$$\tan \alpha_s(s) = \frac{1}{r_h \frac{d\theta_s}{ds}}. \quad (8.5)$$

Thus, a shallower helix (smaller α_s) produces greater rotation per unit axial travel, while a steeper helix produces less rotation. This inverse relationship arises naturally from the geometry of motion on a cylindrical surface.

Remark (Contrast with Primary Ramp)

The primary ramp behaves like a simple wedge: radial displacement is directly proportional to axial travel, so the ramp angle is naturally defined by $\tan \alpha_p = dr_f/ds$.

The secondary mechanism instead behaves like a power screw. Axial motion is produced through rotation around a cylindrical surface, so the relevant geometric ratio is how much rotation occurs per unit axial travel. This leads to the slope definition $ds/(r_h d\theta_s)$ and the inverse relationship in [Equation \(8.5\)](#).

In short, the primary redirects force through a wedge, while the secondary converts torque through a screw-like helix. The difference is purely geometric and reflects the distinct mechanisms by which axial motion is generated.

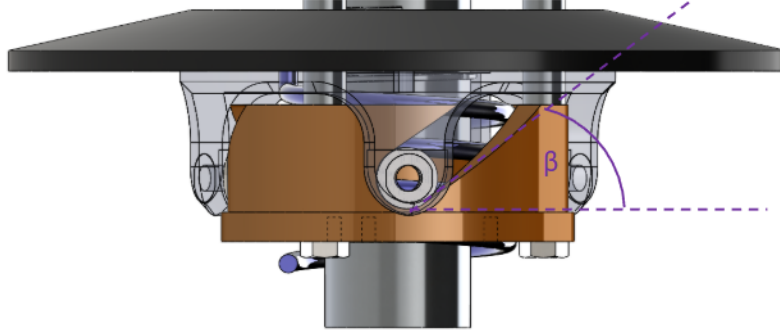


Figure 17: Secondary helix geometry. Axial travel s induces rotation $\theta_s(s)$ around a cylindrical surface of radius r_h . The instantaneous helix angle satisfies $\tan \alpha_s = ds/(r_h d\theta_s)$.

Secondary Admissibility Conditions The helix rotation mapping $\theta_s(s)$ must satisfy:

1. $\theta_s(s) \in C^1([0, s_{\max}])$ (continuously differentiable),
2. $\frac{d\theta_s}{ds} \geq 0$ over $[0, s_{\max}]$,
3. $\frac{d\theta_s}{ds}$ is finite over $[0, s_{\max}]$.

Condition (1) ensures the torque-to-axial conversion remains continuous. Condition (2) guarantees that increasing axial displacement increases rotation. Condition (3) ensures the effective helix angle remains strictly below $\pi/2$ and the geometric gain remains finite.

Remark (Piecewise Profiles in Practice)

The C^1 requirement above is sufficient for all derivations in this document. In practice, piecewise C^1 profiles (continuous everywhere, continuously differentiable except at finitely many junction points where left and right derivatives exist) are also admissible for numerical simulation. At junction points, one-sided derivatives provide the required slope values, and the resulting force discontinuities pose no difficulty for standard ODE solvers. However, large slope discontinuities can introduce local stiffness into the system: the abrupt change in force gradients may require adaptive solvers to reduce the timestep significantly near the junction, degrading computational efficiency. In extreme cases, explicit integrators may struggle to maintain stability without impractically small step sizes, and implicit or stiff-aware solvers may be preferable.

Derivations for common ramp and helix profiles are provided in Appendix B.

8.2 Primary Axial Force Model

The primary axial clamping force is generated by the interaction between centrifugal loading of the flyweights and the restoring force of the primary compression spring.

As shown in [Figure 18](#), each flyweight of mass m_f rotates with angular speed ω_p and experiences an

outward radial centrifugal force. This radial force acts along the ramp profile $r_f(s)$ and is redirected into an axial closing force through the ramp geometry described in [Section 8.1](#).

Opposing this motion is the primary compression spring, characterized by stiffness k_p and preload $x_{p,0}$. As the sheaves close (s increases), the spring compresses and produces a restoring axial force resisting further closure.

The net axial force on the movable primary sheave is therefore the axial component of the ramp-redirectioned centrifugal force minus the spring force. This net force determines the axial acceleration $\ddot{s}$ of the primary assembly.

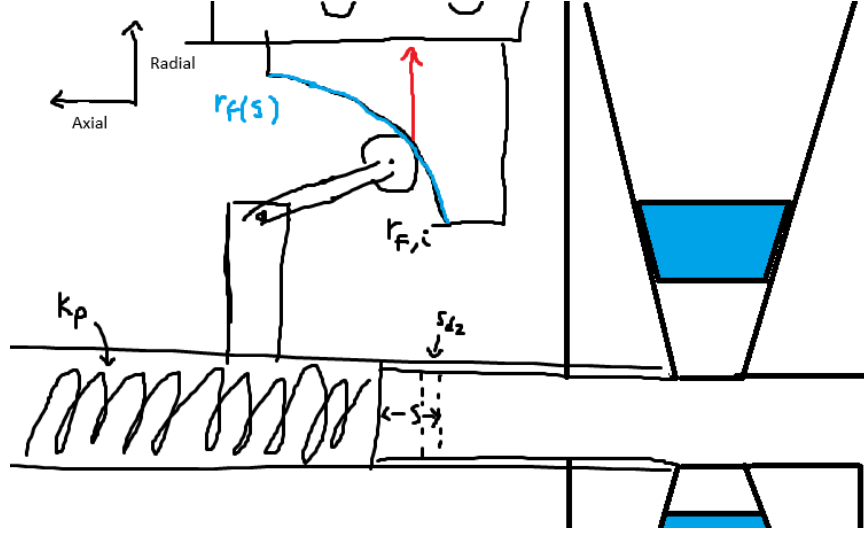


Figure 18: Primary CVT assembly showing flyweight mass m_f , ramp profile $r_f(s)$, compression spring with stiffness k_p and preload $x_{p,0}$, and axial shift coordinate s .

The state variable governing primary rotation is ω_p .

Centrifugal Loading of Flyweights From [Theory 5 \(Centrifugal Force\)](#),

$$F_c = m\omega^2 r.$$

Let

- m_f denote the flyweight mass,
- $r_{f,0}$ denote the initial flyweight radius at $s = 0$,
- $r_f(s)$ denote the incremental radial change produced by the ramp.

The total effective flyweight radius is therefore

$$r_{f,\text{tot}}(s) = r_{f,0} + r_f(s).$$

The radial centrifugal force is

$$F_{p,\text{rad}}(s, \omega_p) = m_f \omega_p^2 (r_{f,0} + r_f(s)). \quad (8.6)$$

Radial-to-Axial Projection The ramp redirects radial force into axial force. As shown in Figure 19, the axial component of a force acting along the ramp is obtained by

$$F_{p,\text{axial component}} = F_{p,\text{rad}} \tan \alpha_p(s). \quad (8.7)$$

From Equation (8.3), the ramp angle satisfies

$$\tan \alpha_p(s) = \frac{dr_f}{ds}.$$

Substituting gives

$$F_{p,\text{cent}}(s, \omega_p) = m_f \omega_p^2 (r_{f,0} + r_f(s)) \frac{dr_f}{ds}. \quad (8.8)$$

Thus the axial gain of centrifugal force is governed by the local ramp slope, while the centrifugal magnitude depends on the total flyweight radius.

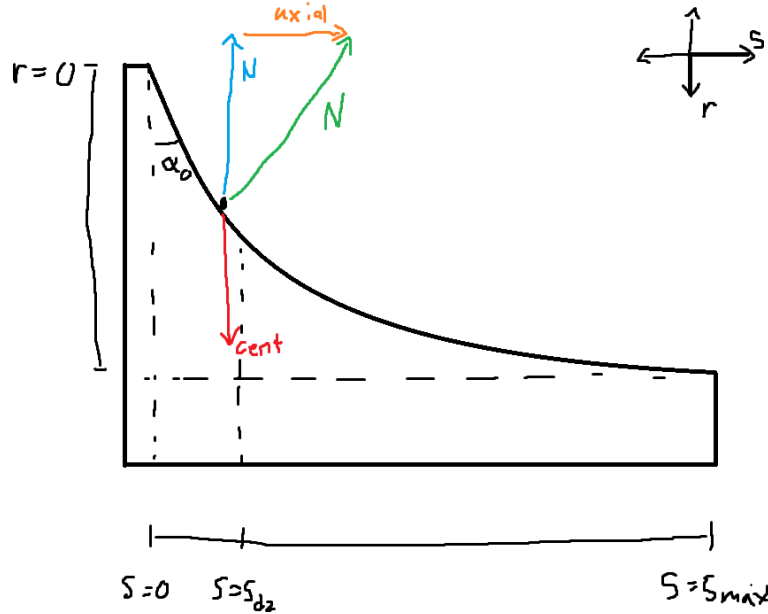


Figure 19: Primary ramp geometry. Radial centrifugal force is redirected into axial force through the ramp. The projection introduces a factor of $\tan \alpha_p$, which equals dr_f/ds by definition of the ramp slope.

Primary Compression Spring From **Theory 6 (Hooke's Law (Compressional))**,

$$F = k\Delta x.$$

Let k_p denote primary stiffness and $x_{p,0}$ preload.

$$F_{p,\text{spring}}(s) = k_p(x_{p,0} + s). \quad (8.9)$$

Net Primary Axial Force The net axial force generated by the primary mechanism is the difference between the centrifugal axial component and the spring force:

Primary Axial Force $F_{p,\text{ax}}(s, \omega_p) = m_f \omega_p^2 (r_{f,0} + r_f(s)) \frac{dr_f}{ds} - k_p(x_{p,0} + s).$	(8.10)
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8.3 Secondary Axial Force Model

The secondary pulley is *torque-reactive*: its axial clamping force is generated in response to torque transmitted through the CVT. Unlike the primary, which produces clamping based on rotational speed, the secondary produces clamping primarily when torque flows through it.

The mechanism consists of a helical ramp between the two sheaves and a single spring located between them. This spring serves two roles:

- It acts axially in compression as the sheaves separate.
- It resists relative rotation torsionally as the helix turns.

Thus, axial motion and rotational motion of the helix both load the same spring.

Figure 20: Secondary CVT assembly showing the helix mechanism and spring. Torque τ_s transmitted through the belt produces tangential force at the helix ramps, which is redirected into axial clamping force.

Physical Mechanism (Screw Analogy) The secondary helix behaves mechanically like a screw.

If you try to spin a screw in free space, nothing happens axially. If you spin a screw into a block that is not restrained, the block simply rotates with the screw—again producing no axial force. Axial force only develops when there is resistance to rotation on one side while torque is applied on the other.

In other words, a screw converts *reacted torque* into axial force.

The secondary helix operates on the same principle. The belt applies a driving torque to the secondary pulley. If the driven shaft were free, the entire assembly would rotate without developing tangential reaction force at the helix. However, when the driven load resists rotation, torque is transmitted through the helix ramps.

Those ramps are inclined surfaces—just like screw threads. As torque attempts to rotate one helix face relative to the other, contact forces develop along the inclined surfaces. Because the surfaces are angled, this tangential reaction force has an axial component.

The result is axial clamping force.

The key distinction from a conventional screw is direction: in a normal screw, torque pulls two components together. In the CVT helix, the orientation of the ramp is such that torque causes the movable sheave to be pushed outward, increasing belt clamping.

Thus, the secondary does not clamp because it spins. It clamps because torque is being transmitted and resisted.

Definition of Transmitted Torque Let τ_s denote the torque transmitted through the secondary shaft. This is the torque carried from the belt, through the helix mechanism, and into the driven load.

For the present derivation, τ_s is treated as a known input. Its value will be computed later in [Section 9](#).

Torsional Spring Torque As the helix rotates relative to the opposing sheave, the spring is twisted torsionally.

From [Theory 7 \(Hooke's Law \(Torsional\)\)](#),

$$\tau = k\Delta\theta.$$

Let $k_{s,\theta}$ denote torsional stiffness and $\theta_{s,0}$ preload.

$$\tau_{s,\text{spring}}(s) = k_{s,\theta}(\theta_{s,0} + \theta_s(s)). \quad (8.11)$$

This torsional component of the same spring contributes to helix loading even when no torque is transmitted ($\tau_s = 0$), providing baseline clamping.

Total Torque Applied to Helix

$$\tau_{s,\text{total}} = \tau_s + \tau_{s,\text{spring}}(s). \quad (8.12)$$

Both contributions act in the same rotational direction at the helix. The transmitted torque loads the helix through belt force, and the torsional spring resists relative rotation. Both therefore generate axial clamping through the same geometry.

Torque-to-Axial Conversion Through the Helix From [Theory 3 \(Torque Definition\)](#),

$$\tau = F_t r_h \quad \Rightarrow \quad F_t = \frac{\tau_{s,\text{total}}}{r_h}.$$

The tangential force F_t acts along two symmetric helix ramp faces. Each ramp carries half of the total tangential load, introducing the factor of 1/2 in the axial projection below.

From helix geometry (see [Figure 21](#)),

$$F_{s,\text{helix}} = \frac{F_t}{2 \tan \alpha_s(s)}. \quad (8.13)$$

Substituting F_t and using

$$\tan \alpha_s(s) = \frac{1}{r_h \frac{d\theta_s}{ds}}$$

gives

$$F_{s,\text{helix}}(s, \tau_s) = \frac{\tau_{s,\text{total}}}{2} \frac{d\theta_s}{ds}. \quad (8.14)$$

Notably, the helix radius r_h cancels: torque is converted into axial force according to the geometric rotation-per-travel relationship $d\theta_s/ds$, consistent with screw mechanics.

TODO: Remark on less friction at bigger radius if being considered

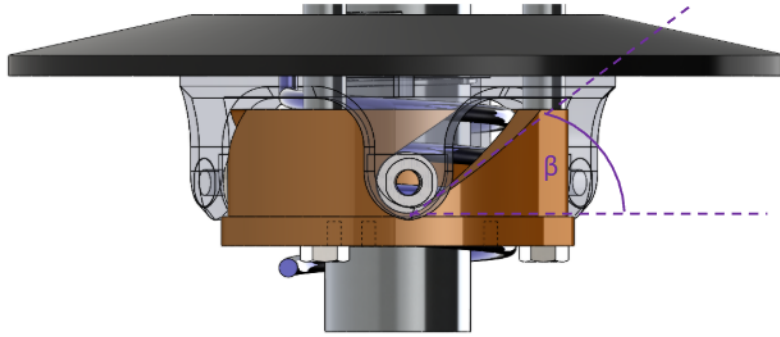


Figure 21: Helix free-body concept. Tangential force from shaft torque is redirected into axial force along the inclined ramps. Two symmetric ramp faces share the tangential load, producing the 1/2 factor.

Secondary Compression Spring The same spring also acts axially between the sheaves. At $s = 0$, the spring is pre-compressed by an amount $x_{s,0}$, producing a baseline separating force that assists upshift.

As the sheaves move apart (increasing s), the spring extends and its compression decreases.

From [Theory 6 \(Hooke's Law \(Compressional\)\)](#),

$$F = k\Delta x.$$

Let $k_{s,x}$ denote axial stiffness. Because increasing s reduces compression, the effective compression is

$$\Delta x = x_{s,0} - s.$$

Thus,

$$F_{s,\text{comp}}(s) = k_{s,x}(x_{s,0} - s). \quad (8.15)$$

This axial spring force assists upshift at small s , but weakens progressively as the sheaves separate.

Net Secondary Axial Force The total secondary axial force is the sum of:

- Helix-generated torque-reactive clamping,
- Torsional spring contribution (through the helix),
- Direct axial compression spring force.

Secondary Axial Force	(8.16)
$F_{s,\text{ax}}(s, \tau_s) = \underbrace{\frac{\tau_s + k_{s,\theta}(\theta_{s,0} + \theta_s(s))}{2} \frac{d\theta_s}{ds}}_{\text{torque-reactive helix (including torsional spring)}} + \underbrace{k_{s,x}(x_{s,0} - s)}_{\text{axial spring (weakening with shift)}}.$	

8.4 Belt Centrifugal Force on the Wrap

In addition to the actuator and spring forces derived previously, the belt itself generates centrifugal loading as it rotates around each pulley. This section derives the resulting contribution to axial clamping force.

Centrifugal Force Formulation From [Theory 5 \(Centrifugal Force\)](#), a mass m rotating at angular velocity ω at radius r experiences centrifugal force

$$F_c = m\omega^2 r.$$

To apply this to the belt wrapped around a pulley, we require:

1. The mass of belt material in contact with the pulley.
2. The radius at which this mass rotates.
3. The angular velocity of the belt.

Each of these quantities is derived below.

Belt Cross-Section Geometry The belt cross-section is approximated as a trapezoid (see [Figure 22](#)) with:

- radial thickness h_b ,
- outer width b_{out} (at the belt's outer surface),
- inner width b_{in} (at the belt's inner surface).

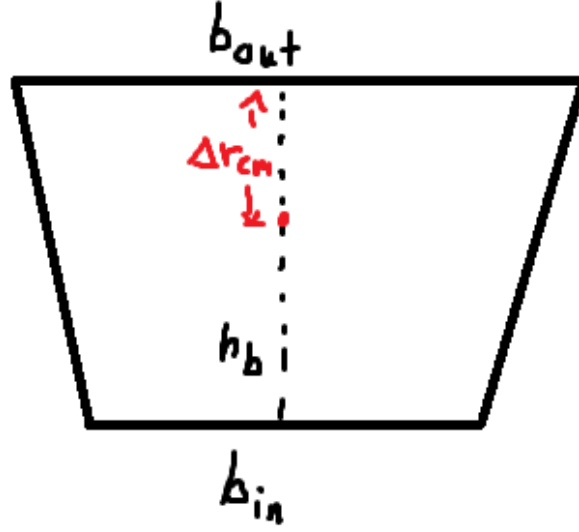


Figure 22: Trapezoidal belt cross-section. The outer width b_{out} corresponds to the surface away from the pulley axis; the inner width b_{in} corresponds to the surface closer to the axis. The radial thickness is h_b and the local width varies linearly between b_{out} and b_{in} , producing a δr_{cm} offset of the mass centroid from the geometric center.

The cross-sectional area of the trapezoid is

$$A_b = \frac{h_b}{2} (b_{\text{out}} + b_{\text{in}}). \quad (8.17)$$

Let ρ_b denote the belt material density (kg/m^3). The mass of a differential belt segment of arc length $d\ell$ is therefore

$$dm = \rho_b A_b d\ell. \quad (8.18)$$

Belt Mass Centroid Centrifugal force acts at the center of mass of the rotating belt element, not at the outer or inner surface. Because the belt cross-section is trapezoidal (not rectangular), the centroid is offset from the geometric center.

Let y denote radial distance measured inward from the outer surface, so that $y = 0$ at the outer surface and $y = h_b$ at the inner surface. For a trapezoid with linear sidewalls, the local width varies linearly with y :

$$b(y) = b_{\text{out}} + \frac{b_{\text{in}} - b_{\text{out}}}{h_b} y. \quad (8.19)$$

The centroid location Δr_{cm} , measured inward from the outer surface, is computed from the definition of the centroid of an area:

$$\Delta r_{\text{cm}} = \frac{1}{A_b} \int_0^{h_b} y b(y) dy. \quad (8.20)$$

Substituting Equation (8.19) into this integral:

$$\begin{aligned}
\int_0^{h_b} y b(y) \, dy &= \int_0^{h_b} y \left[b_{\text{out}} + \frac{b_{\text{in}} - b_{\text{out}}}{h_b} y \right] \, dy \\
&= \int_0^{h_b} b_{\text{out}} y \, dy + \frac{b_{\text{in}} - b_{\text{out}}}{h_b} \int_0^{h_b} y^2 \, dy \\
&= b_{\text{out}} \left[\frac{y^2}{2} \right]_0^{h_b} + \frac{b_{\text{in}} - b_{\text{out}}}{h_b} \left[\frac{y^3}{3} \right]_0^{h_b} \\
&= b_{\text{out}} \cdot \frac{h_b^2}{2} + \frac{b_{\text{in}} - b_{\text{out}}}{h_b} \cdot \frac{h_b^3}{3} \\
&= \frac{h_b^2}{2} b_{\text{out}} + \frac{h_b^2}{3} (b_{\text{in}} - b_{\text{out}}) \\
&= \frac{h_b^2}{6} (3b_{\text{out}} + 2b_{\text{in}} - 2b_{\text{out}}) \\
&= \frac{h_b^2}{6} (b_{\text{out}} + 2b_{\text{in}}).
\end{aligned} \tag{8.21}$$

Dividing by the area $A_b = \frac{h_b}{2} (b_{\text{out}} + b_{\text{in}})$ from Equation (8.17):

$$\Delta r_{\text{cm}} = \frac{\frac{h_b^2}{6} (b_{\text{out}} + 2b_{\text{in}})}{\frac{h_b}{2} (b_{\text{out}} + b_{\text{in}})} = h_b \cdot \frac{b_{\text{out}} + 2b_{\text{in}}}{3 (b_{\text{out}} + b_{\text{in}})}. \tag{8.22}$$

The belt mass-centroid radius at any shift position is therefore

$$r_{\text{cm}}(s) = r_{\text{out}}(s) - \Delta r_{\text{cm}}, \tag{8.23}$$

where $r_{\text{out}}(s)$ is the outer belt radius at the current shift (equal to the pulley outer radius at that position).

Distributed Centrifugal Load Along the Wrap Consider a differential belt element along the wrapped arc. Let θ denote the angular coordinate measured from the center of the wrap, so that the wrapped arc spans

$$\theta \in \left[-\frac{\phi}{2}, \frac{\phi}{2} \right],$$

where ϕ is the total wrap angle (see Figure 23).

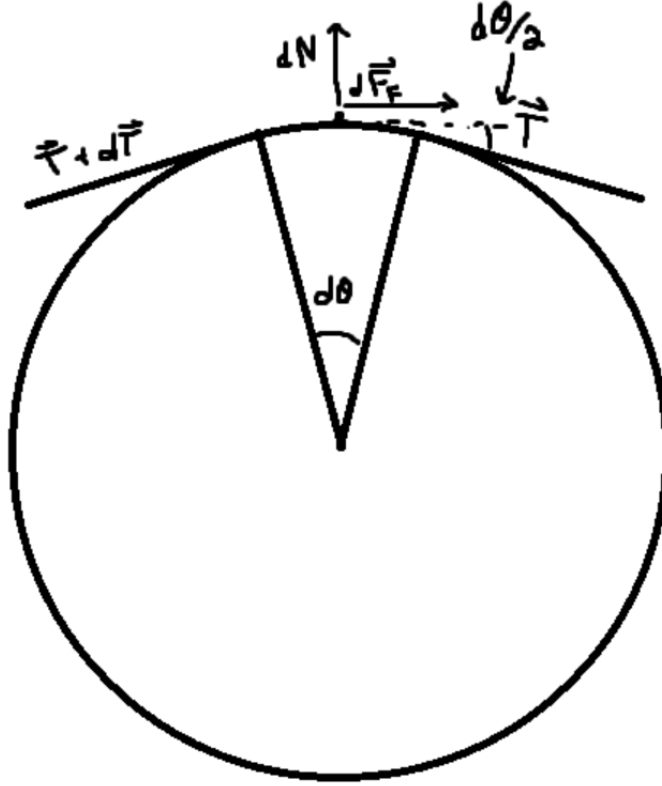


Figure 23: Belt wrapped around a pulley. A differential element at angle θ has arc length $d\ell = r_{\text{cm}} d\theta$ and experiences radially outward centrifugal force.

A differential belt element has arc length

$$d\ell = r_{\text{cm}} d\theta.$$

From [Equation \(8.18\)](#), the corresponding differential mass is

$$dm = \rho_b A_b r_{\text{cm}} d\theta. \quad (8.24)$$

From [Theory 5 \(Centrifugal Force\)](#), the centrifugal force on this element is

$$dF_c = dm \omega^2 r_{\text{cm}} = \rho_b A_b \omega^2 r_{\text{cm}}^2 d\theta. \quad (8.25)$$

This force acts radially outward at each point along the wrap.

Total Radial Force Over the Wrap Integrating [Equation \(8.25\)](#) over the entire wrap angle yields the total radially-directed centrifugal force:

$$\begin{aligned}
F_{c,\text{rad}} &= \int_{-\phi/2}^{\phi/2} \rho_b A_b \omega^2 r_{\text{cm}}^2 \, d\theta \\
&= \rho_b A_b \omega^2 r_{\text{cm}}^2 \int_{-\phi/2}^{\phi/2} d\theta \\
&= \rho_b A_b \omega^2 r_{\text{cm}}^2 \phi.
\end{aligned} \tag{8.26}$$

Radial-to-Axial Conversion Through the Sheave Cone The radial centrifugal force acts outward against the conical sheave faces. Because the sheaves are inclined at cone half-angle β , radial loading cannot occur without simultaneous axial motion of the sheaves. Thus, a purely radial force applied to the belt generates an axial reaction component that contributes to clamping.

From the pulley geometry derived previously (see [Equation \(7.2\)](#)), the relationship between radial and axial displacement in the active shift region is

$$\frac{dr}{ds} = \frac{1}{2 \tan \beta}.$$

This relation describes how radial motion of the belt corresponds to axial motion of the sheaves. To convert force components, we enforce virtual work consistency between radial and axial motion.

For an infinitesimal displacement,

$$\delta W = F_{\text{rad}} \, dr = F_{\text{ax}} \, ds.$$

Substituting $dr = \frac{1}{2 \tan \beta} ds$ gives

$$F_{\text{rad}} \frac{1}{2 \tan \beta} ds = F_{\text{ax}} \, ds.$$

Canceling ds yields

$$F_{\text{ax}} = \frac{F_{\text{rad}}}{2 \tan \beta}.$$

Thus, the total axial clamping contribution from belt centrifugal force is

$$F_{c,\text{ax}} = \frac{\rho_b A_b \omega^2 r_{\text{cm}}^2 \phi}{2 \tan \beta}. \tag{8.27}$$

Primary Pulley Contribution On the primary pulley, the belt rotates at approximately $\omega = \omega_p$. The outer belt radius equals the primary outer radius from [Equation \(7.3\)](#), which is piecewise in s and accounts for the deadzone behavior.

The mass-centroid radius is

$$r_{p,\text{cm}}(s) = r_{p,\text{outer}}(s) - \Delta r_{\text{cm}}, \quad (8.28)$$

and the wrap angle $\phi_p(s)$ is given by Equation (7.19).

Substituting into Equation (8.27) yields the primary belt centrifugal contribution to axial clamping:

$$F_{c,p}(s, \omega_p) = \frac{\rho_b A_b \omega_p^2 r_{p,\text{cm}}(s)^2 \phi_p(s)}{2 \tan \beta}. \quad (8.29)$$

Remark (Belt Angular Velocity)

Using the primary angular velocity ω_p in the centrifugal force calculation is an approximation that assumes the belt speed matches the primary sheave speed. In reality, belt slip and compliance may cause the belt to rotate at a vastly different angular velocity than the primary sheave.

Secondary Pulley Contribution On the secondary pulley, the belt rotates at approximately $\omega = \omega_s$. The outer belt radius $r_{s,\text{outer}}(s)$ is determined implicitly by the belt-length constraint (see Equation (7.17)).

The mass-centroid radius is

$$r_{s,\text{cm}}(s) = r_{s,\text{outer}}(s) - \Delta r_{\text{cm}}, \quad (8.30)$$

and the wrap angle $\phi_s(s)$ is given by Equation (7.20).

The secondary belt centrifugal contribution to axial clamping is

$$F_{c,s}(s, \omega_s) = \frac{\rho_b A_b \omega_s^2 r_{s,\text{cm}}(s)^2 \phi_s(s)}{2 \tan \beta}. \quad (8.31)$$

8.5 Axial Shift Dynamics

Earlier (see Equation (8.1)), the evolution of the shift coordinate was established as

$$m \ddot{s} = F_{p,\text{ax}} - F_{s,\text{ax}}, \quad (8.32)$$

where $F_{p,\text{ax}}$ and $F_{s,\text{ax}}$ are the axial forces generated by the primary and secondary mechanisms, respectively.

We now complete this model by:

1. Expanding the force terms to include centrifugal belt loading,
2. Replacing the lumped mass m with the equivalent inertia associated with coordinated shift motion.

Equivalent Inertia Associated with s Newton's second law applies to physical masses in translation. Since s parameterizes coordinated motion of several bodies, we construct an equivalent mass m_{eq} such that the total kinetic energy associated with shift can be written in the form of [Theory 4 \(Kinetic Energy \(Translational\)\)](#):

$$T_{\text{shift}} = \frac{1}{2} m_{\text{eq}} \dot{s}^2.$$

The movable primary sheave translates with speed $\dot{s}$ in the positive coordinate direction. The movable secondary sheave translates with equal magnitude speed (but opposite physical direction), so its kinetic energy also contributes proportionally to $\dot{s}^2$.

Let $m_{p,m}$ and $m_{s,m}$ denote the masses of the movable primary and secondary sheaves.

Belt Mass Contribution The total belt mass is

$$m_b = \rho_b A_b L_b, \quad (8.33)$$

where A_b is the trapezoidal cross-sectional area from [Equation \(8.17\)](#) and L_b is the constant belt length.

The belt moves continuously with a single belt speed, but the axial component of that motion associated with a change in s is determined by geometry. From the axial-radial coupling in [Equation \(7.45\)](#), a change in sheave separation s is shared between the two conical faces supporting the belt wedge. Thus, the belt's axial velocity relative to the pulley axis is

$$\dot{s}_b = \frac{\dot{s}}{2}. \quad (8.34)$$

The kinetic energy associated with this axial motion is therefore

$$T_b = \frac{1}{2} m_b \left(\frac{\dot{s}}{2} \right)^2 = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{m_b}{4} \right) \dot{s}^2.$$

Expressed in the generalized coordinate s , the belt contributes an effective mass of $m_b/4$.

Total Equivalent Mass The total inertia associated with shift becomes

$$m_{\text{eq}} = m_{p,m} + m_{s,m} + \frac{m_b}{4} = m_{p,m} + m_{s,m} + \frac{\rho_b A_b L_b}{4}. \quad (8.35)$$

Net Axial Force in the s Coordinate Collecting the axial force contributions derived previously:

- $F_{p,\text{ax}}(s, \omega_p)$ from [Equation \(8.10\)](#),
- $F_{s,\text{ax}}(s, \tau_s)$ from [Equation \(8.16\)](#),
- $F_{c,p}(s, \omega_p)$ from [Equation \(8.29\)](#),
- $F_{c,s}(s, \omega_s)$ from [Equation \(8.31\)](#).

With the sign convention defined above, the generalized force in the positive s direction is

$$\sum F_s = (F_{p,ax} + F_{c,p}) - (F_{s,ax} + F_{c,s}). \quad (8.36)$$

Shift Equation of Motion Applying Newton's second law in the generalized coordinate,

$$\sum F_s = m_{eq} \ddot{s},$$

and substituting Equation (8.35) and Equation (8.36), we obtain

Axial Shift Acceleration $\ddot{s} = \frac{(F_{p,ax}(s, \omega_p) + F_{c,p}(s, \omega_p)) - (F_{s,ax}(s, \tau_s) + F_{c,s}(s, \omega_s))}{m_{p,m} + m_{s,m} + \frac{\rho_b A_b L_b}{4}}.$ (8.37)

Equation (8.37) provides the axial shift acceleration as a function of the current state variables $(s, \dot{s}, \omega_p, \omega_s)$ and the reacted secondary torque τ_s . The remaining coupling between axial and rotational dynamics enters through τ_s , which will be determined later using Theory 2 (Newton's Second Law (Rotation)).

8.6 Section Summary and Forward Outlook

In this section we established a complete axial force model for the CVT mechanism and derived a closed-form equation of motion for the generalized shift coordinate $s(t)$.

At this stage, the axial subsystem is formally closed *except* for one remaining coupling quantity: the reacted secondary torque τ_s . Although τ_s appears explicitly in the secondary axial force model, its value is determined by rotational dynamics of the drivetrain and by torque transmission through the belt. Aside from the shared state variables, the axial and rotational subsystems are coupled only through this torque term.

The next step is to determine how torque is transmitted across the CVT as a function of pulley radii and speed ratio. This will establish the relationship between τ_s , input torque at the primary, and the evolving ratio $R = r_s/r_p$. Once this transmission relationship is obtained, the axial and rotational equations can be combined into a unified, state-space representation of the full CVT dynamics.

With the axial force structure now complete, attention turns to the torque transmission mechanism that closes the remaining dynamical loop.

9 Torque Transmission and Coupling Torque

The axial shift dynamics derived in Section 8.5 require the transferred secondary torque τ_s appearing in Equation (8.16). In this section we determine the torque transmitted through the CVT as a function of the rotational states and the instantaneous ratio $R(t)$.

We proceed in four steps:

1. Write rotational equations of motion for the primary and secondary pulleys.
2. Define the inertias associated with each pulley.
3. Introduce the CVT ratio kinematics.
4. Eliminate accelerations to obtain the transmitted torque.

The result provides the ideal torque transmission law associated with the geometric ratio $R(t)$. This serves as the baseline torque model and will be generalized in the next section.

9.1 System Definition and Torque Path

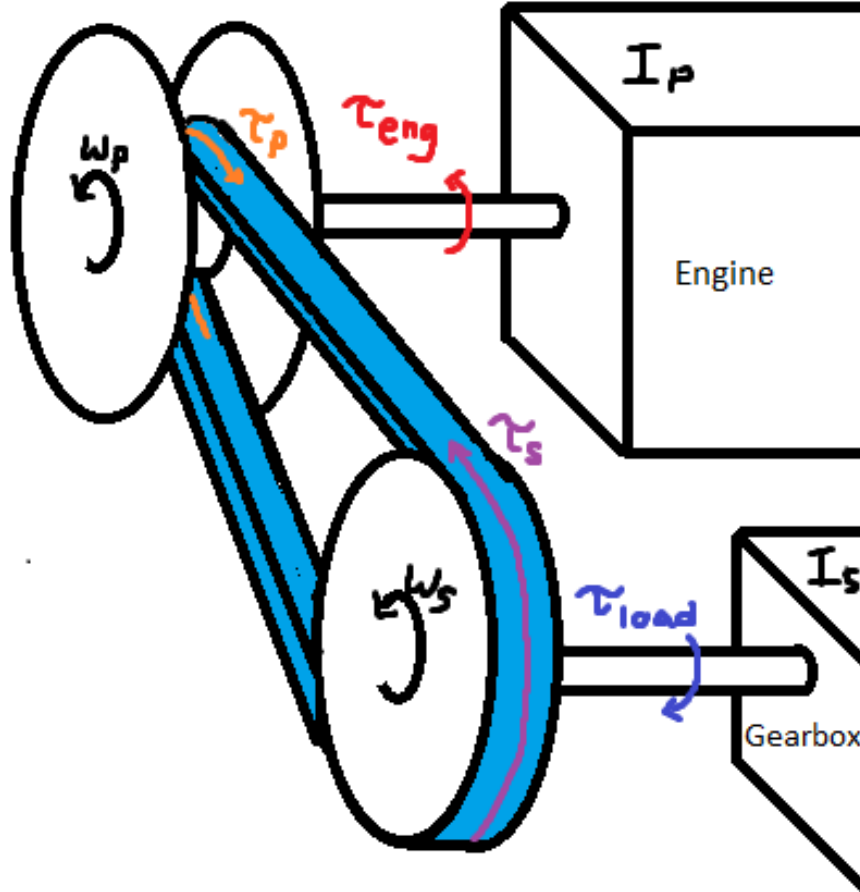


Figure 24: Torque transmission schematic. Engine torque τ_{eng} drives the primary pulley (angular velocity ω_p). Coupling torque τ_p is transmitted through the belt to the secondary pulley (angular velocity ω_s), where it appears as τ_s . The secondary delivers torque to the downstream drivetrain, which resists motion with torque τ_{load} .

We model two rotating bodies:

- Primary pulley (rigidly connected to the engine),
- Secondary pulley (driving the downstream drivetrain and vehicle).

Let

- I_p : total rotational inertia of the engine + primary CVT pulley,
- I_s : total rotational inertia about the secondary pulley,
- $\tau_{\text{eng}}(t)$: engine output torque applied to the primary pulley, modeled as a user-supplied function of primary speed (see [Section 9.3](#)),
- $\tau_p(t)$: coupling torque (as seen at the primary pulley),
- $\tau_s(t)$: coupling torque (as seen at the secondary pulley),
- $\tau_{\text{load}}(t)$: resisting torque reflected to the secondary pulley from road loads (see [Section 9.4](#)),

9.2 Rotational Equations of Motion

Applying [Theory 2 \(Newton's Second Law \(Rotation\)\)](#) to each pulley:

Primary Pulley Rotational Dynamics (9.1)
$\tau_{\text{eng}}(t) - \tau_p(t) = I_p \alpha_p(t)$

Secondary Pulley Rotational Dynamics (9.2)
$\tau_s(t) - \tau_{\text{load}}(t) = I_s \alpha_s(t)$

where

$$\alpha_p(t) = \frac{d\omega_p}{dt}, \quad \alpha_s(t) = \frac{d\omega_s}{dt}.$$

At this stage, the externally applied torques $\tau_{\text{eng}}(t)$ and $\tau_{\text{load}}(t)$ are treated as known inputs to the system. The inertias I_p and I_s are physical constants determined by the drivetrain configuration.

The remaining unknown dynamic quantities are therefore

$$\alpha_p(t), \quad \alpha_s(t), \quad \tau_p(t), \quad \tau_s(t).$$

Equations [Equation \(9.1\)](#) and [Equation \(9.2\)](#) provide two relations among these four unknowns. Two additional relations are therefore required to close the rotational system.

9.3 Engine Torque Model

The engine provides the driving torque $\tau_{\text{eng}}(t)$ acting on the primary pulley.

In this model, engine output torque is represented as a user-supplied function of primary angular velocity. Under the full-throttle assumption ([Assumption 15 \(Full-Throttle Engine Model\)](#)),

$$\tau_{\text{eng}}(t) = \tau_{\text{eng}}(\omega_p(t)), \tag{9.3}$$

so torque depends only on instantaneous primary speed.

This representation is consistent with standard engine characterization, where torque is measured as a function of crankshaft speed under steady full-load conditions.

Admissibility Constraints The supplied torque function must satisfy:

- It is defined over a bounded operating domain $\omega_{\min} \leq \omega_p \leq \omega_{\max}$.
- It is finite and real-valued over this domain.
- Outside this domain, torque is either saturated or ω_p is constrained to remain within bounds.

No specific functional form is required. The dynamical model only requires the mapping $\omega_p \mapsto \tau_{\text{eng}}$ to evaluate Equation (9.1).

Example: Kohler CH440 Engine Curve As an illustrative example, Figure 25 shows a representative torque and power curve for the Kohler CH440 engine.

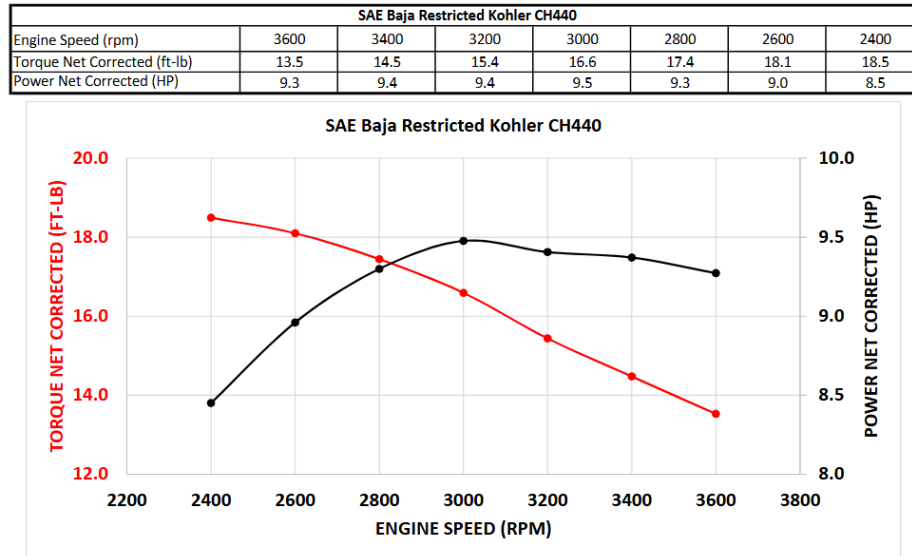


Figure 25: Representative torque and power curves for the Kohler CH440 engine. Torque is supplied as a function of angular velocity and serves as the input mapping in Equation (9.3).

In simulation, the discrete curve is interpolated to provide a continuous admissible torque function over the operating range.

9.4 Load Torque Model

The resisting torque $\tau_{\text{load}}(t)$ in Equation (9.2) represents the longitudinal road load reflected to the secondary pulley.

We proceed in three stages:

1. Express vehicle speed in terms of secondary rotation.
2. Derive the total longitudinal road force.
3. Reflect that force back to the secondary shaft.

Kinematic Relations Let r_w denote effective wheel rolling radius and $G > 0$ the fixed gear ratio defined by

$$\omega_s = G \omega_w.$$

Vehicle speed is therefore

$$v(t) = r_w \omega_w(t) = \frac{r_w}{G} \omega_s(t). \quad (9.4)$$

Longitudinal Road Force Using **Theory 1 (Newton's Second Law (Translation))**, the total longitudinal resistive force on the vehicle is modeled as

$$F_{\text{road}} = F_{\text{rr}} + F_{\text{grade}} + F_{\text{drag}}. \quad (9.5)$$

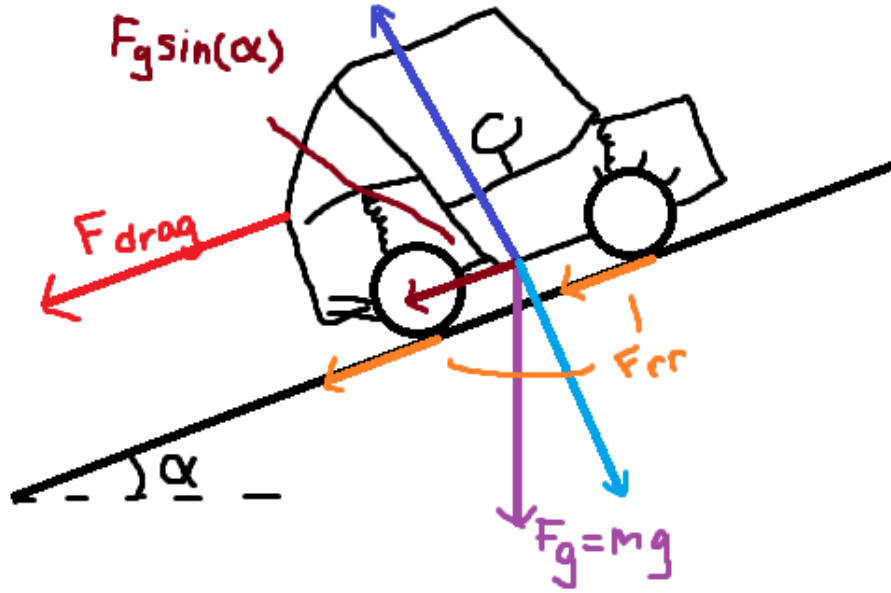


Figure 26: Free-body diagram of a vehicle on an incline. The weight mg resolves into $mg \sin \alpha$ along the slope and $mg \cos \alpha$ normal to the surface. Rolling resistance and aerodynamic drag oppose motion.

Rolling Resistance From **Theory 14 (Rolling Resistance)**,

$$F_{\text{rr}} = C_{\text{rr}} N. \quad (9.6)$$

From the incline geometry,

$$N = mg \cos \alpha. \quad (9.7)$$

Thus

$$F_{\text{rr}}(v, \alpha) = C_{\text{rr}} mg \cos \alpha \operatorname{sgn}(v). \quad (9.8)$$

Grade Resistance From [Theory 15 \(Gravitational Force\)](#), the gravitational component along the slope is

$$F_{\text{grade}}(\alpha) = mg \sin \alpha. \quad (9.9)$$

Aerodynamic Drag From [Theory 13 \(Air Resistance \(Quadratic Drag\)\)](#),

$$F_{\text{drag}}(v) = \frac{1}{2} \rho C_d A_f v^2 \operatorname{sgn}(v). \quad (9.10)$$

Total Road Force Substituting the above components into [Equation \(9.5\)](#) yields

$$\begin{aligned} F_{\text{road}}(t) &= C_{\text{rr}} mg \cos \alpha \operatorname{sgn}(v(t)) \\ &\quad + mg \sin \alpha \\ &\quad + \frac{1}{2} \rho C_d A_f v(t)^2 \operatorname{sgn}(v(t)). \end{aligned} \quad (9.11)$$

Using [Equation \(9.4\)](#),

$$v(t) = \frac{r_w}{G} \omega_s(t),$$

the road force is now fully expressed in terms of the secondary state variable $\omega_s(t)$.

Reflection to Secondary Torque Wheel torque is

$$\tau_{\text{road},w}(t) = r_w F_{\text{road}}(t). \quad (9.12)$$

Assuming ideal power transmission ([Assumption 13 \(Ideal CVT Power Transmission\)](#)), the resisting torque reflected to the secondary pulley is

$$\tau_{\text{load}}(t) = \frac{1}{G} \tau_{\text{road},w}(t) = \frac{r_w}{G} F_{\text{road}}(t). \quad (9.13)$$

Substituting [Equation \(9.11\)](#) gives

$$\boxed{\tau_{\text{load}}(t) = \frac{r_w}{G} \left[C_{\text{rr}} mg \cos \alpha \operatorname{sgn}\left(\frac{r_w}{G} \omega_s(t)\right) + mg \sin \alpha + \frac{1}{2} \rho C_d A_f \left(\frac{r_w}{G} \omega_s(t)\right)^2 \operatorname{sgn}\left(\frac{r_w}{G} \omega_s(t)\right) \right]}. \quad (9.14)$$

9.5 Inertia Definitions

The rotational equations [Equation \(9.1\)](#)–[Equation \(9.2\)](#) require the effective rotational inertia about each pulley axis.

Primary Pulley Inertia The primary pulley is rigidly connected to the engine. All components on this side rotate with angular velocity ω_p , so no reflection is required.

The effective inertia is therefore the direct sum

$$I_p = I_{\text{eng}} + I_{\text{prim}}, \quad (9.15)$$

where

- I_{eng} is the engine rotational inertia,
- I_{prim} is the primary CVT pulley inertia.

Secondary Pulley Inertia On the secondary side, all downstream components must be expressed as an equivalent inertia about the secondary axis.

Let

- I_{sec} : secondary CVT pulley inertia,
- I_{gb} : gearbox + intermediate shaft inertia,
- I_{wheel} : wheel + hub inertia about the wheel axis,
- m : total vehicle mass,
- r_w : effective wheel rolling radius,
- G : fixed gear ratio defined by $\omega_s = G \omega_w$.

Vehicle Mass as Equivalent Rotational Inertia The vehicle's translational kinetic energy is

$$T_{\text{trans}} = \frac{1}{2}mv^2,$$

with $v = r_w \omega_w$.

Substituting,

$$T_{\text{trans}} = \frac{1}{2}m(r_w \omega_w)^2 = \frac{1}{2}(mr_w^2) \omega_w^2.$$

Thus the vehicle mass behaves as an effective rotational inertia

$$I_{\text{veh, wheel}} = mr_w^2$$

about the wheel axis.

Reflection to the Secondary Axis Because $\omega_s = G \omega_w$, we have $\omega_w = \omega_s/G$.

Expressing the downstream kinetic energy in terms of ω_s :

$$T = \frac{1}{2} I_{\text{wheel}} \left(\frac{\omega_s}{G} \right)^2 + \frac{1}{2} (mr_w^2) \left(\frac{\omega_s}{G} \right)^2.$$

Factoring,

$$T = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{I_{\text{wheel}} + mr_w^2}{G^2} \right) \omega_s^2.$$

Therefore, inertias at the wheel reflect to the secondary pulley as

$$I_{\text{reflected}} = \frac{I_{\text{wheel}} + mr_w^2}{G^2}.$$

Total Secondary Inertia The total effective inertia about the secondary pulley is

$$I_s = I_{\text{sec}} + I_{\text{gb}} + \frac{I_{\text{wheel}} + mr_w^2}{G^2}. \quad (9.16)$$

Equation [Equation \(9.16\)](#) defines the total inertia opposing angular acceleration of the secondary pulley.

9.6 Ratio Kinematics

The CVT ratio was defined geometrically in [Section 7.9](#) (see [Equation \(7.23\)](#)) as

$$R(t) = \frac{r_{s,\text{eff}}(t)}{r_{p,\text{eff}}(t)}.$$

To relate pulley speeds, we now introduce the *no-slip constraint*.

Under ideal belt transmission, the belt surface speed must match the tangential speed of both pulley faces. This enforces

$$r_{p,\text{eff}}(t) \omega_p(t) = r_{s,\text{eff}}(t) \omega_s(t). \quad (9.17)$$

Substituting the geometric ratio definition gives

$$\omega_p(t) = R(t) \omega_s(t). \quad (9.18)$$

This relation is equivalent to assuming zero slip between belt and sheaves. Slip effects will be handled in a later section.

Differentiating [Equation \(9.18\)](#) with respect to time gives

$$\alpha_p(t) = R(t) \alpha_s(t) + \omega_s(t) \dot{R}(t), \quad (9.19)$$

where $\dot{R}(t) = \frac{dR}{dt}$ (see Equation (7.51)).

Equation (9.19) captures the dynamic coupling introduced by a time-varying ratio: even if $\alpha_s = 0$, a changing ratio ($\dot{R} \neq 0$) produces primary angular acceleration.

This provides one of the additional relations required to close the rotational system.

9.7 Torque Mapping Across the CVT

The belt transfers mechanical power between the primary and secondary pulleys. In general,

$$\tau_p(t) \omega_p(t) = \tau_s(t) \omega_s(t) + P_{\text{loss}}(t), \quad (9.20)$$

where P_{loss} represents internal dissipation (e.g., belt hysteresis, bearing drag).

Following Assumption 13 (Ideal CVT Power Transmission), we neglect these non-slip-related losses and set

$$P_{\text{loss}}(t) = 0.$$

This assumption removes internal inefficiencies but does *not* by itself impose the no-slip constraint.

When the belt is in sticking contact, the kinematic relation (9.18) holds. Substituting $\omega_p = R \omega_s$ into the ideal power balance gives

$$\tau_s(t) = R(t) \tau_p(t). \quad (9.21)$$

Equation (9.21) is therefore the ideal torque mapping associated with the geometric ratio. If slip occurs, (9.18) no longer holds and the torque relation must be modified accordingly.

9.8 Eliminating Accelerations

We now have four equations (Equation (9.1), Equation (9.2), Equation (9.19), Equation (9.21)) and four unknowns (α_p , α_s , τ_p , τ_s). The goal is to eliminate the accelerations α_p and α_s to obtain a closed-form expression for the coupling torque τ_p in terms of the known quantities τ_{eng} , τ_{load} , I_p , I_s , R , and $\dot{R}$.

From Equation (9.1),

$$\tau_p = \tau_{\text{eng}} - I_p \alpha_p.$$

Substituting Equation (9.19):

$$\tau_p = \tau_{\text{eng}} - I_p (R \alpha_s + \omega_s \dot{R}). \quad (9.22)$$

From Equation (9.2) and Equation (9.21),

$$\alpha_s = \frac{R\tau_p - \tau_{\text{load}}}{I_s}.$$

Substituting into Equation (9.22):

$$\begin{aligned}\tau_p &= \tau_{\text{eng}} - I_p \left[R \left(\frac{R\tau_p - \tau_{\text{load}}}{I_s} \right) + \omega_s \dot{R} \right] \\ &= \tau_{\text{eng}} - \frac{I_p}{I_s} (R^2 \tau_p - R\tau_{\text{load}}) - I_p \omega_s \dot{R}.\end{aligned}\tag{9.23}$$

Collecting terms:

$$\tau_p \left(1 + \frac{I_p}{I_s} R^2 \right) = \tau_{\text{eng}} + \frac{I_p}{I_s} R\tau_{\text{load}} - I_p \omega_s \dot{R}.\tag{9.24}$$

9.9 Closed-Form Coupling Torque

Solving Equation (9.24):

Coupling Torque (Primary Side) (9.25) $\tau_p(t) = \frac{\tau_{\text{eng}}(t) + \frac{I_p}{I_s} R(t) \tau_{\text{load}}(t) - I_p \omega_s(t) \dot{R}(t)}{1 + \frac{I_p}{I_s} R(t)^2}.$
--

The coupling torque as seen at the secondary pulley, required by Equation (8.16), then follows from Equation (9.21):

Coupling Torque (Secondary Side) (9.26) $\tau_s(t) = R(t) \tau_p(t).$

9.10 Section Summary

We began with the rotational equations of motion for the primary and secondary pulleys, introducing four unknowns (α_p , α_s , τ_p , τ_s) but only two dynamical equations.

Closure was achieved by imposing two additional physical relations:

- The *no-slip kinematic constraint* $\omega_p = R\omega_s$, together with its time derivative $\alpha_p = R\alpha_s + \omega_s \dot{R}$.
- The *ideal power-transfer assumption* (**Assumption 13 (Ideal CVT Power Transmission)**), which neglects non-slip-related losses and yields the torque mapping $\tau_s = R\tau_p$.

Together, these relations close the rotational system and produce the explicit coupling torque [Equation \(9.25\)](#), which expresses the transmitted torque in terms of the instantaneous ratio $R(t)$ and ratio rate $\dot{R}(t)$.

Substitution of $\tau_s = R\tau_p$ into the secondary axial force model [Equation \(8.16\)](#) completes the dynamical coupling required for the axial shift equation [Equation \(8.37\)](#).

10 Traction Limit and Slip Condition

The torque transmission law derived previously assumes ideal no-slip belt traction. Under that assumption, the coupling torque [Equation \(9.25\)](#) (and equivalently [Equation \(9.26\)](#)) represents the torque actually transmitted through the CVT.

In reality, belt-pulley friction is finite. For a given normal clamping force, there exists a maximum tangential traction force that the contact can sustain. If the demanded coupling torque exceeds this traction capacity, slip occurs and the transmitted torque saturates at a friction-limited value.

The objective of this section is to derive a traction inequality of the form

$$|\tau| \leq \tau_{\max}, \quad (10.1)$$

which will later be enforced in place of the ideal coupling law whenever the no-slip solution violates this bound.

10.1 Tight–Slack Tension Difference and Torque Capacity

Consider the wrapped pulley shown in [Figure 27](#). If torque is transmitted from the pulley to the belt, the belt tension cannot be the same on both spans. One side must carry a higher tension than the other. We therefore define

$$\Delta T \equiv T_{\text{tight}} - T_{\text{slack}}, \quad (10.2)$$

where T_{tight} and T_{slack} are the belt tensions on the two straight spans shown in the figure.

This tension difference arises because the pulley applies tangential traction to the belt along the wrap angle ϕ . The cumulative effect of this traction increases the belt tension progressively from the slack side to the tight side.

At effective contact radius r_{eff} , the transmitted torque is

$$\tau = r_{\text{eff}} \Delta T, \quad |\tau| = r_{\text{eff}} |\Delta T|. \quad (10.3)$$

Thus, limiting the transmitted torque is equivalent to limiting the admissible tension difference ΔT .

Under [Assumption 4 \(Idealized Belt–Pulley Friction Law\)](#) and [Assumption 5 \(Constant Effective Friction Coefficient\)](#), the belt–pulley interface obeys a Coulomb friction law with constant coefficient μ . The tangential traction at any point along the wrap is therefore bounded by the local normal load:

$$|F_f| \leq \mu N.$$

The *maximum* admissible tension difference occurs when friction is fully mobilized everywhere along the wrap — that is, at impending slip. Beyond this point, additional tension rise cannot be supported and sliding must occur.

We therefore define a maximum supported tension difference $\Delta T_{\max}$, corresponding to the friction-saturated state, and the associated torque capacity

$$\tau_{\max} = r_{\text{eff}} \Delta T_{\max}. \quad (10.4)$$

The next subsection computes $\Delta T_{\max}$ by examining the incremental change in belt tension along the wrap.

Remark (Friction)

TODO: Discuss other options for modelling friction of the rubber belt, reference that paper. Appendix?

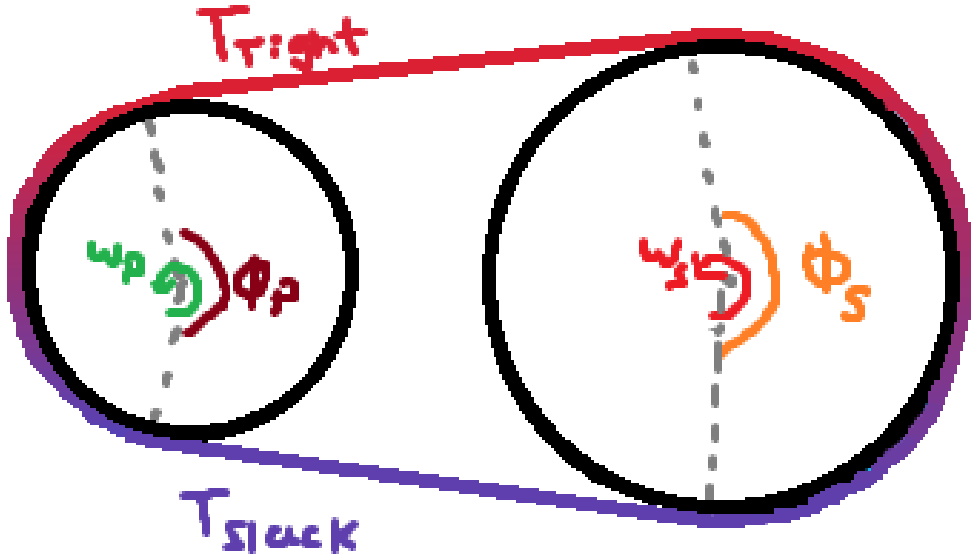


Figure 27: Torque transmission requires a tight–slack tension difference across the wrap.

10.2 Differential Belt Element and Tangential Force Balance

To determine the maximum admissible tension difference $\Delta T_{\max}$ introduced in [Section 10.1](#), we now examine how belt tension changes *locally* as the belt passes around the pulley.

Specifically, we seek an expression for the incremental tension change dT over a differential wrap angle $d\theta$. Once dT is related to the available friction at the interface, integration over the total wrap angle ϕ will yield $\Delta T_{\max}$.

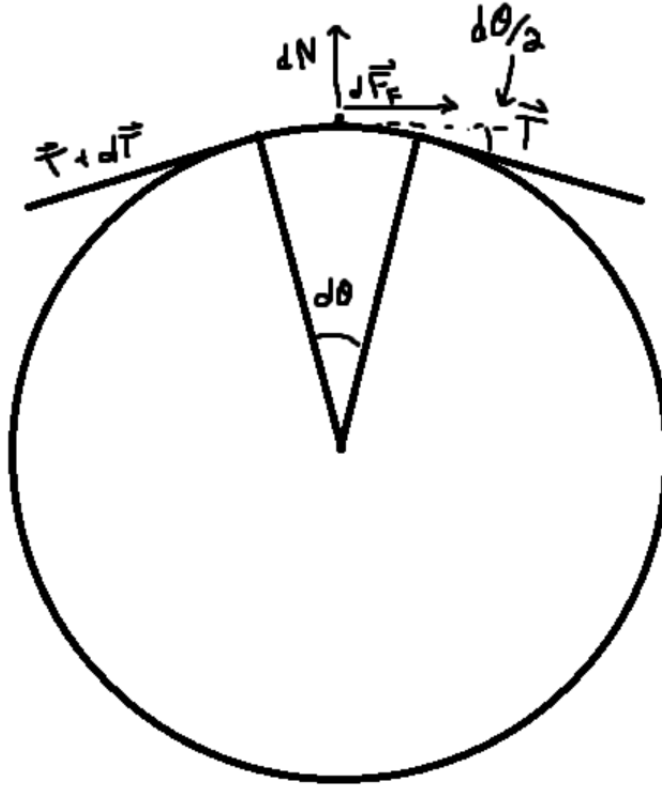


Figure 28: Free-body diagram of a differential belt element spanning $d\theta$.

Consider the differential belt element shown in **Figure 28**, spanning an infinitesimal wrap angle $d\theta$. The belt tension entering the element is T , and leaving is $T + dT$.

The pulley applies to this element:

- a differential normal force dN (radial),
- a differential tangential friction force dF_f .

The positive tangential direction is taken along the midpoint tangent of the element, consistent with increasing wrap angle.

Tangential Newton's Second Law Applying **Theory 1 (Newton's Second Law (Translation))** in the tangential direction:

$$\sum F_t = dm a_t, \quad (10.5)$$

where a_t is the tangential acceleration of the belt material at the contact point.

The tangential components of the end tensions follow directly from geometry:

$$(T)_t = T \cos\left(\frac{d\theta}{2}\right), \quad (10.6)$$

$$(T + dT)_t = (T + dT) \cos\left(\frac{d\theta}{2}\right). \quad (10.7)$$

The left-end tension acts in the positive tangential direction, while the right-end tension acts in the negative tangential direction. Including friction, the tangential force balance becomes

$$T \cos\left(\frac{d\theta}{2}\right) - (T + dT) \cos\left(\frac{d\theta}{2}\right) + dF_f = dm a_t. \quad (10.8)$$

Simplifying the first two terms exactly,

$$-dT \cos\left(\frac{d\theta}{2}\right) + dF_f = dm a_t. \quad (10.9)$$

Rearranging,

$$dT \cos\left(\frac{d\theta}{2}\right) = dF_f - dm a_t. \quad (10.10)$$

Belt mass element From Equation (8.24),

$$dm = \rho_b A_b r_{cm} d\theta. \quad (10.11)$$

so

$$dm a_t = \rho_b A_b r_{cm} a_t d\theta. \quad (10.12)$$

Substituting into Equation (10.10),

$$dT \cos\left(\frac{d\theta}{2}\right) = dF_f - \rho_b A_b r_{cm} a_t d\theta. \quad (10.13)$$

Friction limit and impending slip As established in Section 10.1, the maximum admissible tension rise occurs when friction is fully mobilized along the wrap (impending slip). At the differential level, this corresponds to

$$dF_f = \mu dN. \quad (10.14)$$

Substituting Equation (10.14) into Equation (10.13) yields the maximum local tension increase supported without sliding:

$$dT_{\max} = \frac{\mu dN - \rho_b A_b r_{cm} a_t d\theta}{\cos\left(\frac{d\theta}{2}\right)}. \quad (10.15)$$

10.3 Integration Across the Wrap

The tight–slack tension difference introduced in [Section 10.1](#) is obtained by accumulating the incremental tension changes dT along the contact arc. Since tension evolves continuously around the wrap,

$$\Delta T = T_{\text{tight}} - T_{\text{slack}} = \int_{-\phi/2}^{\phi/2} dT. \quad (10.16)$$

Accordingly, the maximum admissible tension difference is obtained by integrating the local maximum increment dT_{max} from [Equation \(10.15\)](#):

$$\Delta T_{\text{max}} = \int_{-\phi/2}^{\phi/2} \frac{\mu dN - \rho_b A_b r_{\text{cm}} a_t d\theta}{\cos(\frac{d\theta}{2})}. \quad (10.17)$$

In the differential limit $d\theta \rightarrow 0$, $\cos(d\theta/2) \rightarrow 1$, yielding

$$\Delta T_{\text{max}} = \int_{-\phi/2}^{\phi/2} \mu dN - \int_{-\phi/2}^{\phi/2} \rho_b A_b r_{\text{cm}} a_t d\theta. \quad (10.18)$$

The first integral represents the total normal load supported over the wrap, which we denote

$$N_\phi \equiv \int_{-\phi/2}^{\phi/2} dN. \quad (10.19)$$

(The explicit relationship between N_ϕ and the axial clamping force is derived in [Section 10.5](#).)

From [Assumption 9 \(Uniform Contact Radius Around Wrap\)](#), r_{cm} and a_t are uniform over the wrap, and so the second integral simplifies to $\rho_b A_b r_{\text{cm}} a_t \phi$, giving

$$\Delta T_{\text{max}} = \mu N_\phi - \rho_b A_b r_{\text{cm}} a_t \phi. \quad (10.20)$$

This leaves two unknowns: the normal load N_ϕ and the tangential acceleration a_t .

10.4 Tangential Acceleration of a Belt Element on a Circular Wrap

This subsection derives the tangential acceleration term required in the local traction inequality in [Equation \(10.20\)](#). In that inequality we apply Newton’s second law *along the direction of belt motion*, so we need an explicit expression for the belt element’s tangential acceleration a_t .

Goal For a belt element of differential mass dm moving along the wrap, the tangential force balance uses

$$\sum F_t = dm a_t,$$

so our goal is to compute a_t from the belt kinematics when both *angular speed* and *wrap radius* may vary:

$$\omega(t) = \dot{\theta}(t), \quad \alpha(t) = \dot{\omega}(t), \quad r(t), \quad \dot{r}(t).$$

Coordinate system and unit vectors Because we care about forces *along the belt*, we choose a basis aligned with the belt's local geometry:

- $\mathbf{e}_r(t)$ points radially outward from the pulley center O to the belt point P ,
- $\mathbf{e}_\theta(t)$ is the unit tangent, obtained by rotating $\mathbf{e}_r$ by $+90^\circ$ in the direction of increasing θ .

These are not arbitrary symbols: they are *the* directions of radial and tangential motion on a circle, and the belt's local tangential direction is exactly $\mathbf{e}_\theta$.

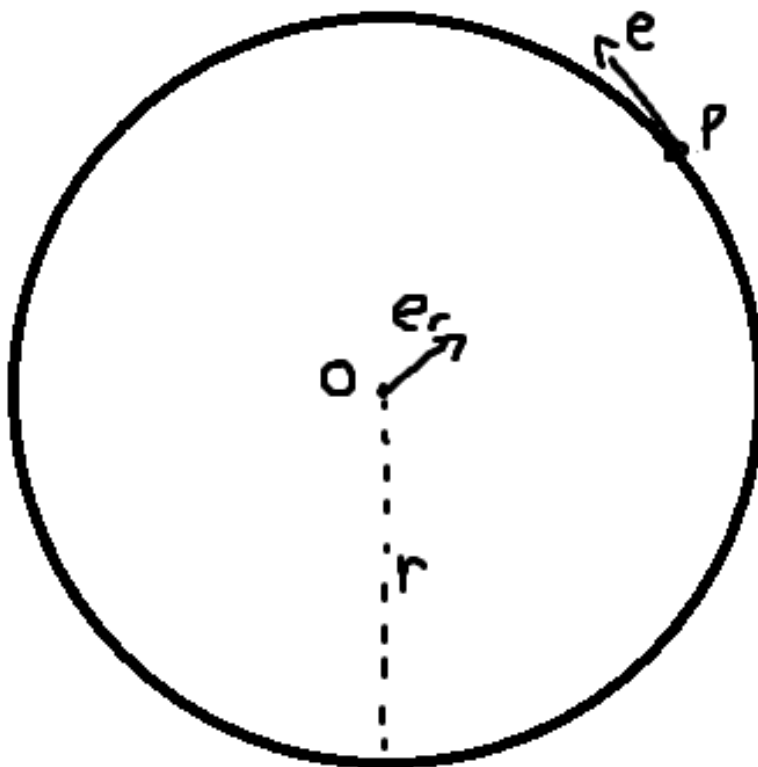


Figure 29: Definition of the radial and tangential unit vectors.

Work backwards: to get a_t , compute $\mathbf{a}$ and take its tangential component Tangential acceleration is the component of the acceleration vector along $\mathbf{e}_\theta$:

$$a_t \equiv \mathbf{a} \cdot \mathbf{e}_\theta. \quad (10.21)$$

So we will compute $\mathbf{a} = \dot{\mathbf{v}}$, then read off the $\mathbf{e}_\theta$ component.

Step 1: position and velocity The position of P from the center is

$$\mathbf{r}(t) = r(t) \mathbf{e}_r(t). \quad (10.22)$$

Differentiate Equation (10.22) using the product rule:

$$\mathbf{v} = \dot{\mathbf{r}} = \dot{r} \mathbf{e}_r + r \dot{\mathbf{e}}_r. \quad (10.23)$$

This shows why we must track how the unit vectors change with time: even if r were constant, $\mathbf{e}_r$ rotates as the belt moves around the pulley.

Step 2: derive $\dot{\mathbf{e}}_r$ and $\dot{\mathbf{e}}_\theta$ (no assumptions) Over a small change $d\theta$, the unit vectors rotate rigidly by the same angle. The derivative with respect to angle is therefore:

$$\frac{d\mathbf{e}_r}{d\theta} = \mathbf{e}_\theta, \quad \frac{d\mathbf{e}_\theta}{d\theta} = -\mathbf{e}_r. \quad (10.24)$$

(Geometric justification: increasing θ rotates $\mathbf{e}_r$ toward the tangent; increasing θ rotates the tangent toward $-\mathbf{e}_r$.)

Convert angle-derivatives to time-derivatives with the chain rule $d(\cdot)/dt = (d(\cdot)/d\theta)\dot{\theta}$ and $\omega = \dot{\theta}$:

$$\dot{\mathbf{e}}_r = \omega \mathbf{e}_\theta, \quad \dot{\mathbf{e}}_\theta = -\omega \mathbf{e}_r. \quad (10.25)$$

Step 3: velocity in radial–tangential form Substitute $\dot{\mathbf{e}}_r$ from Equation (10.25) into Equation (10.23):

$$\mathbf{v} = \dot{r} \mathbf{e}_r + r\omega \mathbf{e}_\theta. \quad (10.26)$$

This is already intuitive: $\dot{r}$ is the radial speed, and $r\omega$ is the tangential speed.

Step 4: acceleration and its tangential component Differentiate Equation (10.26):

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{a} = \dot{\mathbf{v}} &= \frac{d}{dt}(\dot{r} \mathbf{e}_r) + \frac{d}{dt}(r\omega \mathbf{e}_\theta) \\ &= \ddot{r} \mathbf{e}_r + \dot{r} \dot{\mathbf{e}}_r + (\dot{r}\omega + r\alpha) \mathbf{e}_\theta + r\omega \dot{\mathbf{e}}_\theta. \end{aligned} \quad (10.27)$$

Now substitute the unit-vector time derivatives from Equation (10.25):

$$\dot{\mathbf{e}}_r = \omega \mathbf{e}_\theta, \quad \dot{\mathbf{e}}_\theta = -\omega \mathbf{e}_r,$$

and collect like directions:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{a} &= \ddot{r} \mathbf{e}_r + \dot{r}(\omega \mathbf{e}_\theta) + (\dot{r}\omega + r\alpha) \mathbf{e}_\theta + r\omega(-\omega \mathbf{e}_r) \\ &= (\ddot{r} - r\omega^2) \mathbf{e}_r + (r\alpha + 2\dot{r}\omega) \mathbf{e}_\theta. \end{aligned} \quad (10.28)$$

Finally, by the definition Equation (10.21), the tangential acceleration is the $\mathbf{e}_\theta$ component:

$$a_t = r\alpha + 2\dot{r}\omega. \quad (10.29)$$

Where the factor of 2 comes from The two $\dot{r}\omega$ contributions in Equation (10.28) come from *two distinct effects*:

- $\dot{r} \dot{\mathbf{e}}_r$: even the *radial* velocity $\dot{r} \mathbf{e}_r$ gains a tangential contribution because $\mathbf{e}_r$ rotates at rate ω ;
- $\frac{d}{dt}(r\omega)$: the tangential speed $r\omega$ changes if r changes.

Adding these yields the total $2\dot{r}\omega$ term.

10.5 Normal Force from Axial Clamping

The traction bound Equation (10.20) depends on the total normal load over the wrap,

$$N_\phi \equiv \int_{-\phi/2}^{\phi/2} dN.$$

We now express N_ϕ in terms of the axial clamping force generated by the pulley mechanism.

Axial clamp produces radial normal load The belt is pressed between two opposing conical sheaves. An axial clamping force F_{ax} pushes the sheaves together. Because the sheave faces are inclined at cone half-angle β , this axial force generates a radial normal load on the belt.

From the conical kinematics established in Equation (7.1),

$$\frac{dr}{ds} = \frac{1}{2 \tan \beta}.$$

To relate forces consistently, we use virtual work. The incremental work done by the axial clamp must equal the incremental work associated with radial compression:

$$F_{\text{ax}} ds = F_{\text{rad}} dr.$$

Substituting $dr = (dr/ds) ds$ gives

$$F_{\text{rad}} = \frac{F_{\text{ax}}}{dr/ds} = 2F_{\text{ax}} \tan \beta. \quad (10.30)$$

Thus, the axial clamp force produces a total radial normal load

$$F_{\text{rad}} = 2F_{\text{ax}} \tan \beta. \quad (10.31)$$

Identification with the wrap-normal load The radial load F_{rad} derived above represents the total inward force applied by the two sheave faces onto the belt. That load is carried entirely by the distributed belt–pulley contact forces dN along the wrap.

Since no other radial forces act on the belt within the contact region, radial equilibrium requires that the sum of the distributed contact forces equal the total clamp-induced radial load. Therefore,

$$\boxed{N_\phi = F_{\text{rad}} = 2F_{\text{ax}} \tan \beta.} \quad (10.32)$$

This result states that the total normal load available for traction is set directly by the axial clamping force through the cone geometry.

10.6 Torque Capacity Inequality

From [Section 10.1](#), the maximum transmissible torque is determined by the maximum admissible tension difference:

$$\tau_{\max} = r_{\text{eff}} \Delta T_{\max}. \quad (10.33)$$

Using the integrated result from [Equation \(10.20\)](#),

$$\Delta T_{\max} = \mu N_{\phi} - \rho_b A_b r_{\text{cm}} a_t \phi,$$

the traction limit becomes

$$|\tau| \leq r_{\text{eff}} (\mu N_{\phi} - \rho_b A_b r_{\text{cm}} a_t \phi). \quad (10.34)$$

Substituting the clamp-normal relation from [Equation \(10.32\)](#),

$$N_{\phi} = 2F_{\text{ax}} \tan \beta,$$

gives

$$|\tau| \leq r_{\text{eff}} (\mu(2F_{\text{ax}} \tan \beta) - \rho_b A_b r_{\text{cm}} a_t \phi). \quad (10.35)$$

Finally, substituting the belt tangential acceleration from [Equation \(10.29\)](#),

$$a_t = r\alpha + 2\dot{r}\omega,$$

yields the explicit traction-limited torque inequality

Traction-Limited Torque Capacity

(10.36)

$$|\tau| \leq r_{\text{eff}} [2\mu F_{\text{ax}} \tan \beta - \rho_b A_b r_{\text{cm}} \phi (r\alpha + 2\dot{r}\omega)].$$

Remark (Why this differs from the classical capstan exponential)

In the classical capstan problem, the normal load is generated *by the belt tension* itself (a larger tension implies a proportionally larger contact normal), which leads to the exponential relation $T_1/T_2 = e^{\mu\phi}$.

Here, the normal load is imposed externally by the clamping mechanism: N_{ϕ} is determined by F_{ax} through [Equation \(10.32\)](#). Therefore, the available traction scales *linearly* with clamping force, not exponentially with belt tension. Centrifugal loading and ratio change enter additionally through the inertial term in [Equation \(10.36\)](#).

Remark (Torque-Reactive Clamping and Implicit Capacity at the Secondary)

For the secondary pulley, the specific axial clamp force F_{ax} used in this model depends on the transmitted torque τ_s (see Equation (8.16)). However, the traction capacity τ_{max} derived above depends on F_{ax} through Equation (10.32) and Equation (10.36).

Consequently, at the secondary interface the admissible torque satisfies an implicit relation of the form

$$|\tau_s| \leq \tau_{\text{max}}(F_{\text{ax}}(\tau_s)).$$

In other words, the transmitted torque influences the clamp force, the clamp force determines the traction capacity, and that capacity bounds the transmitted torque. This circular dependence arises only because the secondary mechanism is torque-reactive.

For the specific secondary model adopted in this work, this implicit inequality can be reduced to a closed-form solution (see Appendix D). The explicit algebra is omitted here to preserve clarity, as it depends on the detailed functional form of $F_{\text{ax}}(s, \tau_s)$ and is not required to understand the main traction derivation.

10.7 Section Conclusion and Transition

This section derived a traction-limited torque bound for a single pulley.

Equation (10.36) gives the maximum torque that can be transmitted at the current operating state. It depends only on:

- axial clamping force F_{ax} ,
- cone angle β ,
- wrap angle ϕ ,
- belt mass and kinematics.

No exponential amplification occurs because the normal force is externally imposed and bounded.

The ideal coupling torque derived earlier remains valid only when it satisfies Equation (10.36). If the demanded torque exceeds this bound, the belt cannot sustain static friction and slip must occur.

The next section defines the stick and slip regimes and modifies the governing equations accordingly.

11 Slip Regimes and Traction-Limited Coupling Torque

Earlier sections produced two results:

- A no-slip (rigid-traction) coupling torque, denoted τ_{ns} , which is the torque required to enforce perfect belt adherence.
- A traction capacity bound of the form $|\tau| \leq \tau_{\text{max}}$, derived in Section 10.6.

The purpose of this section is to combine these into a single physically admissible coupling torque law that:

1. reduces to the no-slip model when feasible,
2. never violates the traction bound,
3. and produces sliding torque that opposes relative motion when slip occurs.

11.1 Slip Metric: Detecting Stick and Slip

Slip is defined at the belt–pulley contact. If the belt adheres to both pulleys, the tangential surface speeds must match.

Define the contact speeds

$$v_p = r_{p,\text{eff}}\omega_p, \quad v_s = r_{s,\text{eff}}\omega_s, \quad (11.1)$$

and the relative mismatch

$$v_{\text{rel}} = v_p - v_s = r_{p,\text{eff}}\omega_p - r_{s,\text{eff}}\omega_s. \quad (11.2)$$

Stick condition:

$$v_{\text{rel}} = 0. \quad (11.3)$$

Slip condition:

$$v_{\text{rel}} \neq 0. \quad (11.4)$$

Thus, v_{rel} is the diagnostic quantity: perfect adherence requires zero relative surface speed.

11.2 Feasibility of the No-Slip Torque

The no-slip model specifies a required coupling torque

$$\tau_{\text{ns}}, \quad (11.5)$$

which is the torque needed to enforce $v_{\text{rel}} = 0$ under the current state.

However, from [Section 10.6](#), the belt–pulley interface cannot transmit a torque exceeding τ_{max} in magnitude. Therefore, static adherence is only physically possible if

$$|\tau_{\text{ns}}| \leq \tau_{\text{max}}. \quad (11.6)$$

If [Equation \(11.6\)](#) holds, static friction can enforce $v_{\text{rel}} = 0$ and the system remains in stick.

If instead

$$|\tau_{\text{ns}}| > \tau_{\text{max}}, \quad (11.7)$$

the required torque exceeds the available traction. Static friction cannot maintain adherence, and slip must occur.

11.3 Traction-Limited Coupling Torque Law

The coupling torque must satisfy two physical facts:

1. Static friction can enforce $v_{\text{rel}} = 0$ only if $|\tau_{\text{ns}}| \leq \tau_{\text{max}}$.
2. Once sliding occurs ($v_{\text{rel}} \neq 0$), the interface is in kinetic friction and the transmitted torque remains saturated at τ_{max} until the relative speed vanishes.

This leads to the following regime definition.

Stick (static friction). If

$$v_{\text{rel}} = 0 \quad \text{and} \quad |\tau_{\text{ns}}| \leq \tau_{\text{max}}, \quad (11.8)$$

then static traction can be maintained and

$$\tau_c = \tau_{\text{ns}}. \quad (11.9)$$

Slip (kinetic friction). If

$$v_{\text{rel}} \neq 0 \quad \text{or} \quad |\tau_{\text{ns}}| > \tau_{\text{max}}, \quad (11.10)$$

then the transmitted torque is friction-limited and opposes the relative motion:

$$\tau_c = \tau_{\text{max}} \text{sign}(v_{\text{rel}}). \quad (11.11)$$

Physical interpretation. While $v_{\text{rel}} \neq 0$, the interface is in sliding contact. The friction torque remains saturated at τ_{max} and always acts to oppose the mismatch.

If $|\tau_{\text{ns}}| < \tau_{\text{max}}$ during slip, the saturated friction torque reduces $|v_{\text{rel}}|$ until it reaches zero, at which point stick may be re-established.

If instead $|\tau_{\text{ns}}| > \tau_{\text{max}}$, the torque imbalance continues to increase the mismatch, and slip persists.

The complete traction-limited coupling law is therefore

Traction-Limited Coupling Torque	(11.12)
$\tau_c = \begin{cases} \tau_{\text{ns}}, & v_{\text{rel}} = 0 \text{ and } \tau_{\text{ns}} \leq \tau_{\text{max}}, \\ \tau_{\text{max}} \text{sign}(v_{\text{rel}}), & \text{otherwise.} \end{cases}$	

Remark (Numerical regularization)

The discontinuous $\text{sign}(\cdot)$ function in [Equation \(11.12\)](#) may be replaced by a smooth approximation for numerical integration. A practical regularized form uses three ideas:

- a smooth Coulomb-like saturation near zero relative speed,
- a clamped no-slip torque request,
- and a blend between those two limits across a small mismatch region.

This preserves the intended stick–slip behavior while avoiding a hard discontinuity at $v_{\text{rel}} = 0$. Implementation details and practical parameter-selection guidance are provided in [Appendix C.3](#).

Remark (Torque deficit, frictional heating, and transient inertial power transfer)

As an aside, this work is formulated primarily from force and torque balance, not from a full energy-based loss accounting framework. Even so, viewing the slip law through an energy lens is useful as a logical validation step: it helps confirm that the model behavior remains consistent with the law of conservation of energy.

When the no-slip request exceeds traction capacity,

$$\Delta\tau_{\text{loss}} = \max(0, |\tau_{\text{ns}}| - \tau_{\text{max}}), \quad (11.13)$$

which quantifies the instantaneous torque shortfall between the requested no-slip coupling and the admissible traction-limited coupling.

During slip, mechanical energy is dissipated at the contact as heat at the rate

$$\dot{Q}_{\text{fric}} = |F_t v_{\text{rel}}| = \left| \frac{\tau_c}{r_{\text{int}}} v_{\text{rel}} \right|, \quad (11.14)$$

where r_{int} is the local effective contact radius used to map torque to tangential force. In traction-limited slip, $|\tau_c| = \tau_{\text{max}}$, so larger speed mismatch directly increases thermal generation.

It is also possible to observe slip while $|\tau_{\text{ns}}| < \tau_{\text{max}}$, because slip can persist temporarily until the existing mismatch decays. In that interval, the transmitted interface power can exceed the instantaneous engine shaft output without violating energy conservation. From the primary rotational balance,

$$\tau_c \omega_p = \tau_{\text{eng}} \omega_p - \frac{d}{dt} \left(\frac{1}{2} I_p \omega_p^2 \right), \quad (11.15)$$

so when the engine-side rotating inertia is decelerating ($d(\frac{1}{2} I_p \omega_p^2)/dt < 0$), released kinetic energy supplements the instantaneous engine power. This effect is transient and vanishes once the slip mismatch collapses and the system re-enters stick.

12 Complete CVT Dynamic Model

This section assembles the results of the preceding derivations into a single closed dynamical system. No new physics is introduced. The purpose is to state (i) the chosen state variables, (ii) the intermediate quantities computed from those states (geometry, ratio, traction limits), and (iii) the governing ODEs.

12.1 State Definition

The dynamic state vector is

$$\mathbf{x} = (\omega_p, \omega_s, s, \dot{s}), \quad (12.1)$$

where ω_p and ω_s are the primary and secondary pulley angular velocities, and s is the axial shift coordinate.

External inputs are the engine torque model $\tau_{\text{eng}}(t)$ and the road-load torque model $\tau_{\text{load}}(t)$.

12.2 Geometric Closure (Ratio and Ratio Rate)

All pulley radii, wrap angles, and belt geometry are determined by s via the belt-length constraint and conical kinematics (see [Section 7.11](#)). In particular, the CVT ratio is [Equation \(7.23\)](#):

$$R(s) = \frac{r_{s,\text{eff}}(s)}{r_{p,\text{eff}}(s)}. \quad (12.2)$$

Its time derivative is given by [Equation \(7.51\)](#) and depends on $(s, \dot{s})$:

$$\dot{R} = \dot{R}(s, \dot{s}). \quad (12.3)$$

These are the only places where $\dot{s}$ enters the ratio kinematics explicitly.

12.3 Coupling Torques and What the Model Solves For

We retain the two-sided torque notation used throughout:

- $\tau_p(t)$: coupling torque as seen at the *primary* pulley,
- $\tau_s(t)$: coupling torque as seen at the *secondary* pulley.

These are not prescribed inputs. They are determined by:

1. a *no-slip* torque demand (from the rotational coupling derivation),
2. a *traction capacity* bound (from the friction derivation),
3. a stick-slip rule that selects the admissible transmitted torque.

When no slip is feasible, the no-slip torque demand is [Equation \(9.25\)](#):

$$\tau_{\text{ns}}(t) \triangleq \tau_p(t) = \frac{\tau_{\text{eng}}(t) + \frac{I_p}{I_s} R(t) \tau_{\text{load}}(t) - I_p \omega_s(t) \dot{R}(t)}{1 + \frac{I_p}{I_s} R(t)^2}. \quad (12.4)$$

Torque on the secondary side is related by the ideal geometric mapping (derived from power balance under the ideal transmission assumption):

$$\tau_s(t) = R(t) \tau_p(t). \quad (12.5)$$

In slip, the actual transmitted torque is limited by the traction capacity. We denote the instantaneous admissible magnitude by τ_{max} , computed from [Equation \(10.36\)](#) evaluated on each pulley and combined by the chosen limiting rule (e.g., min across interfaces).

Finally, the *actual* coupling torque used in the dynamics is selected by the traction-limited law [Equation \(11.12\)](#):

$$\tau_p(t) \equiv \tau_c(t) = \begin{cases} \tau_{\text{ns}}(t), & v_{\text{rel}} = 0 \text{ and } |\tau_{\text{ns}}(t)| \leq \tau_{\text{max}}(t), \\ \tau_{\text{max}}(t) \text{sign}(v_{\text{rel}}(t)), & \text{otherwise,} \end{cases} \quad (12.6)$$

with $v_{\text{rel}} = r_{p,\text{eff}}\omega_p - r_{s,\text{eff}}\omega_s$ ([Section 11.1](#)).

Once τ_p is selected, τ_s follows immediately from [Equation \(12.5\)](#).

12.4 Rotational Dynamics

The rotational equations of motion are [Equation \(9.1\)](#) and [Equation \(9.2\)](#). Written as first-order ODEs:

$$\dot{\omega}_p = \frac{1}{I_p} (\tau_{\text{eng}}(t) - \tau_p(t)), \quad (12.7)$$

$$\dot{\omega}_s = \frac{1}{I_s} (\tau_s(t) - \tau_{\text{load}}(t)). \quad (12.8)$$

Here $\tau_p(t)$ is given by the traction-limited rule [Equation \(12.6\)](#), and $\tau_s(t)$ is then computed from [Equation \(12.5\)](#).

12.5 Axial Shift Dynamics

The axial shift acceleration is given by [Equation \(8.37\)](#):

$$\ddot{s} = \frac{\left(F_{p,\text{ax}}(s, \omega_p) + F_{c,p}(s, \omega_p)\right) - \left(F_{s,\text{ax}}(s, \tau_s) + F_{c,s}(s, \omega_s)\right)}{m_{p,m} + m_{s,m} + \frac{\rho_b A_b L_b}{4}}. \quad (12.9)$$

In this assembled model, the secondary torque input appearing in $F_{s,\text{ax}}(s, \tau_s)$ is evaluated by [Equation \(12.5\)](#), where τ_p is selected by the traction rule [Equation \(12.6\)](#).

12.6 Closed Model (What Is Computed Each Step)

Given the state $\mathbf{x} = (\omega_p, \omega_s, s, \dot{s})$ at time t :

1. Compute geometry from s : $r_{p,\text{eff}}(s)$, $r_{s,\text{eff}}(s)$, $\phi_p(s)$, $\phi_s(s)$, etc.
2. Compute ratio and ratio rate: $R(s)$ from [Equation \(12.2\)](#), and $\dot{R}(s, \dot{s})$ from [Equation \(12.3\)](#).
3. Compute the no-slip torque demand τ_{ns} from [Equation \(12.4\)](#).
4. Compute traction capacity τ_{max} from [Equation \(10.36\)](#) (primary and secondary) and apply the chosen limiting rule.
5. Select the transmitted coupling torque τ_p using [Equation \(12.6\)](#).
6. Map to the secondary torque τ_s using [Equation \(12.5\)](#).
7. Evaluate the ODE right-hand-sides: [Equation \(12.7\)](#), [Equation \(12.8\)](#), and [Equation \(12.9\)](#).

Therefore the complete nonlinear ODE system is

$$\begin{aligned}
\dot{\omega}_p &= \frac{1}{I_p} (\tau_{\text{eng}}(t) - \tau_p), \\
\dot{\omega}_s &= \frac{1}{I_s} (\tau_s - \tau_{\text{load}}(t)), \\
\dot{s} &= \dot{s}, \\
\ddot{s} &= \frac{\left(F_{p,\text{ax}}(s, \omega_p) + F_{c,p}(s, \omega_p)\right) - \left(F_{s,\text{ax}}(s, \tau_s) + F_{c,s}(s, \omega_s)\right)}{m_{p,m} + m_{s,m} + \frac{\rho_b A_b L_b}{4}},
\end{aligned} \tag{12.10}$$

with the algebraic closures

$$R = R(s), \quad \dot{R} = \dot{R}(s, \dot{s}), \quad \tau_p \text{ from Equation (12.6)}, \quad \tau_s = R \tau_p.$$

This completes the closed CVT dynamic model.

13 Simulation Results

Because experimental drivetrain data for the present vehicle configuration was not available at the time of writing, the results presented here focus on establishing physical credibility of the model through three complementary strategies:

1. Verification that the dynamic model reproduces known quasi-static behaviour in appropriate limits.
2. Demonstration that the model produces trends consistent with established physical intuition of CVT operation.
3. Exploration of transient behaviours and force interactions that cannot be captured by steady-state formulations.

Accordingly, the results are structured to progressively build confidence in the formulation. We begin with a summary of simulation parameters, then verify steady-state force balance behaviour, examine the magnitude of the centrifugal belt correction, and finally present transient simulations of torque transmission and full vehicle launch behaviour.

13.1 Simulation Parameters

All simulations were performed using the nominal parameter set summarized in Table 6. Symbol definitions are centralized in Section 3.5; this results table reports the nominal values used in simulation together with their sources.

Table 6: Nominal simulation parameters grouped by subsystem. Parameter sources are indicated as CAD (measured from geometry), Spec (manufacturer specification), Lit. (literature value), or Est. (engineering estimate).

Subsystem	Symbol(s)	Parameter	Nominal value	Unit	Source
Primary clutch	m_f	Flyweight mass	–	kg	CAD / Spec
	$r_{f,0}$	Flyweight radius	–	m	CAD
	$r_f(s)$	Ramp geometry profile	profile curve	–	CAD
	k_p	Primary spring rate	–	N/m	Spec
	$x_{p,0}$	Primary spring preload	–	m	Spec
	β	Sheave half-angle	0.2007	rad	CAD
	$s_{dz}, s_{\max}$	Minimum / maximum shift position	–	m	CAD
Secondary clutch	$\theta_s(s)$	Helix angle profile	profile curve	–	CAD
	$k_{s,\theta}$	Torsional spring rate	–	N m/rad	Spec
	$\theta_{s,0}$	Torsional spring preload	–	rad	Spec
	$k_{s,x}$	Compression spring rate	–	N/m	Spec
	β	Sheave half-angle	0.2007	rad	CAD
Belt	ρ_b	Mass per unit length	–	kg/m	Lit.
	β	Belt V-angle	0.2007	rad	Spec
	μ	Friction coefficient	–	1	Est.
	L_b	Free belt length	0.9535	m	CAD
	$h_b, b_{\text{out}}, b_{\text{in}}$	Cross-section geometry	$h_b = 0.01557$; others –	m	CAD
Vehicle	m	Total vehicle mass	–	kg	Measured
	r_w	Wheel radius	–	m	CAD
	G	Final drive ratio	–	1	Spec
	C_d	Drag coefficient	–	1	Est.
	A_f	Frontal area	–	m ²	CAD
	C_{rr}	Rolling resistance coefficient	–	1	Lit.
Engine	$\tau_{\text{eng}}(\omega_p)$	Torque curve	lookup/fit curve	N m	Spec

Parameters derived directly from geometry (e.g. ramp profiles, helix geometry, belt path) are known with relatively high confidence. By contrast, friction coefficient and certain aerodynamic parameters are treated as estimated quantities and are therefore examined further in the sensitivity analysis presented later in this section.

13.2 Steady-State Force Balance Verification

Before examining transient behaviour, it is useful to verify that the dynamic model recovers the expected quasi-static behaviour of the CVT under steady operating conditions.

Physically, if engine speed is held constant and inertial effects vanish, the axial forces acting on the

movable sheave should balance such that

$$F_{\text{net}}(s) = 0$$

at the equilibrium shift position.

Figure 30: Placeholder: axial force components acting on the primary clutch as a function of shift position at several fixed engine speeds. The curves represent centrifugal flyweight force, primary spring restoring force, and belt axial reaction. The equilibrium shift position occurs where the net axial force crosses zero.

Figure 30 illustrates the individual axial force contributions acting on the primary sheave. As engine speed increases, centrifugal flyweight force grows approximately quadratically, shifting the equilibrium point toward larger shift positions. This behaviour corresponds physically to the familiar engagement and upshift mechanism of the CVT.

From these force curves the equilibrium shift position can be extracted as the zero-crossing of the net force curve.

Figure 31: Placeholder: predicted equilibrium shift position as a function of engine angular velocity obtained from the steady-state force balance.

The resulting equilibrium shift curve shown in **Figure 31** provides a useful consistency check against prior quasi-static formulations in the literature. In the limit of negligible inertia, the dynamic model converges to this same equilibrium condition, confirming that the formulation is internally consistent.

13.3 Magnitude of the Centrifugal Belt Correction

One of the central derivations of this work is the centrifugal belt force correction derived in ???. Physically, this term arises because the rotating belt experiences radial inertia that tends to unseat it from the sheave groove.

This effect reduces the effective normal force acting on the belt and therefore lowers the maximum transmissible torque.

Figure 32: Placeholder: centrifugal belt force compared with total clamping force as a function of engine speed for both primary and secondary pulleys.

Figure 32 compares the centrifugal correction term with the total clamping force produced by the clutch mechanisms. At low engine speeds the centrifugal term is negligible. However, as engine speed increases the correction grows rapidly and becomes comparable in magnitude to the mechanical clamping force.

To quantify the impact of this effect on torque transmission, the maximum transmissible torque was computed both with and without the centrifugal correction.

Figure 33: Placeholder: predicted torque capacity of the belt drive with and without the centrifugal correction term. Neglecting the correction significantly overestimates the torque capacity at high engine speeds.

The difference between these curves represents the modelling error introduced by neglecting belt centrifugal effects. For the operating range considered here, the correction substantially reduces the predicted torque capacity at high rotational speeds, highlighting the importance of including this effect in accurate CVT models.

13.4 Torque Transmission and Slip Behaviour

The model explicitly distinguishes between no-slip and slipping regimes based on the instantaneous torque capacity of the belt.

Physically, when the demanded torque exceeds the maximum transmissible torque determined by clamping force and friction, the belt must enter a slipping state.

Figure 34: Placeholder: time history of torque demand and maximum transmissible torque during a transient loading event. Regions where torque demand exceeds capacity correspond to slipping behaviour.

Figure 34 illustrates a representative transient in which the torque demand temporarily exceeds the belt's torque capacity. In these intervals the transmitted torque is limited by frictional capacity rather than by the engine torque itself.

The model also records the instantaneous slip state.

Figure 35: Placeholder: slip-state indicator and ratio derivative during the transient event shown in Figure 34.

As shown in Figure 35, the onset of slip coincides with changes in the rate of ratio evolution. This coupling between torque transmission and ratio dynamics is a fundamentally transient phenomenon and cannot be captured by purely steady-state models.

13.5 Vehicle Launch from Rest

The full drivetrain model can be used to simulate a complete vehicle launch from rest.

Physically, such a launch typically exhibits three distinct phases:

1. initial clutch engagement,
2. active ratio upshift as vehicle speed increases,
3. eventual stabilization near the shift-out ratio.

Figure 36: Placeholder: transmission ratio as a function of time during a simulated vehicle launch from rest.

Figure 36 shows the predicted ratio trajectory during the launch. The model captures the gradual engagement of the belt followed by continuous ratio adjustment as engine speed increases.

Figure 37: Placeholder: engine angular velocity and vehicle speed during the launch simulation.

The relationship between engine speed and vehicle speed is shown in Figure 37. A properly tuned CVT maintains the engine near its optimal operating range during acceleration.

Figure 38: Placeholder: trajectory of the engine operating point during launch plotted against the engine torque curve.

Figure 38 visualizes this behaviour by plotting the engine operating point over the torque curve. The ability of the CVT to keep the engine near its optimal torque or power region is one of the primary motivations for using continuously variable transmissions.

13.6 Parameter Sensitivity

Finally, selected parameter variations were performed to illustrate how the model responds to changes in key clutch parameters.

Rather than performing a full factorial sweep, the analysis focuses on parameters known to strongly influence CVT behaviour.

Flyweight mass Increasing flyweight mass increases centrifugal force and therefore lowers engagement RPM.

Figure 39: Placeholder: effect of flyweight mass on predicted ratio trajectory and engagement speed.

Helix angle The helix profile determines how strongly the secondary clutch reacts to transmitted torque.

Figure 40: Placeholder: effect of helix angle variation on ratio dynamics under load.

Friction coefficient The belt friction coefficient determines the torque capacity threshold at which slip occurs.

Figure 41: Placeholder: torque capacity as a function of friction coefficient.

These sensitivity studies demonstrate how the model can be used not only to simulate drivetrain behaviour but also to provide insight into the effects of tuning parameters commonly adjusted during CVT calibration.

14 Conclusion

This work developed a unified first-principles dynamic model for a mechanically actuated dry rubber V-belt CVT and its coupling to the full drivetrain. Starting from geometry and force balance, the derivation produced a closed nonlinear state-space formulation in which rotational dynamics, traction-limited torque transmission, and axial shift dynamics are solved consistently in time.

The completed formulation includes the primary flyweight-ramp actuation model, secondary helix torque feedback, belt geometric closure, centrifugal belt normal-force correction, and a stick-slip switching rule for transmitted torque. Together, these elements provide a physically interpretable framework that bridges the gap between purely quasi-static tuning models and dynamic simulation suitable for transient events such as engagement, upshift, and load-induced slip.

From an engineering perspective, the model is intended to support both understanding and design iteration: it provides traceable equations for mechanism-level reasoning while also enabling numerical studies of parameter sensitivity (e.g., flyweight mass, helix profile, friction level) and their impact on shift behaviour and torque capacity.

The current formulation also has clear limits. It does not yet include thermal effects, wear progression, or detailed tribological contact evolution, and the vehicle side remains a reduced longitudinal model. Efficiency is also treated with simplifying assumptions: torque transfer is modeled with ideal geometric mapping and traction limits, but explicit speed/load-dependent loss partitions (e.g., belt hysteresis, sheave contact dissipation, bearing and seal losses) are not yet parameterized as a standalone efficiency submodel. In addition, experimental calibration and validation data are still limited for the present hardware configuration, so several parameters are currently represented by engineering estimates.

TODO: insert the final quantitative result highlights from [Section 13](#), including the key no-slip/slip transition findings and the measured impact of the centrifugal correction on predicted torque capacity.

TODO: insert final validation-comparison statement once benchmark and/or experimental datasets are finalized.

Future work will prioritize targeted parameter identification, experimental validation across operating regimes, and extension of the model to include higher-fidelity loss and thermal effects so that predictive accuracy and design decision confidence can be improved further.

A Belt Length Small-Angle Approximation

This appendix quantifies the error introduced by the small-angle approximation commonly used in simplified CVT kinematic models. Using parameter values representative of the physical system considered in this work, we demonstrate that the approximation introduces substantial error in the computed center-to-center distance, then further in the ratio, which is critical for accurate dynamic modeling.

A.1 Standard Approximation

Many simplified treatments assume

$$\frac{r_s - r_p}{C} \ll 1,$$

which implies $\lambda \approx 0$ and therefore

$$\sin^{-1}\left(\frac{r_s - r_p}{C}\right) \approx 0.$$

Under this approximation, the belt-length constraint Equation (7.11) reduces to

$$L_b \approx \pi(r_p + r_s) + 2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_s - r_p)^2}. \quad (\text{A.1})$$

A.2 Derivation of the Approximate Center Distance

To determine the center-to-center distance at the initial configuration, we substitute $r_p = r_{p,\text{outer,min}}$ and $r_s = r_{s,\text{outer,max}}$ into Equation (A.1) and solve for C .

Step 1: Isolate the square root. Rearranging Equation (A.1):

$$L_b - \pi(r_{p,\text{outer,min}} + r_{s,\text{outer,max}}) = 2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_{s,\text{outer,max}} - r_{p,\text{outer,min}})^2}. \quad (\text{A.2})$$

Step 2: Square both sides.

$$[L_b - \pi(r_{p,\text{outer,min}} + r_{s,\text{outer,max}})]^2 = 4[C^2 - (r_{s,\text{outer,max}} - r_{p,\text{outer,min}})^2]. \quad (\text{A.3})$$

Step 3: Solve for C^2 .

$$C^2 = \frac{[L_b - \pi(r_{p,\text{outer,min}} + r_{s,\text{outer,max}})]^2}{4} + (r_{s,\text{outer,max}} - r_{p,\text{outer,min}})^2. \quad (\text{A.4})$$

Step 4: Take the square root. Expanding the squared term in the numerator:

$$[L_b - \pi(r_{p,\text{outer,min}} + r_{s,\text{outer,max}})]^2 = L_b^2 - 2L_b\pi(r_{p,\text{outer,min}} + r_{s,\text{outer,max}}) + \pi^2(r_{p,\text{outer,min}} + r_{s,\text{outer,max}})^2,$$

the approximate center distance becomes

$$C_{\text{approx}} = \sqrt{\frac{L_b^2 - 2L_b\pi(r_{p,\text{outer,min}} + r_{s,\text{outer,max}}) + \pi^2(r_{p,\text{outer,min}} + r_{s,\text{outer,max}})^2}{4} + (r_{s,\text{outer,max}} - r_{p,\text{outer,min}})^2}.$$

(A.5)

This closed-form expression avoids the need for numerical root finding but neglects the $\sin^{-1}$ term in the exact constraint.

A.3 Error Analysis

We now evaluate the approximation error using parameter values from the physical CVT system considered in this work.

System Parameters

Parameter	Value	SI Value
Belt length L_b	37.538 in	0.9535 m
Belt height h_b	0.613 in	0.015 57 m
Groove half-angle β	11.5°	0.2007 rad
Inner primary radius	0.75 in	0.019 05 m
Primary outer radius $r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}}$	1.363 in	0.034 62 m
Secondary outer radius $r_{s,\text{outer},\text{max}}$	4.0 in	0.1016 m

The primary outer radius is computed as the inner radius plus belt height: $r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}} = 0.75 + 0.613 = 1.363$ in.

Computed Center Distances Solving the exact belt-length constraint [Equation \(7.13\)](#) numerically yields

$$C_{\text{exact}} = 0.253\,87\text{ m} \approx 9.995\text{ in.}$$

Evaluating the approximate formula [Equation \(A.5\)](#) yields

$$C_{\text{approx}} = 0.271\,16\text{ m} \approx 10.676\text{ in.}$$

Error Metrics The absolute and relative errors are:

$$\Delta C = C_{\text{approx}} - C_{\text{exact}} = 0.017\,29\text{ m} = 0.681\text{ in,} \quad (\text{A.6})$$

$$\varepsilon_{\text{rel}} = \frac{\Delta C}{C_{\text{exact}}} = \frac{0.01729}{0.25387} = 6.81\%. \quad (\text{A.7})$$

Assessment The small-angle approximation introduces a relative error of nearly 7% in the center-to-center distance for this system. This error arises because the ratio

$$\frac{r_{s,\text{outer},\text{max}} - r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}}}{C} = \frac{0.1016 - 0.03462}{0.25387} = 0.264$$

is not small. The assumption $\lambda \approx 0$ is therefore not justified for this CVT geometry.

Since the center distance C propagates into all subsequent geometric calculations—wrap angles, tangent span lengths, and derived quantities such as the transmission ratio—a 7% error in C can compound into larger errors in predicted system behavior.

A.4 Propagation to Secondary Radius and Transmission Ratio

To demonstrate how the center distance error propagates into operationally relevant quantities, we now examine the secondary radius and CVT ratio at two shift positions: zero shift and maximum shift.

A.4.1 Derivation of the Approximate Secondary Radius

Given a known primary outer radius $r_{p,\text{outer}}$ and center distance C , the secondary outer radius can be obtained by solving the belt-length constraint. Under the small-angle approximation [Equation \(A.1\)](#), this yields a closed-form expression.

Step 1: Isolate the square root. From Equation (A.1):

$$L_b - \pi(r_{p,\text{outer}} + r_{s,\text{outer}}) = 2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_{s,\text{outer}} - r_{p,\text{outer}})^2}. \quad (\text{A.8})$$

Step 2: Square both sides.

$$[L_b - \pi r_{p,\text{outer}} - \pi r_{s,\text{outer}}]^2 = 4[C^2 - (r_{s,\text{outer}} - r_{p,\text{outer}})^2]. \quad (\text{A.9})$$

Step 3: Expand and collect terms. Expanding the left side:

$$(L_b - \pi r_{p,\text{outer}})^2 - 2\pi(L_b - \pi r_{p,\text{outer}})r_{s,\text{outer}} + \pi^2 r_{s,\text{outer}}^2.$$

Expanding the right side:

$$4C^2 - 4r_{s,\text{outer}}^2 + 8r_{p,\text{outer}}r_{s,\text{outer}} - 4r_{p,\text{outer}}^2.$$

Collecting powers of $r_{s,\text{outer}}$ yields a quadratic equation:

$$(\pi^2 + 4)r_{s,\text{outer}}^2 - 2[\pi L_b - \pi^2 r_{p,\text{outer}} + 4r_{p,\text{outer}}]r_{s,\text{outer}} + [(L_b - \pi r_{p,\text{outer}})^2 + 4r_{p,\text{outer}}^2 - 4C^2] = 0. \quad (\text{A.10})$$

Step 4: Apply the quadratic formula. The physically meaningful root (smaller secondary radius for overdrive configuration) is

$$r_{s,\text{approx}} = \frac{\pi L_b + (4 - \pi^2)r_{p,\text{outer}} - 2\sqrt{(\pi^2 + 4)C^2 - L_b^2 + 4\pi L_b r_{p,\text{outer}} - 4\pi^2 r_{p,\text{outer}}^2}}{\pi^2 + 4}. \quad (\text{A.11})$$

This closed-form expression enables direct computation of the approximate secondary radius without numerical root finding.

A.4.2 Zero Shift Configuration

At zero shift, the CVT is in its lowest ratio (maximum reduction) configuration. This is also the geometry used to compute the approximate center distance C_{approx} , so much of that initial center-distance error cancels when the same configuration is used again to recover the secondary radius.

Primary Radius at Zero Shift At $s = 0$, the primary is within the deadzone, so from Equation (7.3):

$$r_{p,\text{outer}}(0) = r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}} = 0.034\,62\,\text{m}.$$

Secondary Radius Comparison Solving the exact belt-length constraint with C_{exact} yields

$$r_{s,\text{exact}} = 0.101\,61\,\text{m}.$$

Evaluating the approximate formula Equation (A.11) with $C_{\text{approx}} = 0.271\,16\,\text{m}$ yields

$$r_{s,\text{approx}} = 0.101\,61\,\text{m}.$$

Transmission Ratio Error Computing effective radii with $h_b/2 = 0.00779$ m:

Quantity	Exact	Approximate
$r_{p,\text{eff}}$	0.0268 m	0.0268 m
$r_{s,\text{eff}}$	0.0938 m	0.0938 m
$R = r_{s,\text{eff}}/r_{p,\text{eff}}$	3.496	3.497

The ratio error at zero shift is

$$\varepsilon_R = \frac{|3.497 - 3.496|}{3.496} \approx 0.005\%.$$

Thus, although C_{approx} is already 6.81% too large, the induced error has little visible effect at minimum shift because the radius calculation is being evaluated at the same operating point used to construct that approximate center distance in the first place.

Figure 42: Scaled diagram of the CVT at zero shift ($s = 0$). The primary pulley (left) and exact secondary pulley (right, solid line) are shown alongside the approximate secondary pulley (dotted line). The two solutions nearly overlap at this operating point, indicating negligible ratio error in this case.

A.4.3 Maximum Shift Configuration

At maximum shift, the primary and secondary pulleys are closest in size, representing a near-crossover configuration.

Primary Radius at Maximum Shift Using Equation (7.3) with $s = s_{\text{max}} = 0.75$ in = 0.01905 m and deadzone $s_{\text{dz}} = 0.0024892$ m:

$$\begin{aligned}
r_{p,\text{outer}}(s_{\text{max}}) &= r_{p,\text{outer},\text{min}} + \frac{s_{\text{max}} - s_{\text{dz}}}{2 \tan \beta} \\
&= 0.03462 + \frac{0.01905 - 0.0024892}{2 \times \tan(11.5^\circ)} \\
&= 0.03462 + \frac{0.01656}{0.4070} \\
&= 0.0753 \text{ m.}
\end{aligned} \tag{A.12}$$

Secondary Radius Comparison Solving the exact belt-length constraint Equation (7.13) numerically with $C_{\text{exact}} = 0.25387$ m yields

$$r_{s,\text{exact}} = 0.06647 \text{ m.}$$

Evaluating the approximate formula Equation (A.11) with $C_{\text{approx}} = 0.27116$ m yields

$$r_{s,\text{approx}} = 0.05600 \text{ m.}$$

Transmission Ratio Error The CVT ratio is defined using effective radii, which account for belt seating depth (Equation (7.23)):

$$r_{\text{eff}} = r_{\text{outer}} - \frac{h_b}{2}.$$

With $h_b/2 = 0.00779$ m:

Quantity	Exact	Approximate
$r_{p,\text{eff}}$	0.0675 m	0.0675 m
$r_{s,\text{eff}}$	0.0587 m	0.0482 m
$R = r_{s,\text{eff}}/r_{p,\text{eff}}$	0.869	0.714

Both models predict underdrive ($R < 1$), but the approximation substantially underestimates the ratio. The ratio error is

$$\varepsilon_R = \frac{|0.714 - 0.869|}{0.869} = 17.8\%.$$

Unlike the minimum-shift case, this operating point does not benefit from the same cancellation, so the center-distance error propagates into a much larger error in secondary radius and transmission ratio.

Figure 43: Scaled diagram of the CVT at maximum shift ($s = s_{\text{max}}$). The primary pulley (left) and exact secondary pulley (right, solid line) are shown alongside the approximate secondary pulley (dotted line). The approximation underestimates the secondary radius, leading to a lower predicted ratio than the exact model.

A.5 Summary of Approximation Errors

Configuration	R_{exact}	R_{approx}	Ratio Error
Zero shift ($s = 0$)	3.496	3.497	0.005%
Maximum shift ($s = s_{\text{max}}$)	0.869	0.714	17.8%

The small-angle approximation error is strongly operating-point dependent. At zero shift, most of the center-distance error cancels because the approximate center distance was itself constructed from that same geometry. At maximum shift, that cancellation is lost and the ratio error becomes substantial.

These errors arise from the initial 6.81% error in center distance, which propagates nonlinearly through the belt-length geometry in a state-dependent way. Since the transmission ratio directly enters the rotational equations of motion (Section 12), this approximation can still produce materially inaccurate dynamics near maximum shift.

This analysis justifies the use of exact numerical solutions for all geometric computations in this work.

B Common Ramp Profile Designs

This appendix presents common ramp profile parameterizations for CVT primary pulley actuation. From Equation (8.8), the centrifugal axial force is

$$F_{p,\text{cent}}(s, \omega_p) = m_f \omega_p^2 (r_{f,0} + r_f(s)) \frac{dr_f}{ds}, \quad (\text{B.1})$$

where m_f is the flyweight mass, $r_{f,0}$ is the initial flyweight radius, and $r_f(s)$ is the radial displacement along the ramp as a function of axial shift s .

The profile $r_f(s)$ must satisfy the admissibility conditions from Section 8: continuously differentiable, non-negative slope, and finite slope throughout $[0, s_{\max}]$.

B.1 Linear Ramp

A linear ramp with slope k_r (radial displacement per unit axial shift):

$$r_f(s) = k_r \cdot s, \quad \frac{dr_f}{ds} = k_r = \text{const.} \quad (\text{B.2})$$

Substituting into Equation (B.1):

$$F_{p,\text{cent}}(s, \omega_p) = m_f \omega_p^2 k_r (r_{f,0} + k_r s) = m_f \omega_p^2 k_r r_{f,0} + m_f \omega_p^2 k_r^2 s. \quad (\text{B.3})$$

At constant ω_p , axial force increases linearly with s because the growing radius is multiplied by a constant slope. Simple to manufacture, but may cause aggressive shifting at high ratio.

B.2 Circular Arc Ramp

A circular arc ramp is designed to reduce force variation across the shift range by achieving *partial* cancellation. The key insight is to parameterize the arc by desired slope angles α_1 and α_2 at the start and end of the segment, where $|dr_f/ds| = \tan \alpha$ specifies the force multiplier. This provides direct control over actuation behavior at engagement (high slope) versus overdrive (low slope).

For a circle of radius R_c centered at (s_c, r_c) , the ramp profile satisfies:

$$(s - s_c)^2 + (r_f - r_c)^2 = R_c^2. \quad (\text{B.4})$$

Solving for $r_f(s)$ on the upper arc:

$$r_f(s) = r_c + \sqrt{R_c^2 - (s - s_c)^2}. \quad (\text{B.5})$$

Implicit differentiation yields:

$$\frac{dr_f}{ds} = \frac{-(s - s_c)}{\sqrt{R_c^2 - (s - s_c)^2}} = \frac{-(s - s_c)}{r_f - r_c}. \quad (\text{B.6})$$

Parameterization from slope angles. At any point on the arc where the local slope angle is α (i.e. $dr_f/ds = \tan \alpha$), the circle constraint combined with Equation (B.6) gives the parametric form:

$$s = s_c - R_c \sin \alpha, \quad r_f = r_c + R_c \cos \alpha. \quad (\text{B.7})$$

The slope angle α decreases monotonically from α_1 (entry) to $\alpha_2 < \alpha_1$ (exit) as s increases along the ramp. Applying Equation (B.7) at both boundary shifts s_1 and s_2 and subtracting:

$$s_2 - s_1 = R_c(\sin \alpha_1 - \sin \alpha_2). \quad (\text{B.8})$$

With $\Delta s = s_2 - s_1$ as the total axial span of the ramp segment, the arc radius and center are determined entirely by the two slope angles:

$$R_c = \frac{\Delta s}{\sin \alpha_1 - \sin \alpha_2}, \quad s_c = s_1 + R_c \sin \alpha_1. \quad (\text{B.9})$$

The boundary condition $r_f(s_1) = 0$ (flyweights at their initial radius at ramp entry) then fixes the radial center:

$$r_c = -R_c \cos \alpha_1. \quad (\text{B.10})$$

Substituting into Equation (B.1):

$$F_{p,\text{cent}}(s, \omega_p) = m_f \omega_p^2 (r_{f,0} + r_f) \cdot \frac{-(s - s_c)}{r_f - r_c}. \quad (\text{B.11})$$

To see the cancellation explicitly, split $r_{f,0} + r_f = (r_{f,0} + r_c) + (r_f - r_c)$:

$$\begin{aligned} F_{p,\text{cent}} &= m_f \omega_p^2 \left[\underbrace{(r_f - r_c)}_{\text{cancels}} \cdot \frac{-(s - s_c)}{r_f - r_c} + (r_{f,0} + r_c) \cdot \frac{-(s - s_c)}{r_f - r_c} \right] \\ &= -m_f \omega_p^2 (s - s_c) \left[1 + \frac{r_{f,0} + r_c}{r_f - r_c} \right]. \end{aligned} \quad (\text{B.12})$$

This form reveals the structure clearly. The dominant factor is $-(s - s_c)$, which is linear in shift: the $(r_f - r_c)$ terms cancel exactly in the first part of the split. The bracket $\left[1 + \frac{r_{f,0} + r_c}{r_f - r_c} \right]$ is a nonlinear correction multiplier. Using the parametric form Equation (B.7) with Equation (B.10), the bracket evaluates to

$$1 + \frac{r_{f,0} + r_c}{r_f - r_c} = 1 + \frac{r_{f,0} - R_c \cos \alpha_1}{R_c \cos \alpha}, \quad (\text{B.13})$$

where α is the local slope angle at shift s , sweeping from α_1 at entry to α_2 at exit. This makes the effective proportionality between force and $(s - s_c)$ position-dependent.

The numerator $r_{f,0} - R_c \cos \alpha_1$ is the key residual: it is controlled entirely by the choice of α_1 , α_2 , and Δs through $R_c = \Delta s / (\sin \alpha_1 - \sin \alpha_2)$. Increasing either α_1 or Δs raises R_c , making $R_c \cos \alpha_1$ larger and the residual smaller (or negative). The entry force scale, the exit force scale, and the degree of position-dependence between them are therefore all coupled to the same two angle choices. There is no freedom to set the overall force scale independently of the nonlinearity — changing α_1 and α_2 adjusts both simultaneously.

The condition $r_{f,0} = R_c \cos \alpha_1$ makes the residual zero, so the bracket equals 1 everywhere and force is exactly proportional to shift. This is the angle configuration at which the circular arc best approximates the hyperbolic ideal — it gives a practical design rule for tuning.

The practical consequence is important: at a fixed engine speed ω_p , the centrifugal force is approximately proportional to $(s - s_c)$, growing linearly with shift. This directly matches the linear restoring force of the primary spring (force $\propto k_s \cdot s$). A spring-loaded primary can therefore be tuned to balance the centrifugal flyweights at a target shift, and the linear character of the circular arc ensures the equilibrium is stable across the shift range rather than concentrated at a single point.

Circular arcs are widely used in practice due to ease of manufacture and sufficient compensation. The nonlinear residual is small when the ramp center offset $(r_{f,0} + r_c)$ is small relative to the arc radius R_c , but it cannot be eliminated entirely. The following section shows how to *exactly* achieve the linear target by choosing a different ramp geometry.

B.3 Hyperbolic Ramp (Perfect Cancellation)

From Equation (B.13), the circular arc force-to-shift proportionality constant is:

$$\frac{F_{p,\text{cent}}}{-m_f \omega_p^2 (s - s_c)} = 1 + \frac{r_{f,0} - R_c \cos \alpha_1}{R_c \cos \alpha}. \quad (\text{B.14})$$

This varies with position because α changes along the arc. The natural question is: what ramp profile makes this ratio a *true constant*? That constant is what we call K , and the profile that achieves it satisfies:

$$(r_{f,0} + r_f(s)) \frac{dr_f}{ds} = Ks, \quad (\text{B.15})$$

where $K > 0$. This produces centrifugal force exactly proportional to shift:

$$F_{p,\text{cent}}(s, \omega_p) = m_f \omega_p^2 Ks. \quad (\text{B.16})$$

K is not a free parameter any more than R_c is for the circular arc: just as R_c is uniquely determined by α_1 , α_2 , and Δs (Equation (B.9)), K is uniquely determined by α_1 , α_2 , s_1 , and s_2 (derived in the parameterization below). What differs is not the design inputs, but that the hyperbolic profile makes K exactly constant along the entire ramp, whereas the circular arc's equivalent ratio changes with position.

Deriving the profile. Equation (B.15) is separable. Substituting $u = r_{f,0} + r_f$, so $du/ds = dr_f/ds$:

$$u du = Ks ds. \quad (\text{B.17})$$

Integrating both sides and writing the constant of integration as $\frac{1}{2} K s_0^2$:

$$\frac{1}{2} u^2 = \frac{1}{2} K (s^2 + s_0^2). \quad (\text{B.18})$$

Substituting back $u = r_{f,0} + r_f$:

$$\boxed{(r_{f,0} + r_f(s))^2 = K(s^2 + s_0^2)}, \quad (\text{B.19})$$

giving the explicit profile:

$$r_f(s) = \sqrt{K(s^2 + s_0^2)} - r_{f,0}. \quad (\text{B.20})$$

In the (s, r_f) plane, the locus $(r_{f,0} + r_f)^2 = Ks^2$ (taking $s_0 = 0$) is a branch of a *hyperbola* — hence the name. Unlike the circular arc, where the residual multiplier in Equation (B.12) could not be removed, this profile forces the product $(r_{f,0} + r_f) \cdot dr_f/ds = Ks$ exactly for all s .

Local slope and its variation. To see how K relates to actual ramp angles, differentiate Equation (B.19) implicitly:

$$\frac{dr_f}{ds} = \frac{Ks}{r_{f,0} + r_f} = \frac{\sqrt{K} s}{\sqrt{s^2 + s_0^2}}. \quad (\text{B.21})$$

Since $dr_f/ds = \tan \alpha(s)$ by definition of the ramp slope angle, the local angle satisfies:

$$\tan \alpha(s) = \frac{\sqrt{K} s}{\sqrt{s^2 + s_0^2}}. \quad (\text{B.22})$$

Two observations follow. First, the slope is zero at $s = 0$ and grows monotonically toward the asymptote $\sqrt{K}$ as $s \rightarrow \infty$. This is the opposite trend from a circular arc, where the slope decreases from entry to exit. The reason is that the growing lever arm $(r_{f,0} + r_f)$ at large shift would otherwise amplify force super-linearly; a rising slope exactly compensates to keep the product Ks linear. Second, the asymptotic slope $\lim_{s \rightarrow \infty} \tan \alpha(s) = \sqrt{K}$ gives a simple interpretation: $K = \tan^2 \alpha_\infty$ where α_∞ is the slope the profile approaches at large shift.

Parameterization by entry and exit angles. Following the same convention as Appendix B.2, specify desired slope angles α_1 and α_2 at entry shift s_1 and exit shift s_2 . From Equation (B.22):

$$\tan^2 \alpha_1 = \frac{K s_1^2}{s_1^2 + s_0^2}, \quad \tan^2 \alpha_2 = \frac{K s_2^2}{s_2^2 + s_0^2}. \quad (\text{B.23})$$

Dividing the two equations eliminates K :

$$\frac{\tan^2 \alpha_1}{\tan^2 \alpha_2} = \frac{s_1^2 (s_2^2 + s_0^2)}{s_2^2 (s_1^2 + s_0^2)}. \quad (\text{B.24})$$

Solving for s_0^2 :

$$s_0^2 = \frac{s_1^2 s_2^2 (\tan^2 \alpha_2 - \tan^2 \alpha_1)}{\tan^2 \alpha_1 s_2^2 - \tan^2 \alpha_2 s_1^2}. \quad (\text{B.25})$$

Then K follows from either condition in Equation (B.23):

$$K = \frac{\tan^2 \alpha_1 (s_1^2 + s_0^2)}{s_1^2}. \quad (\text{B.26})$$

For $s_0^2 > 0$ a consistent solution requires the numerator and denominator of Equation (B.25) to have the same sign. Since the hyperbolic slope increases with s (Eq. (B.21)), the physically consistent case is $\alpha_2 > \alpha_1$ (exit angle larger than entry), with $\tan^2 \alpha_1 s_2^2 > \tan^2 \alpha_2 s_1^2$ ensuring a positive denominator. No solution exists when the two angle conditions give a degenerate system ($\tan^2 \alpha_1 s_2^2 = \tan^2 \alpha_2 s_1^2$).

Practical impact. In most cases the difference between circular and hyperbolic profiles is negligible. For the specific ramps implemented in this work, the integrated force deviation across the full shift range is less than 1%. The hyperbolic derivation is nonetheless useful: it establishes the theoretical ideal and shows that the circular arc’s partial cancellation is not a fundamental limitation but rather a small correction from the constant offset $(r_{f,0} + r_c)$.

Limitations. Both profiles address only the centrifugal force term. The secondary pulley torque feedback ($F_{s,ax}(s, \tau_s)$ in Equation (12.9)) introduces load-dependent nonlinear terms that no ramp geometry alone can cancel. Circular arcs therefore remain the practical standard—simpler to manufacture, well-understood, and sufficient given these irreducible secondary-side effects.

B.4 Piecewise Ramps and Smoothing

Any of the profiles above can be combined in a piecewise fashion: multiple linear segments, multiple circular arcs with different angle pairs, or a mix of profile types joined at transition shifts $s_1, s_2, \dots, s_{n-1}$. This allows region-specific tuning — steeper slopes at engagement, moderate for cruise, gentler near overdrive — without committing to a single global geometry.

Admissibility at junctions. The admissibility conditions from Section 8 require $r_f(s)$ to be continuously differentiable (C^1). A piecewise ramp satisfies C^0 by construction (the profile value is continuous if segments are joined at a common point), but slope continuity may be violated: if the left-segment slope at s_k differs from the right-segment slope, Eq. (B.1) gives a finite force jump at that point. No kinematic singularity occurs, but the force has a step discontinuity.

Numerical stiffness considerations. A sharp slope discontinuity is not the same as a smooth rapid transition: many real implementations use a finite but steep blend region, which the ODE solver sees as an extremely large second derivative d^2r_f/ds^2 near the junction. This can create a locally stiff region and force an adaptive integrator to take very small steps near the knot, even if the discontinuity is physically mild. If simulation performance is a concern, slope transitions should be blended — a short circular arc segment tangent to both adjoining profiles is sufficient, as it restores C^1 continuity and bounds d^2r_f/ds^2 throughout the ramp.

C Numerical Methods Summary

This section documents the numerical algorithms used for belt-geometry root finding and dynamic simulation, including the specific tolerances, bracketing strategies, and solver configurations employed in the implementation.

C.1 Root Finding for Belt-Length Constraint

Given a known primary outer radius r_1 and fixed center-to-center distance C , the secondary outer radius r_2 is the unique root of the belt-length constraint. This scalar root problem is obtained by rearranging the exact belt length closure from Equation (7.13) into the residual form:

$$g(r_2; r_1) = \pi(r_1 + r_2) + 2(r_2 - r_1) \arcsin\left(\frac{r_2 - r_1}{C}\right) + 2\sqrt{C^2 - (r_2 - r_1)^2} - L_b = 0, \quad (\text{C.1})$$

where L_b is the fixed belt length. A separate invocation solves for the center-to-center distance C itself at initialization, using the same equation evaluated at the boundary radii $(r_{1,\min}, r_{2,\max})$ with

C as the unknown; this is exactly the initialization step implied by Equation (7.13) before the ratio law Equation (12.2) can be evaluated over the shift range.

Bracketing strategy. The arcsin term in Equation (C.1) is real only when $|r_2 - r_1| \leq C$, so the natural domain for r_2 is the open interval $(r_1 - C, r_1 + C)$. Within this interval a sign change is guaranteed: at the lower boundary $r_2 \rightarrow r_1 - C$, the arcsin saturates to $-\pi/2$ and the square root vanishes, giving $g \rightarrow 2\pi r_1 - 2\pi C - L_b < 0$ for all physically valid parameters. At the upper boundary $r_2 \rightarrow r_1 + C$, by symmetry $g \rightarrow 2\pi r_1 + 2\pi C - L_b > 0$, satisfied whenever the belt length is less than the circumference subtended by the wider pulley pair — a requirement any real CVT must satisfy. A small safety margin $\varepsilon = 10^{-9}$ m is applied at both ends to keep arcsin away from its domain boundary where the function becomes numerically steep.

For center-to-center distance solving, the bracket is instead the interval $(\Delta r + \varepsilon, L_b/2)$, where $\Delta r = |r_{2,\text{eff}} - r_{1,\text{eff}}|$ is the effective-radius difference at the boundary configuration. The lower bound ensures arcsin is defined; the upper bound is a conservative geometric limit (a straight two-span belt cannot exceed L_b across a gap of $L_b/2$). Both brackets are validated by an explicit sign-change check before invoking the solver, so any failure to bracket immediately identifies an infeasible geometry rather than producing a silent wrong answer.

Brent’s method. Both roots are found using `scipy.optimize.brentq`, an implementation of Brent’s algorithm Brent (1973). The method combines three strategies: bisection (guaranteed bracket-halving), secant interpolation (superlinear convergence near smooth roots), and inverse quadratic interpolation (order- ≈ 1.84 convergence when three previous iterates are well-conditioned). Whenever the faster interpolation steps would place the next iterate outside the current bracket, the algorithm falls back to bisection, preserving the worst-case $O(\log_2(1/\varepsilon))$ guarantee of pure bisection. Because the sign-change brackets described above are guaranteed for all valid CVT geometries, `brentq` is certain to converge. Both root solves use an absolute tolerance of 10^{-9} m, well below any physically meaningful length precision.

C.2 ODE Integration for Dynamic Simulation

The full CVT state vector $\mathbf{x} = (\omega_p, \omega_s, s, \dot{s})$ is integrated using `scipy.integrate.solve_ivp`. The governing system is the assembled first-order model in Equation (12.10), with rotational sub-equations Equation (12.7) and Equation (12.8), axial dynamics Equation (12.9), and algebraic geometry closures Equation (12.2) and Equation (12.3). The time integrator is used with the RK45 method — the Dormand–Prince explicit embedded Runge–Kutta pair Dormand and Prince (1980). The method propagates the state with a 5th-order formula and simultaneously computes a 4th-order companion estimate for local error control, using the same six function evaluations. The tableau is FSAL (first-same-as-last): the final stage of each accepted step is reused as the first stage of the next, so only five new evaluations are needed per step in steady operation.

Adaptive step size control. At each candidate step the per-component local error estimate $\hat{e}_i$ is compared to a mixed tolerance threshold. A step is accepted when

$$\max_i \frac{|\hat{e}_i|}{\text{atol} + \text{rtol} \cdot |y_i|} \leq 1, \quad (\text{C.2})$$

and the next step size is scaled proportionally to $(\text{tol}/\hat{e})^{1/5}$. The tolerances used in this work are $\text{atol} = 10^{-6}$ and $\text{rtol} = 10^{-4}$ (Table 7). The absolute floor prevents spurious step rejection when a

state variable passes through zero (e.g. $\dot{s} \approx 0$ at shift equilibrium or $\omega_p \approx 0$ at engine start), where a purely relative criterion would demand unreachable accuracy.

Parameter	Value	Interpretation
atol	10^{-6}	absolute floor: 1 μm on s , 1 $\mu\text{rad/s}$ on ω
rtol	10^{-4}	relative tolerance: 0.01% of current state magnitude
t_eval	10 000 pts	uniform output grid over 30 s

Table 7: ODE solver tolerance parameters.

Event detection. Phase transitions (shift engagement, boundary contact, back-shift onset) are located using `solve_ivp`’s event mechanism. These events correspond to qualitative changes in the dynamics around the bounded shift coordinate used in Equation (12.9) and the full state evolution in Equation (12.10). After each accepted step the solver evaluates the event functions on a degree-4 dense-output interpolant and applies a root-finding pass to detect any sign change within the step. When a crossing is found it is bracketed at sub-tolerance precision before being reported, so transitions are located with the same accuracy as the integration tolerance rather than being snapped to the coarse output grid.

Phase splitting at hard constraints. The shift bounds $s \in [0, s_{\max}]$ with $\dot{s} = 0$ at both endpoints are handled by partitioning the trajectory into separate `solve_ivp` calls rather than imposing inequality constraints inside the ODE. Each phase — normal shifting, clamped-at-maximum, and back-shifting — presents a smooth right-hand side to the integrator, allowing RK45 to operate at full 5th-order accuracy throughout. The terminal event of each phase supplies the initial condition of the next. This is numerically cleaner than directly clamping Equation (12.9) inside a single solve because it preserves a smooth right-hand side within each phase. Up to ten alternating full-shift / back-shift cycles are supported before the simulation terminates, preventing unbounded phase loops for unusual parameter regimes.

C.3 Slip-Law Regularization and Blend Parameter Selection

The traction law in Equation (11.12) is physically clear but discontinuous at $v_{\text{rel}} = 0$, which can induce step-size chatter near stick–slip transitions. A practical regularized formulation uses three ideas: a smooth saturation law, a clamped no-slip torque request, and a blending rule between those two limits.

First define a smooth saturation torque

$$\tau_{\text{sat}} = \tau_{\text{max}} \tanh\left(\frac{v_{\text{rel}}}{v_{\text{smooth}}}\right), \quad (\text{C.3})$$

where $v_{\text{smooth}} > 0$ sets the transition width in slip-speed units. For $|v_{\text{rel}}| \gg v_{\text{smooth}}$, this approaches the usual friction-limited value $\pm\tau_{\text{max}}$, while near zero it removes the sharp sign discontinuity.

Next, clamp the no-slip torque request:

$$\tau_{\text{req}} = \text{clip}(\tau_{\text{ns}}, -\tau_{\text{max}}, \tau_{\text{max}}). \quad (\text{C.4})$$

This is the largest admissible torque consistent with the no-slip request, without allowing the requested value to exceed traction capacity.

Then define the blend factor

$$\alpha = \text{clip}\left(\frac{|v_{\text{rel}}|}{v_{\text{blend}}}, 0, 1\right), \quad (\text{C.5})$$

with $v_{\text{blend}} > 0$ defining the width of the blending region, and use the transmitted torque

$$\tau_c = (1 - \alpha) \tau_{\text{req}} + \alpha \tau_{\text{sat}}. \quad (\text{C.6})$$

This has a useful interpretation. For very small mismatch, $\alpha \approx 0$, so the model stays close to the clamped no-slip demand. For larger mismatch, $\alpha \rightarrow 1$, so the law transitions to the smooth Coulomb limit. In other words, the regularized model behaves like a requested no-slip torque near stick and like a friction-limited sliding law once the mismatch becomes appreciable.

How to choose v_{smooth} . Choose the smoothing scale small enough that $\tanh(v_{\text{rel}}/v_{\text{smooth}})$ is close to a sign law through most of the slip regime, but not so small that the solver again sees an effectively discontinuous transition. A practical workflow is:

1. Start with v_{smooth} around 0.5–2% of a representative relative-speed magnitude seen during actual slip.
2. Decrease it until predicted macro outputs (ratio trajectory, launch time, peak speeds) stop changing materially.
3. Increase it slightly if event localization or adaptive step-size behavior becomes noisy near $v_{\text{rel}} \approx 0$.

The blend scale v_{blend} should generally be chosen greater than or equal to v_{smooth} , so that the handoff from clamped demand to the smooth Coulomb limit is not sharper than the smoothing law itself.

D Secondary Capacity Closure

This remains a placeholder for now, as it relies on outdated equations, but one can see how the circular dependency can be resolved.

$$\gamma_{\text{ext}} = \bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \left(\frac{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}}{\Phi} + u^* p A \right)$$

$$r_{\text{ext}} = \frac{h_r q + \gamma_i}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} + K_d$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \gamma_{\text{ext}} = \bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \left(\frac{2 \left(\frac{h_r q + \gamma_i}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} + K_d \right) \cos(\beta)}{\Phi} + u^* p A \right)$$

$$A = u^* p A \quad B = \bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \quad C = h_r q \quad D = 2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)} \quad E = K_d \quad F = \frac{2B \cos(\beta)}{\Phi}$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \gamma_{\text{ext}} = \bar{a} \left(\frac{C + \frac{\gamma_i}{D} + E}{\Phi} + F \right)$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \frac{2B \cos(\beta)}{\Phi} \left(\frac{C + \frac{\gamma_i}{D} + E}{\Phi} + F \right) + BA$$

$$F = \frac{2B \cos(\beta)}{\Phi}$$

$$\gamma_i + F \left(\frac{C + \frac{\gamma_i}{D} + E}{\Phi} + F \right) + BA$$

$$\gamma_i + \frac{F(C + \frac{\gamma_i}{D} + E) + FE + BA}{\Phi}$$

$$\gamma_i + F \frac{\gamma_i}{\Phi} \leq \frac{F}{\Phi} + FE + BA$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \frac{F}{1 - \frac{F}{\Phi}} + FE + BA$$

$$A = u^* p A \quad B = \bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \quad C = h_r q \quad D = 2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)} \quad E = K_d \quad F = \frac{2B \cos(\beta)}{\Phi}$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \frac{\frac{F}{\Phi} + FE + BA}{1 - \frac{F}{\Phi}} \quad \gamma_i \leq \frac{\frac{2B \cos(\beta)}{\Phi} h_r q}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} + \frac{2B \cos(\beta) K_d}{\Phi} + \left(\bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right) u^* p A$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \frac{\frac{2B \cos(\beta)}{\Phi}}{1 - \frac{F}{\Phi}}$$

$$\frac{2 \bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \cos(\beta)}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} h_r q + \frac{2 \bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \cos(\beta)}{\Phi} K_d + \left(\bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right) u^* p A$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \frac{2 \bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \cos(\beta)}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \left(1 - \frac{2 \bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \cos(\beta)}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \right)$$

$$\frac{2 \bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \cos(\beta)}{\Phi} K_d = \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{\Phi}$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \frac{\left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right) \frac{h_r q + 2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} + \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{\Phi} + \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \left(\bar{a} u^* p A \right)}{1 - \frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right)}$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \frac{\left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right) \frac{h_r q + 2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} + \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{\Phi} + \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \left(\bar{a} u^* p A \right)}{1 - \frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right)} \cdot \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}}$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \frac{\frac{h_r q + 2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} + \frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{\Phi} + \left(\bar{a} u^* p A \right)}{\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} - \frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right)} \cdot \frac{1}{\frac{1}{e^{m+1}}}$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \frac{\frac{h_r q + \cos(\beta)}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} + \frac{2 \cos(\beta) K_d}{\Phi} + \left(\bar{a} u^* p A \right)}{\frac{e^{m-1}}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} - \frac{h_r q + \cos(\beta)}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \right)} \cdot \frac{\Phi}{8}$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \frac{\frac{h_r q}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \cos(\beta) + 2 K_d \cos(\beta) + \left(\bar{a} u^* p A \right)}{\frac{8 \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \right)}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} - 4 \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \right) \cos(\beta)} \cdot \frac{1}{\frac{1}{2}}$$

$$\gamma_i \leq \frac{\left(\frac{h_r q}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} + K_d \right) \cos(\beta) + \frac{1}{2} \left(\bar{a} u^* p A \right)}{\frac{8 \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \right)}{4 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} - 2 \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \right) \cos(\beta)}$$

$$\left(\bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right) u^* p A + \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \left(\bar{a} u^* p A \right)$$

$$1 - \frac{2 \bar{a} r \frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \cos(\beta)}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} = 1 - \frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right)$$

$$\frac{2 \bar{a} r \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right) \cos(\beta)}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} h_r q = \frac{\left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right) h_r q + 2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right)$$

$$1 - \frac{2 \bar{a} r \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right) \cos(\beta)}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} = 1 - \frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right)$$

$$1 - \left(\frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \right) \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right)$$

$$1 - \left(\frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \right) \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right)$$

$$1 - \frac{h_r q + \bar{a} r \cos(\beta) K_d}{2 \sqrt{\cos(\beta)}} \left(\frac{e^{m-1}}{e^{m+1}} \right)$$

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